
Economic Commission for Europe

Conference of European Statisticians

Seventy-third plenary session

Geneva, 16–18 June 2025

Item 8 (d) of the provisional agenda

**Reports, guidelines and recommendations prepared under
the umbrella of the Conference: Guidelines on measuring well-being**

Guidelines on measurement of well-being

Note by the Task Force on measurement of well-being

Summary

This document presents the Guidelines on measurement of well-being. The Guidelines were prepared by the CES Task Force on measurement of well-being composed of Israel (Chair), Armenia, Canada, France, Ireland, Italy, Japan, Malta, Netherlands, New Zealand, Poland, Portugal, Slovakia, United Kingdom, United States (Bureau of Labor Statistics), Eurostat, Organisation for Economic Co-operation and Development (OECD), UNICEF, UNECLAC and UNSD

The purpose of the Guidelines is to provide guidance on the measurement of well-being for countries that produce or consider producing well-being indicators. The Guidelines provide recommendations on the dimensions of well-being, on the selection and compilation of statistical indicators, data sources and the dissemination and communication of well-being indicators to the public.

In February 2024, the CES Bureau reviewed the document and requested the United Nations Economic Commission for Europe (UNECE) Secretariat to send it to all members of the Conference of European Statisticians (CES) for consultation. The document was sent to all CES members for electronic consultation in April-May 2025. Summary of the feedback from the consultation is provided in document ECE/CES/2025/5/Add.1.

This version of the Guidelines includes all the amendments resulting from the consultation. In view of the strong support expressed in the consultation, the Conference is invited to endorse the Guidelines on measurement of well-being.

UNITED NATIONS ECONOMIC COMMISSION FOR EUROPE

Guidelines on measurement of well-being



United Nations

Geneva, 2025

Preface

The well-being of individuals and households attracts much attention from decision makers, media and the public in general and statistical offices have experienced a growing demand for official statistics to shed light on people's well-being and the state of society 'beyond GDP'. Well-being refers to the different aspects of life that are crucial to meeting human needs and the ability and freedom to pursue one's goals, to thrive and feel satisfied with life. It is a multidimensional concept that encompasses economic, social and environmental dimensions.

The multidimensional nature of well-being, covering all aspects of life, makes the measurement of well-being a complex undertaking. While many statistical offices have experience in compiling and disseminating well-being indicators, practices differ among countries. In 2023, the Bureau of the Conference of European Statisticians therefore established a Task Force to develop a set of statistical Guidelines to support countries that produce or consider producing well-being indicators and promote international comparability. These Guidelines are the results of the work of the Task Force.

The guidelines focus on the measurement of well-being 'here and now', now'; a subset of a broader conception of well-being that also considers well-being 'elsewhere' and 'later'. The Guidelines provide recommendations on the dimensions of well-being, on the selection and compilation of statistical indicators, data sources and the dissemination and communication of well-being indicators to the public.

The Guidelines adopts the multidimensional approach to measuring well-being of the Stiglitz-Sen-Fitoussi report on measurement of economic performance and social progress (2009) and draws on existing frameworks for measuring well-being, including the Conference of European Statisticians Recommendations on Measuring Sustainable Development (2014), OECD's Framework for measuring Well-being and Progress and Eurostat's Quality of Life Indicators.

The Guidelines are targeted at national statistical offices. Others interested in the compilation and use of well-being indicators may also find the Guidelines useful.

Acknowledgements

The Guidelines were prepared by the UNECE Task Force on measurement of well-being. The Task Force was established by the Bureau of the Conference of European Statisticians in October 2023 and worked until June 2025. The Guidelines are the result of its joint work. The Task Force was composed of the following members: Amit Yagur-Kroll (Israel, Chair), Lusine Markosyan (Armenia), Kari Wolanski and Craig Joyce (Canada), Jean-Marc Germain (France), Sarah Crilly, Keith McSweeney and Morgan O'Donnel (Ireland), Alessandra Tinto (Italy), Tadashi Yokoyama and Kaneta Sato (Japan), Etienne Caruana and Leanne Marie Vassallo (Malta), Edwin Horlings and Moniek Coumans (Netherlands), Simon Brown, Sini Miller and Mark Turner (New Zealand), Anna Bienkunska and Arkadiusz Góralczyk (Poland), Sérgio Bacelar (Portugal), Ludmila Ivancikova (Slovakia), Eleanor Rees and Richard Heys (United Kingdom), Thesia Garner (United States, BLS), Georgiana IVAN (Eurostat), Lara Fleischer (OECD), Gwyther Rees and Deepak Kumar Dey (UNICEF), Pablo Villatoro (UNECLAC), Annegeke Jansen (Leiden University, the Netherlands), Francesca Grum and Iliana Vaca Trigo (UNSD), Carsten Boldsen, Simiao Wang and Evita Sisene (UNECE).

The chapters of the Guidelines were drafted by lead authors Amit Yagur-Kroll (Israel), Edwin Horlings (Netherlands), Eleanor Rees (United Kingdom) and Lara Fleischer (OECD). Deepak Kumar Dey (UNICEF) was the lead author of the Annex. Task force members contributed with comments and suggestions to draft versions of the chapters.

Contents

Preface.....	i
Acknowledgements	ii
Chapter 1 Introduction	6
1.1 Background.....	6
1.2 Objectives of the guidelines	8
1.3 Overview of the guidelines.....	8
1.4 Topics for further work and research	9
Chapter 2 Common principles of well-being measurement frameworks	12
2.1 Advancements in measuring societal progress.....	12
2.2 Common principles in measuring well-being.....	15
Chapter 3 Dimensions and Indicators	30
3.1 Scope	30
3.2 Common dimensions.....	31
3.2.1 Dimensions in existing frameworks.....	32
3.2.2 Recommended common dimensions.....	34
3.2.3 Country specific vs. internationally defined dimensions and indicators.....	34
3.3 Recommended indicators	35
3.3.1 Criteria for selecting indicators	36
3.3.2 Properties of the indicator set	37
3.3.3 Objective and subjective indicators	37
3.3.4 Recommended indicators	38
3.4 Distribution of well-being.....	45
Chapter 4 Composite Indicators	50
4.1 Definitions	51
4.2 Approaches for composite indicators	51
4.3 The use of weights in composite indicators.....	52
4.4 Country examples.....	55
4.5 Global examples	57
Chapter 5 Communication	58
5.1 Overview of communication approaches	58
5.1.1 Communication stages in the development of a well-being framework.....	58
5.1.2 Communication for stakeholders, users and audience.....	59
5.1.3 Communication of Indicators.....	61
5.2 Recommendations for visualisation.....	63
5.3 Recommendations for dashboard development	63

5.4	Examples of national communication platforms and tools	64
5.4.1	Ireland	64
5.4.2	Netherlands.....	66
5.4.3	Canada.....	68
5.4.4	Japan.....	70
Chapter 6 Developing a national well-being measurement framework.....		72
6.1	Common considerations for establishing a well-being framework	72
6.2	Steps in establishing a national framework	73
6.2.1	Scope setting and research	74
6.2.2	Finalise definitions, develop measures and delivery	79
6.2.3	Delivery, launch and future	82
6.3	Recommendations for a national process.....	83
6.3.1	Who to involve in the process.....	84
6.3.2	Long-term maintenance.....	85
6.4	Country example of well-being framework development – New Zealand	87
6.4.1	Background of Well-being in New Zealand	87
6.4.2	Engagement throughout development.....	88
6.4.3	Well-being in decision making.....	89
6.4.4	Summary	89
References		90
Annex: Indicator documentation.....		96

Chapter 1 Introduction

1.1 Background

1.1 Since the Stiglitz-Sen-Fitoussi report on measurement of economic performance and social progress (2009), there has been a growing interest in statistics on well-being to shed light on people's life situation and the state of society 'beyond GDP'. Indicators of well-being have attracted much attention from media and decision-makers, and feed into national discussions and policy making and are also used to compare countries.

1.2 Many statistical offices produce well-being indicators to meet user needs. Despite a broad consensus on its conceptual understanding, in practice, well-being measurement approaches differ across countries. For instance, national frameworks are often broken down into dimensions (e.g. income, employment, health, education, safety, social inclusion, etc.) that may differ, different individual indicators may be selected to represent the dimensions, and a variety of data sources and methods are used for the compilation of the indicators. In addition, several indicators of well-being, quality of life, life satisfaction or happiness are published by organisations other than national statistical offices and are often referred to in the media.

1.3 On this background, the Bureau of the Conference of European Statisticians (CES) in February 2023 conducted an in-depth review of national and international activities on the measurement of well-being. The in-depth review was based on a report prepared by the Central Bureau of Statistics of Israel with contributions by the Netherlands and the OECD. To ensure focus and in-depth discussions, the scope of the review was limited to the measurement of current well-being in a national context, often referred to as well-being 'here and now'. Broader measures, including sustainability (well-being 'later') and well-being 'elsewhere' were not considered in the review. As part of the review, a survey on country practices was carried out for CES member countries.

1.4 The in-depth review identified several challenges in the measurement of well-being regarding concepts and terminology, the dimensions of well-being, the selection of indicators, international comparability, compilation methods, data sources, timeliness and communication. There is significant interest in the measurement of well-being as well as differences in national practices. Most frameworks for measuring well-being are produced for national purposes and tailored to national needs and use. For instance, frameworks in New Zealand, Canada, Iceland and Ireland were based on the OECD Well-being framework but adapted to reflect national contexts, specificities and ways of packaging the dimensions and indicators.

1.5 Dimensions such as income, employment, housing, health, education, safety, social connections and environment are included in most countries' measures of well-being. However, the set of dimensions varies from country to country. Subjective well-being is included in different ways. It can be covered in one dimension, or different aspects of subjective well-being can be included in different dimensions, e.g. employment, health or social life. Countries also mentioned the challenges in compiling internationally comparable measures for subjective well-being due to cultural differences and language issues.

1.6 A range of methodological challenges are linked to the compilation of well-being indicators. These include the selection and compilation of indicators and different approaches to measuring inequalities. Compilation of subjective indicators and their inclusion in the framework, as well as weighting and aggregation of individual indicators into composite measures, were also identified as important topics by many countries.

1.7 Most well-being indicators rely on annual data and are released with a considerable time lag compared to the reference period. The Covid-19 pandemic highlighted the need for more timely indicators for households' well-being and the need to examine and exploit new data sources and compilation methods with a view to improving timeliness.

1.8 Well-being statistics can be disseminated in many ways: as individual indicators, in a dashboard, by use of composite measures or a combination of these. To provide meaningful information for decision-making, dashboards covering the dimensions and indicators of the framework are often produced. National Statistical Offices (NSOs) may also decide to compile composite indicators of well-being. Composite indicators may help to reach user groups but may also be questioned and raise criticism for being 'political' or value-laden. Because of the complexity and multidimensional nature of well-being, the communication should be carefully planned and involve consultation with stakeholders and user groups.

1.9 Based on the in-depth review, the CES Bureau identified a need for guidelines on the measurement of well-being 'here and now' and proposed establishing a task force to develop guidelines in this area. The Bureau noted that several international frameworks for measuring well-being exist, including the Stiglitz-Sen-Fitoussi report (2009), the Conference of European Statisticians Recommendations on Measuring Sustainable Development (2014), OECD's Framework for Measuring Well-being and Progress and Eurostat's Quality of Life Indicators. The Guidelines should take these frameworks as a starting point and focus on synthesizing these into operational guidelines to assist countries in producing well-being indicators.

1.10 The guidelines should focus on core indicators across the dimensions of well-being, where harmonisation and improved international comparability is feasible, clarify typology, provide definitions and give guidance on data sources, compilation methods and communication. The challenges in compiling composite indicators and their use should also be addressed. National well-being frameworks are developed to serve national purposes and are adapted to specific conditions and needs in countries. The guidelines should give leeway to national frameworks to adapt to country needs and allow the inclusion of country-specific indicators.

1.11 The guidelines should consider existing initiatives, including the Sustainable Development Goals (SDGs), work on *beyond GDP*, the update of the System of National Accounts (SNA), and work through the UN Statistics Commission's Friends of the Chair Group on Social and Demographic Statistics.

1.12 The CES plenary session in June 2023 endorsed the outcome of the in-depth review on measuring well-being and supported the proposal to set up a Task Force to develop guidelines to assist countries in producing well-being indicators.

1.13 The terms of reference of the Task Force were adopted by the CES Bureau in October 2023. The task force commenced work in October 2023. It mainly worked through online meetings and the exchange of emails. The task force organised a seminar in Geneva on 8-9 July 2024 for experts from CES member countries and organisations to share experiences and good practices in measuring well-being. The seminar was attended by 40 experts from countries and international organisations. The Seminar discussed key issues in the production of well-being indicators, including dimensions and indicators of well-being; the process for developing a national well-being measurement framework; data sources; means of improving timeliness of well-being indicators; use of composite measures; communication and visualization of well-being indicators; and policy use oriented well-being statistics. Draft chapters of the Guidelines were presented at the seminar for discussion and feedback from participants. The proceedings of the Seminar are available on the [Seminar website](#).

1.14 The Task Force submitted a draft proposal of the Guidelines to the CES Bureau in February for approval to have the Guidelines circulated to CES member countries and organisations for

written consultation with a view to presenting the final version to the CES plenary session in June 2025 for endorsement.

1.2 Objectives of the guidelines

1.15 Following the terms of reference of the Task Force, the Guidelines should provide guidance on the measurement of well-being ‘here and now’ for countries that produce or consider producing well-being indicators. The Guidelines should:

- a) Take existing frameworks as a starting point and focus on synthesizing these into operational guidelines to assist countries in producing well-being indicators.
- b) Focus on core indicators across the dimensions of well-being where harmonisation and improved international comparability is feasible.
- c) Clarify typology and provide definitions.
- d) Provide guidance on calculation methods, measurement challenges and data sources, including utilisation of (new) data sources and ways to improve timeliness.
- e) Provide guidance and examples of good practices in the dissemination and communication of current well-being measures.
- f) Give leeway for national frameworks to adapt to country needs and the inclusion of country-specific indicators.

1.16 The Guidelines should consider existing frameworks and materials relevant for measuring well-being, including the Stiglitz-Sen-Fitoussi report, the Conference of European Statisticians Recommendations on Measuring Sustainable Development (2014), the OECD Framework for Measuring Well-being and Progress and Eurostat’s quality of life indicators.

1.17 Work and initiatives in relation to Beyond GDP, the SDGs, and work on measuring well-being in the update of the SNA and other relevant materials should also be considered.

1.3 Overview of the guidelines

1.18 This section provides a summary of the chapters and the Annex of the Guidelines.

Chapter 2 Key common principles of well-being measurement frameworks

1.19 The chapter outlines the background and key principles of the recommendations of the guidelines. It highlights the increasing international consensus around measuring well-being as an outcome-focused assessment of whether life is getting better for people. The chapter summarises the recommendations of several influential international reports and initiatives that have provided the *conceptual* basis for metrics of societal progress *beyond GDP*. The three principles these initiatives have in common, and which have informed the recommendations of these guidelines, are 1) a focus on current well-being; 2) the understanding that well-being is multidimensional and covers different aspects that matter to people’s lives; and 3) a focus on both objective and subjective outcomes. The chapter also provides insights into the relationship between well-being measurement initiatives and related frameworks, such as the SDGs.

Chapter 3 Dimensions and indicators

1.20 The chapter provides a set of common dimensions to represent well-being and recommends core indicators for each dimension that can be used to monitor developments over time and to compare nations, regions, and population groups. The recommended dimensions and indicators of well-being build on existing international frameworks: the report of Stiglitz, Sen and Fitoussi (2009), the CES Recommendations on Measuring Sustainable Development

(2014), the OECD Well-being Framework (2011), and Eurostat's Quality of Life framework (2016). The chapter also provides definitions of key concepts, criteria for selecting indicators, and guidance on how to measure the distribution of well-being among population groups.

Chapter 4 Composite indicators

1.21 The chapter provides guidance on the construction of composite indicators of well-being. It discusses the methodological steps in building composite indicators of well-being and highlights key issues and challenges that must be considered before a composite indicator can be constructed. The recommendations build on existing guidelines of the OECD and UNECE and aim to ensure a degree of international comparability and methodological consistency. The chapter discusses the weighting of individual indicators into composite measures and includes country examples of constructing composite indicators.

Chapter 5 Communication

1.22 This chapter includes an overview of communication approaches for well-being frameworks, recommendations for analysis, development of visualisation and dashboards and examples of national communications practices. The chapter gives guidance on four stages of communication – stakeholder and user consultation, design and production, dissemination, and continuous evaluation – and on user segmentation and choice of communication channels. The chapter includes country examples.

Chapter 6 Developing a national well-being measurement framework

1.23 This chapter gives practical guidance on the development of a national framework for measuring well-being and outlines key considerations to consider in the development of the framework. The Chapter presents a step-by-step approach for developing a national framework to ensure a thorough process, engagement of users and stakeholders and a successful outcome and delivery. It provides guidance on engaging users and stakeholders to ensure buy-in, support and sustainability of the national framework.

Annex: Indicator documentation

1.24 The Annex includes, for each recommended indicator, information about the use of the indicator, type (objective/subjective), unit of measurement, data sources, frameworks and references to additional material.

1.4 Topics for further work and research

1.25 During its work, the Task Force noted several topics where further work and research would be useful. These are listed and briefly described below. The listing also draws on the statistical agenda ahead formulated in past editions of the OECD's How's Life? 2020 Measuring Well-being series of reports.

Sharing of experiences and good practices among countries

1.26 Well-being indicators are new to many NSOs, and countries are at different stages with regard to the production of these types of indicators. It is, therefore, important to continue sharing experiences and good practices among countries and organisations on conceptual, methodological and measurement issues and challenges related to the communication of well-being indicators. International seminars or workshops, such as those already happening under the umbrella of the OECD Knowledge Exchange Platform on Well-being Metrics and Policy Practice, may be helpful to exchange national experiences and good practices on compiling and communicating well-being indicators.

Methodological issues

1.27 Methodological issues that would benefit from more work include the performance of well-being measures over time, regional/geographical breakdown and the international

comparability of well-being indicators. The measurement of distributions/inequalities also attracts large interest, including whether indicators that directly address inequalities or exclusion, such as the gender pay gap, should be included. It would also be helpful to share experiences on the compilation of composite measures and methods, and practices for weighting and aggregation of indicators into composite measures.

Timeliness

1.28 The timeliness of well-being statistics remains a challenge, as many indicators are produced with a considerable time lag, and other indicators may be compiled with low frequency. Improving timeliness would increase the indicators' usefulness, including for real-time policy decisions. Sharing of experiences in exploiting data sources to improve timeliness would be helpful. This may include the use of monthly or other short-term statistics, improving the timeliness of existing data sources, and the use of administrative and new or alternative data sources (social media) and "live" updates as new data becomes available.

Communication of well-being indicators

1.29 The communication of well-being indicators is crucial to meet user needs and to establish well-being indicators as recognized statistics. Because of the multidimensional nature of well-being, communication must be carefully prepared, and sufficient documentation and explanations must be provided to ensure correct interpretation and use of the statistics. Further discussions and exchange of experiences on how to communicate and promote the use of well-being indicators will be helpful.

Developing measurement frameworks for sub-groups

1.30 The dimensions and indicators recommended in these guidelines focus on the well-being of the whole population of a country and are most relevant to the adult working age population. Therefore, there is a need to develop more tailored measurement frameworks for specific age groups, including children and the elderly, and for groups with different characteristics and needs, e.g., indigenous people, people with disabilities, and religious groups.

Linking current well-being to measurement of sustainability and resilience

1.31 While these guidelines focus on current well-being, the broader concept of well-being and initiatives related to progress beyond GDP include additional aspects such as future well-being (sustainability) and resilience. Hence, there is a need to consider how aspects related to sustainability and resilience can be linked to measures of current well-being and which additional dimensions and indicators could serve this purpose.

Development of indicators

1.32 Discussions and developments of indicators to better capture the dimensions of well-being will be useful. This includes indicators in the following dimensions:

Subjective well-being

1.33 The development and use of subjective indicators, including expanded aspects of affect, eudaimonia (including agency) and globally inclusive measures of subjective well-being, parts of which will be addressed in the updated OECD 2025 Guidelines for Measuring Subjective Well-being. For international comparisons of subjective measures, cultural impacts should be considered.

Material living conditions

1.34 Measures of income and wealth data that allow the assessment of intra-household differences in economic resources (e.g. those associated with different gender roles). More information on the joint distribution of household income, consumption and wealth at the micro-level. In the broader context of material living conditions, indicators of food security could also be considered.

Work and leisure

1.35 Consider the inclusion of indicators for child labour and forced labour. Job quality measures for self-employed and platform workers may also be considered, including increased use of time use data, which will also be needed for the measurement of unpaid work in the SNA 2025.

Housing

1.36 Access to transport (public/private) and amenities/utility services (e.g., gas, electricity, heating/cooling, refuse and sewage collection) has a significant impact on living conditions in most countries. There is a need to consider if and how these services could be included; to what extent their effect on well-being may be covered by other indicators, or if separate indicators could be recommended. Issues with data sources, accessibility, affordability and quality would also have to be considered.

Health

1.37 Consider further development and inclusion of indicators on healthy life expectancy, people's functioning (i.e. whether they can perform daily activities, including self-care), risk factors that may contribute to worsening overall health and mental health outcomes, such as childhood obesity and adverse childhood experiences. An indicator of perceived mental health should also be considered.

Knowledge and skills

1.38 Consider the development of indicators on the share of people who feel they have the knowledge and skills they need, satisfaction with educational opportunities, and socio-economic skills.

Physical safety

1.39 Consider the development of indicators on justice equity (e.g. % imprisoned by ethnicity) and exposure to cybersecurity risks.

Social connections

1.40 It would be helpful to identify opportunities to collaborate with the OECD and the Friends of the Chair Group on Social and Demographic Statistics to develop a validated short set of metrics on the structure, function and quality of social connections (see upcoming OECD work on measuring social connectedness). This may also include developing indicators on the sense of belonging and feeling able to express one's own cultural identity.

Environmental conditions

1.41 Consider indicators of biodiversity and indicators that reflect people's feelings and evaluations of their environmental conditions and amenities, and improved measures of damage from, e.g. climate changes and environmental disasters.

Digital well-being

1.42 Information technology and digital services impact many aspects of people's lives, through work, social life and communication. Research in and development of indicators to capture the impact of information technology, artificial intelligence and digital services on different dimensions of well-being will be essential, considering the growing importance of these technologies and services.

Chapter 2 Common principles of well-being measurement frameworks

2.1 Creating, understanding and applying a more holistic picture of societal progress is on the agenda of many national statistical offices, government departments and international organisations; several of whom have launched frameworks for measuring well-being over the past decade. This chapter highlights the increasing international consensus on measuring well-being as an outcome-focused assessment of whether life is getting better for people and whether progress has been inclusive and sustainable.

2.2 Section 2.1 summarises the recommendations of several influential international reports and initiatives that have called for and provided the *conceptual* basis for metrics of societal progress *beyond GDP*. These have contributed to a proliferation of well-being initiatives, many focusing on monitoring and reporting well-being outcomes, but also increasingly on informing policy practice. Section 2.2 outlines three *practical* principles these initiatives have in common, which have informed the recommendations of these guidelines – namely, 1) a focus on well-being today and its distribution and sustainability; 2) the understanding that well-being is multidimensional and covers all aspects that matter to people’s lives; and 3) a focus on both objective and subjective outcomes.

2.1 Advancements in measuring societal progress

2.3 Many international initiatives have given impetus to the *beyond GDP* agenda over the past decades (Figure 2.1). This section summarises the main recommendations of particularly influential reports on measuring inclusive and sustainable development and well-being.¹

Figure 2.1

Overview of international initiatives that have advanced the conceptual underpinnings of measuring societal progress



¹ For an in-depth overview of the history of the “beyond GDP” agenda, including theoretical underpinnings (e.g. subjective wellbeing, welfare economics, behavioural economics, needs theories, the capabilities approach, human rights and ecological approaches) see (UNECE, 2014; Hoekstra, 2019; Jansen et al, 2023; Jansen et al, 2024; MacFeeley et al, 2024).

Our Common Future, United Nations, 1987

2.4 *Our Common Future*, also known as the “Brundtland Report” in recognition of Gro Harlem Brundtland, former Norwegian Prime Minister and Chair of the World Commission on Environment and Development, was released in 1987 by the United Nations. It highlighted the interconnectedness between development (particularly of emerging economies) and environmental sustainability and coined the concept of sustainable development as one that “meets the needs of the present without compromising the ability of future generations to meet their own needs” (Brundtland, 1987). It was hence one of the first times in which a United Nations report explicitly stressed the intertemporal component of social equity (i.e. as existing both within and between generations). The Brundtland Report shaped the international agenda for sustainable development for years to come (Jansen et al, 2023).

Commission on the Measurement of Economic Performance and Social Progress, 2009

2.5 The 2008 global financial crisis accelerated a growing recognition that a sole focus on economic growth, rather than on the people who make up that system, might be setting the wrong incentives for countries’ policy priorities. Nicholas Sarkozy, then President of France, called upon Joseph Stiglitz, Amartya Sen and Jean-Paul Fitoussi to identify the limits of GDP as an indicator of economic performance and social progress, to consider what additional information might be required for the production of more relevant indicators of social progress, to assess the feasibility of alternative measurement tools and to discuss how to present the statistical information in an appropriate way.

2.6 The landmark 2009 report of this Commission, also referred to as “Stiglitz-Sen-Fitoussi Report” had an important impact on practices within national statistical offices and beyond and inspired many of the international and national well-being initiatives presented in Section 2.2. It stressed the shortcomings of GDP to account for income inequality, environmental sustainability, and the distribution of economic benefits. Instead, it called for the “development of a statistical system that complements measures of market activity by measures centred on people’s well-being and by measures that capture sustainability. Such a system must, of necessity, be plural – because no single measure can summarize something as complex as the well-being of the members of society, our system of measurement must encompass a range of different measures” (Stiglitz, Sen and Fitoussi, 2009). Hence, the report’s key recommendations were to:

- Define “well-being” as multidimensional, since a range of dimensions, many of them missed by conventional income measures, shape people’s lives (e.g. material living standards, health, education, work-life balance, civic engagement, social connectedness, the environment). The report further recommends presenting these via a dashboard of indicators, rather than a single index.
- Distinguish between an assessment of current well-being and its sustainability. Current well-being is people-centric and has to do with both economic resources and non-economic aspects of their life. Whether these levels of well-being can be sustained over time depends on whether stocks of capital that matter for people’s lives (natural, physical, human, social) are passed on to future generations. This recommendation advances the Brundtland Report’s definition of sustainability (in that it encompasses an intertemporal dimension) by emphasising that both domains of well-being should be examined and reported separately, to clarify that there can be trade-offs. A useful analogy motivating the choice for separate assessments is that “when driving a car, a meter that added up in one single number the current speed of the vehicle and the remaining level of gasoline would not be of any help to the driver. Both pieces of information are critical and need to be displayed in distinct, clearly visible areas of the dashboard” (Stiglitz, Sen and Fitoussi, 2009).

- Comprehensively assess and report inequalities in people's well-being (e.g. across people, socio-economic groups, gender and generations) across all relevant dimensions.
- Include both objective life circumstances and subjective measures of well-being (i.e. people's experiences and perceptions across different dimensions of their lives), to derive a more comprehensive appreciation of people's well-being. The report also highlights the need to further develop and improve statistical capacity in areas where available indicators remained deficient at the time (e.g. social connectedness, political voice, subjective well-being, indicators drawing on time use surveys).

Recommendations on Measuring Sustainable Development, Conference of European Statisticians, 2013

2.7 In 2009, the Conference of European Statisticians set up a joint UNECE/Eurostat/OECD Task Force to develop recommendations to harmonise the different ways in which many countries had adopted sustainable development indicator sets. The resulting 2013 recommendations emphasized that human well-being is “a broad concept which is not confined to the utility derived from the consumption of goods and services, but is also related to people's functioning and capabilities (i.e. the freedom and possibilities they have to satisfy their needs)” (UNECE, 2013), and stressed that sustainable development is a matter of distributional justice across time and space. They suggested, like the Stiglitz-Sen-Fitoussi Report, a conceptual distinction between the well-being of the present generation in one particular country (referred to as “here and now”) and the well-being of future generations (“later”). In addition, a third domain capturing the well-being of people living in other countries (“elsewhere”) was introduced. This was done to reflect the possible transboundary impacts of development in an increasingly globalized world, by highlighting how a country in the pursuit of the well-being of its citizens may affect the well-being of citizens of other countries (UNECE, 2013).

High Level Expert Group on the Measurement of Economic Performance and Social Progress, 2018

2.8 In 2018, nearly a decade since the publication of the 2009 Commission on the Measurement of Economic Performance and Social Progress report, an OECD-hosted High Level Expert Group on the Measurement of Economic Performance and Social Progress set out future steps for the field of multidimensional well-being measurement. Their recommendations further strengthened several elements of the earlier advice provided in the Stiglitz-Sen-Fitoussi Report, for instance, around prioritising a dashboard of well-being indicators spanning people's material conditions and the quality of their lives, systematic consideration of inequalities thereof (including equality of opportunity), and sustainability. The High Level Expert Group also called for sufficient resources to be provided to national statistical offices, for the development of better quality metrics in areas such as trust, social norms and economic inequality related to income and wealth (including within the System of National Accounts), and for well-being metrics to be used to inform decisions at all stages of the policy process (Stiglitz, Fitoussi and Durand, 2018).

Recent developments

2.9 In more recent years, the United Nations have stimulated a renewed focus on well-being metrics with several new initiatives: these include the in-depth review on measuring current well-being at the UNECE level (i.e. this document) and 2022 *Valuing What Counts — United Nations System-wide Contribution on Progress Beyond Gross Domestic Product*- report, which highlighted the importance of countries focusing on and tracking the themes of well-being and agency, respect for life and the planet, and reduced inequalities and greater solidarity (United Nations, 2022).

2.10 Particularly from the academic side, conceptual notions of well-being and sustainability have in recent years been further extended to include socio- and planetary boundaries. Drawing on the concepts of so-called sufficientarianism (i.e. every individual should achieve a basic minimum threshold of well-being) and limitarianism (i.e. ecological and social constraints or upper limits of resource use and consumption), a resulting “sufficiency target space” would lie between these dual thresholds (Raworth, 2017; Rockström et al., 2023; Gough, 2023). Raworth (2017) presents these planetary and social boundaries in the visualisation of a doughnut. The inside of the doughnut represents the social floors to fulfil basic human needs, while the outer limit denotes the environmental ceiling. Between the boundaries of the doughnut lies an environmentally safe and socially just space in which humanity can thrive. Although the practical reflection of these concepts in well-being metrics is still in the early stages of development, this is an area of increasing government interest (see recent efforts made by Statistics Netherlands and the French Environment and Energy Management Agency (ADEME, 2024)).

2.2 Common principles in measuring well-being

International well-being measurement initiatives

2.11 Following the influential recommendations outlined in Section 2.1, particularly the Stiglitz-Sen-Fitoussi Report in 2009, several international measures of societal progress were developed. These include the United Nation’s Human Development Index, the development of which began already in the 1990s, and the subsequent Sustainable Development Goals (SDGs) targets and indicators (Box 2.1), the OECD Framework for Measuring Well-being and associated dashboard as part of its broader Better Life Initiative (Box 2.3) - now housed in the OECD Centre on Well-being, Inclusion, Sustainability, and Equal Opportunity² - as well as Eurostat’s Quality of Life Initiative (Eurostat, 2015; OECD, 2023; United Nations Department of Economic and Social Affairs Statistics Division, 2017; United Nations Development Programme, 2023).³ Looking forward, the *Pact for the Future* adopted at the 2024 United Nations Summit for the Future includes a commitment to develop a “framework containing a limited number of country-owned and universally applicable measures of progress on sustainable development to complement and go beyond GDP”.⁴

² The OECD Centre on Well-being, Inclusion, Sustainability, and Equal Opportunity was launched in 2022 to provide new data and insights to improve people's well-being, reduce inequalities, and better understand the impact of policies and business actions on people's lives today and in the future.

³ Examples of other relevant international initiatives include the World Happiness Report (focusing on subjective well-being as primary outcome of interest), the UN’s Inclusive Wealth Report (focusing on sustainability), and the Social Progress Imperative’s Social Progress Index and Scorecard (OECD, 2023).

⁴ Recommendations for this framework, to be presented at the 80th session of the General Assembly in September 2025, will be developed by an independent high-level expert group which was announced in May 2025 in close consultation with Member States and stakeholders, considering the work of the Statistical Commission and building on the SDG framework (UN, 2025). This will be followed by a United Nations-led intergovernmental process on the recommendations.

Box 2.1

The Sustainable Development Goals

The Sustainable Development Goals (SDGs) are at the core of the 2030 Agenda for Sustainable Development, adopted by all UN Member States in 2015 (United Nations, 2015). They are comprised of 17 goals that are underpinned by 169 targets and 231 indicators around the themes of People, Planet, Prosperity, Peace, Partnership (Figure 2.2). While not legally binding, countries are expected to establish national frameworks to achieve and monitor the goals.

Figure 2.2 The Sustainable Development Goals



The SDGs provide a multi-dimensional framework with a focus on sustainability and equality. Many SDG themes map well against commonly used well-being dimensions, for instance, in the OECD Well-being Framework or in national well-being frameworks (see Figure 2.7).

There are also important differences: the SDGs are a list of policy commitments agreed to by world leaders and include targets and timeframes for achieving them. In contrast, well-being measurement frameworks are typically analytic and diagnostic tools to assess the conditions of people and communities in the well-being achievement space without agreed-upon targets. Further, the SDGs provide a fixed selection of internationally comparable indicators, whereas national frameworks also have the option to add richer nationally available data when relevant.

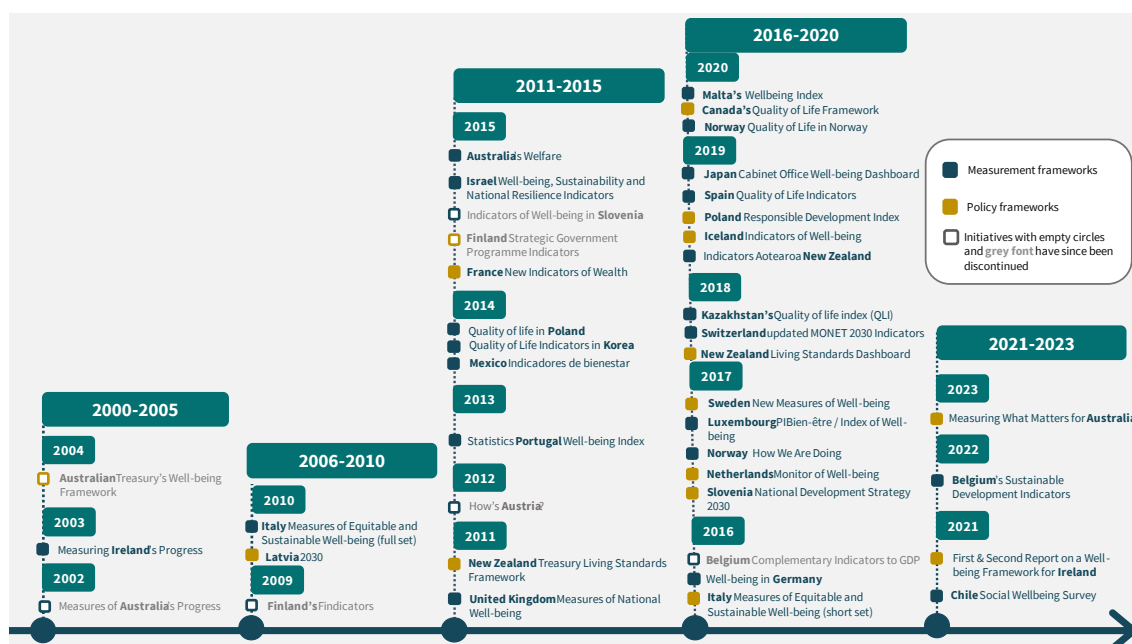
In practice, countries with national well-being frameworks often must balance their well-being reporting with reporting on related beyond GDP initiatives, including the SDGs. While some might prefer to maintain separate communication outputs to avoid confusion (also driven by the fact that different teams may be responsible for these as separate workstreams), an increasing subset of countries is taking a cohesive approach that combines reporting on multiple frameworks in one product and highlights the synergies between the frameworks. For example, the Netherlands' Monitor of Well-being and the SDGs cover both the nationally developed well-being framework and the SDGs (Box 2.4). When developing a national well-being framework, countries may draw on experiences from the implementation of the SDGs, including stakeholder engagement, mapping of SDGs to nationally available data and publication of SDG dashboards.

National well-being measurement initiatives

2.12 At the national level, many statistical offices and government departments have started to explicitly group a variety of social, environmental and economic data – some of which they had already been collecting for many years - under the banner of measuring well-being or going *beyond GDP*. As of 2024, more than 40% of UNECE Member countries have developed national frameworks, development plans or surveys with a multidimensional well-being focus, with this activity having accelerated in recent years (Figure 2.3).

Figure 2.3

Growth of national well-being frameworks in UNECE countries since 2000



Source: Adapted from OECD, 2023, with additional research done to include non-OECD UNECE Members

2.13 Many of these national initiatives focus on well-being measurement, monitoring and reporting (often, but not exclusively, led by national statistical offices), whereas others have been developed to support more direct policy applications (often led by Ministries of Finance or other policy ministries) (Exton and Shinwell, 2018) (Box 2.2). The majority of national initiatives follow the recommendations of the Commission on the Stiglitz-Sen-Fitoussi Report in opting for a dashboard approach, rather than aggregating across dimensions to create a single composite indicator, although countries such as Luxembourg, Poland and Portugal have opted for a well-being index (OECD, 2023). The dashboards take different shapes and sizes, depending on their use. Frameworks focused on monitoring and reporting typically involve building an evidence base on the state of a country's well-being (i.e. a comprehensive indicator set, sometimes including 100+ individual indicators) and making this information publicly available for users and stakeholders. Conversely, well-being frameworks that have been developed for specific policy applications (e.g. for informing budgetary discussions) often have far fewer distinct indicators, sometimes as few as five (OECD, 2019). In some cases, such as Italy and New Zealand, both a larger dashboard for well-being monitoring and a shorter indicator subset for policy application have been developed (Exton and Shinwell, 2018).

Box 2.2

Examples of well-being policy practice

Governments employ different strategic, operational and technical methods to support the use of well-being frameworks and principles for shaping national policy processes. In 2023, the OECD launched a [Knowledge Exchange Platform on Well-being Metrics and Policy Practice](#) for peer-learning and innovation sharing for governments, offering an online repository of country well-being initiatives and targeted workshops on well-being policy implementation.

Principles

Well-being frameworks simultaneously emphasize broad, granular, and long-term analysis of policy priorities and options that respond directly to people's needs across a range of life areas. They typically also support ways of working that transcend policy silos through increased collaboration, coordination, iteration, and transparency. Different countries set out the principles or motivating factors of a well-being approach in different ways (for example Department of Finance Canada, 2021; New Zealand Treasury, 2019; National Assembly of Wales, 2015), but common themes include (1) taking a *whole of government approach* (2) attending to *intergenerational outcomes and inequalities* between population groups, and (3) moving towards *multidimensional measures of success*.

Applications

Well-being policy approaches encompass a broad range of applications, including (1) *well-being evidence in budgetary decision-making processes* (e.g. in Italy, New Zealand, Canada, Ireland, France, Sweden, Iceland and the Netherlands); (2) a well-being approach to high-level *strategic coordination and priority-setting exercises* (e.g. performance frameworks in Iceland and Scotland and national development plans in Colombia and Slovenia); (3) *well-being policy analysis, appraisal and evaluation* methods (e.g. the development of well-being valuation methods to integrate in cost-benefit analysis in the United Kingdom and New Zealand, forecasting techniques to more accurately predict the potential impact of policies on societal outcomes in Italy and inclusion of expected well-being impacts in implementation strategies and public reporting on departmental results in Canada).

Embedding mechanisms

Countries are employing different techniques to embed the use and understanding of well-being policy frameworks and principles across government and electoral cycles. These include *legislation* (e.g. Wales, New Zealand), *civil service capacity-building* and support (e.g. the United Kingdom, New Zealand), and *cross-departmental coordinating bodies* (e.g. New Zealand).

Source: (OECD, 2023)

Common principles across well-being measurement frameworks

2.14 While many national well-being approaches draw from well-established international models, including the OECD Well-being Framework, the UN Sustainable Development Goals and Eurostat's Quality of Life framework, they can usually draw on richer data and almost always include some adaptation to the national context (further described below, and in Chapter 6 on national implementation of well-being frameworks).

2.15 Regardless, an encouraging takeaway from reviewing well-being measurement practice is that there is much common understanding of its conceptual underpinnings. They share *three key principles* that mirror the recommendations set out in Section 2.1:

- They make a distinction between *current well-being* and *future well-being*, or sustainability, while considering the distributional aspects of well-being to reflect how inclusive it is.

- They understand well-being as a *multidimensional* construct that covers people's experiences across diverse areas.
- The dashboards used to operationalize the frameworks' focus, wherever possible, on well-being *outcomes* (as opposed to drivers) and include both *objective* and *subjective* indicators of well-being.

2.16 Following these principles, these Guidelines focus on well-being here and now. Chapter 3 provides practical guidance on how to integrate measures of inequalities when building a national well-being measurement framework. Each of these common principles is presented alongside case studies of relevant well-being initiatives. The chosen examples are not meant to be representative of all existing initiatives but serve to illustrate how the respective principles have been operationalized in practice.

Principle 1. Well-being statistics distinguish between current well-being (and its distribution) and resources for future well-being

2.17 In line with the recommendations of the Commission on the Measurement of Economic Performance and Social Progress and the Conference of European Statisticians, many well-being initiatives are built around different concepts: on the one hand, current well-being, which refers to outcomes (achievements) at the individual, household and community level that matter to people's quality and experience of life "here and now". Most initiatives also consider that measurement of well-being should cover all groups in the society and place particular emphasis on inclusion and the need for more granular data to understand the distribution of well-being outcomes across the population (OECD 2023, WISE Horizon 2023). On the other hand, resources for future well-being are reflected by the conditions and resources needed to sustain current well-being over time, often captured at the system-wide level (e.g. characteristics of the economy, ecosystems or institutions, often referred to as different types of natural, human, social and economic capital stocks).

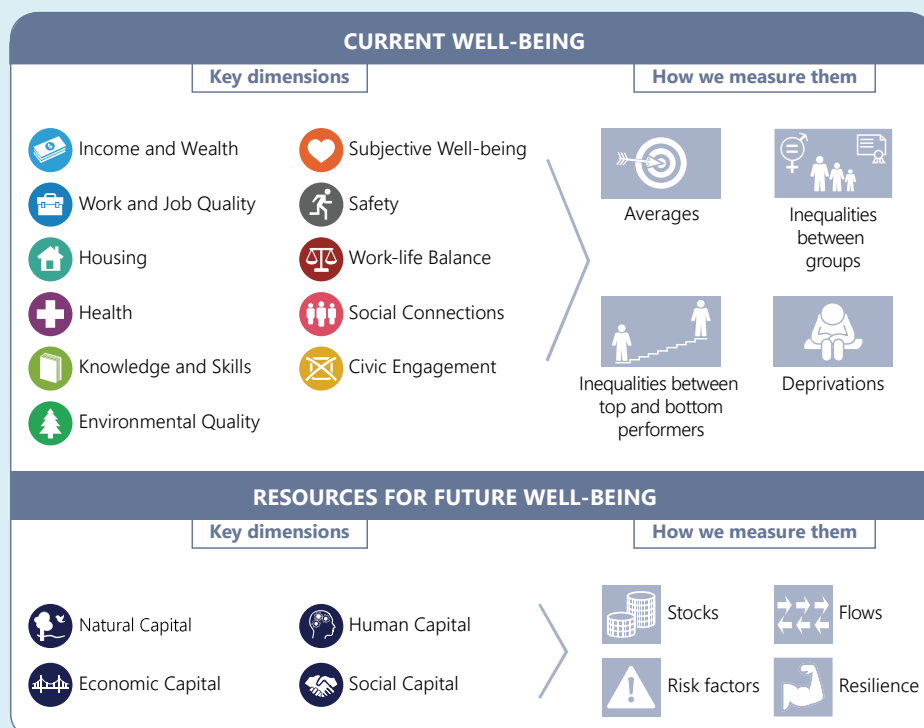
2.18 Initiatives articulate current well-being, its distribution, as well as resources for future well-being in different ways. One way, as done in the OECD Well-being Framework (Box 2.3), Belgium's Complementary Indicators to GDP, Treasury New Zealand's Living Standards Framework, Stats NZ's Indicators Aotearoa New Zealand, and the Netherlands' Well-being Monitor (Box 2.4) is to make an explicit conceptual distinction between dashboards for current well-being and resources for future well-being. The Netherlands' Well-being Monitor and Stats NZ's Indicators Aotearoa New Zealand) also recognize transboundary effects – i.e. the impact that countries have on well-being in other countries, as per the 2013 recommendations of the Conference of European Statisticians. Another way is to emphasize sustainability explicitly as a cross-cutting lens, (such as in Canada's Quality of Life Framework (Box 2.5) or, as a large share of frameworks do, by including elements of human, social, economic and natural capital within their well-being indicator sets, without specific reference to resources for future well-being as distinct domain (Exton and Fleischer, 2019). Well-being inequalities are typically captured in a transversal way across frameworks, rather than as a separate dimension (OECD, 2023).

Box 2.3

Case study – The OECD Well-being Framework

The OECD Well-being Framework is an outcome-focused tool to measure human and societal conditions and progress. The Framework was launched in 2011 and developed under the guidance of the OECD Committee on Statistics and Statistical Policy and reflects the academic literature on welfare measurement and emerging consensus in country practices on GDP and beyond approaches. It is periodically reviewed to ensure alignment with developments since its launch (Exton and Fleischer, 2019).

Figure 2.4 The OECD Well-being Framework



The framework covers current well-being and resources for future well-being. **Current well-being** is comprised of 11 dimensions: these relate to **material conditions** that shape people's economic options; **quality-of-life factors** that encompass how well people are, what they know and can do, and how healthy and safe their places of living are; and **community relations** encompassing how connected and engaged people are, and how and with whom they spend their time. Three types of inequalities are considered for all indicators: gaps between population groups (e.g. between men and women, old and young people); gaps between those at the top and those at the bottom of the achievement scale (e.g. the income of the richest 20% of individuals compared to that of the poorest 20%); and deprivations (the share of the population falling below a given threshold of achievement, e.g. a minimum level of skills or health).

Resources for future well-being are expressed in terms of a country's investment in (or depletion of) different types of capital resources. They include natural capital (stocks of natural resources, biodiversity and ecosystems), economic capital (produced capital and financial assets), human capital (skills and future health of the population) and social capital (social norms, shared values and institutional arrangements that foster cooperation).

The regular OECD How's Life? report draws together the available internationally harmonised data across the OECD Well-being Framework (OECD, 2024). While there remain some important measurement gaps, every domain of the framework has some international data. A quarterly updated dataset of over 80 well-being indicators is available at [OECD Data Explorer](#).

Box 2.4

Case study – the Dutch Monitor of Well-being and the SDGs

The Dutch term for sustainable and inclusive well-being – “brede welvaart” – has become a core concept in policy making, emerging in response to a call by Parliament for metrics supporting a broader evaluation of policy *beyond GDP*. Statistics Netherlands has been publishing the Monitor of Well-being and the Sustainable Development Goals annually since 2018 at the request of the House of Representatives to provide an overview of the state and development of sustainable and inclusive well-being when the government reports to the House of Representatives on its annual goals and achievements.

The core of the Monitor consists of statistical information on well-being “here and now”, “later”, and “elsewhere” (Figure 2.5). Information on these three domains of well-being is systematically linked to more detailed information on the distribution among population groups, the Sustainable Development Goals, and the resilience of well-being.

Figure 2.5

The three domains of the Dutch Monitor of Well-being



Well-being “here and now” consists of eight dimensions: subjective well-being, material well-being, health, labour and leisure time, housing, society, safety and environment. When possible, each dimension includes subjective indicators. The Monitor analyses the distribution of current well-being among population groups by gender, age, education, and country of birth/origin, as well as multiple outcomes at the individual level for a representative sample of 7000 respondents.

Well-being “later” refers to the resources future generations will need to achieve current well-being. The Monitor considers these via measures of economic, human, social and natural capital.

Well-being “elsewhere” assesses the impact of Dutch policies on well-being in other countries (classified by low, lower-middle, upper-middle, and high-income groups) via the two themes of trade and aid, and environment and resources. Examples of indicators include biomass, metal and fossil fuel imports, official development assistance and remittances.

Since 2019, the **SDGs** have been integrated in the Monitor, considering a combination of Sen’s capability approach and the intervention logic of policy making. Since 2020, the Monitor includes a separate dashboard on the **resilience of well-being** (i.e. its ability to absorb shocks and recover). The resilience dashboard contains six themes linked to the three domains of well-being: livelihood of households, prevalence of vulnerable groups (well-being “here and now”); robustness of the biosphere, society, and economy, critical systems, government leverage (well-being “later”) and cross-border dependencies (well-being “elsewhere”). Since 2020, a **regional Monitor** that assesses outcomes for provinces, regions and municipalities is also been published.

Source: (CBS, 2024)

Case study – Canada’s Quality of Life Framework

Canada’s Quality of Life Framework was initially developed as a tool for performance budgeting. It is progressively being used for additional functions throughout the policy cycle, from policy development to implementation strategies, to monitoring and reporting on results.

Figure 2.6

Objectives of Canada’s Framework

The framework’s design explicitly addresses:

1. **Multi-dimensional well-being**
five domains and 90 outcome measures support a central focus on subjective well-being and its determinants.
2. **Distributional differences in well-being**
a cross-cutting ‘fairness and inclusion lens’ uses disaggregated data to identify equity gaps across all domains and relevant indicators.
3. **Temporal dimensions of well-being**
a cross-cutting lens, ‘sustainability and resilience’ aims to bring a long-term, prevention focus across all domains and relevant indicators.

Current well-being is the primary focus of the domain structure, while the transversal ‘sustainability and resilience’ lens focuses explicitly on sustainability. Importantly, this long-term emphasis is not limited to environmental sustainability; it extends across all five domains of the framework: prosperity, health, society, good governance, and environment. This transversal treatment is similar to the approach used in Canada’s Quality of Life Framework to address distributional differences in outcomes and inclusion.

Complementary Government of Canada tools and mechanisms directly address sustainability. In particular, a climate, nature and economy lens sets thresholds for economic and climate impacts above which modelling of expected impacts of policy and budget proposals must be centrally vetted by experts. Triennial updates to the Federal Sustainable Development Strategy (a legislated requirement) are based on the principle that the Government should integrate environmental, economic and social factors in the making of all of its decisions; as well as the principle of intergenerational equity, the importance of meeting the needs of the present generation without compromising the ability of future generations to meet their own needs.

Principle 2. Well-being is multidimensional

2.19 All initiatives consider well-being as multidimensional, and take into account multiple dimensions that matter to people’s lives – including their material conditions (e.g. income, jobs, housing), their quality of life (e.g. health, education and skills, safety, subjective well-being, the environment), their relationships with others and the institutions that serve them (e.g. social connectedness civic engagement), as well as different types of economic, social and environmental sustainability (see Boxes 2.6 and 2.7 for Ireland’s and Italy’s experience of

selecting their well-being dimensions). An illustrative mapping of selected national and international well-being initiatives against the dimensions of well-being, inclusion and sustainability in the OECD Well-being Framework shows a high level of agreement (Figure 2.7).

Figure 2.7

Well-being initiatives share common dimensions.

OECD Well-being Framework Dimensions		G7 Countries						Selected OECD Countries						International Efforts			
		CAN	DEU	FRA	UK	ITA	JPN	IRL	ISL	ISR	KOR	NLD	NZL	EStat	HDI	SDGs	WHR
Current well-being	Income and wealth	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	
	Work and job quality	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓		✓	
	Housing	✓					✓	✓		✓			✓	✓		✓	
	Health	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	
	Knowledge and skills	✓				✓	✓	✓		✓			✓	✓		✓	
	Environmental quality	✓	✓			✓	✓	✓	✓		✓	✓	✓	✓		✓	
	Subjective well-being	✓		✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓			✓
	Safety	✓	✓			✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓			
	Work-life balance	✓	✓		✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓		✓	
	Social connections	✓	✓		✓	✓		✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓			
	Civic engagement	✓	✓		✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓		✓	
Future well-being	Natural capital	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓		✓	✓		✓	✓	
	Human capital	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	
	Economic capital	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓		✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓			✓	
	Social capital	✓	✓		✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓		✓	

Note: this figure shows overlaps in concepts included in the OECD's Well-being Framework and national programs for all G7 countries and other selected countries. Shaded cells indicate the initiative contains indicators that overlap with indicators in the OECD Well-being Framework dimension. Initiatives included: Canada (CAN); Germany (DEU); France (FRA); United Kingdom (UK); Italy (ITA); Japan (JPN); Ireland (IRL); Iceland (ISL); Israel (ISR); Korea (KOR); the Netherlands (NLD); New Zealand (NZL); Eurostat (EStat); Human Development Index (HDI); SDGs; and World Happiness Report (WHR). Initiatives are structured in different ways, and their domain or dimension names may not follow the exact naming convention or structure as that of the OECD.

Source: OECD, 2023

2.20 It is worth noting that beyond the similarities in well-being *dimensions*, most well-being measurement initiatives also already include a share of *indicators* that are internationally harmonized (see Exton and Fleischer, 2019 for a detailed description of indicator-level overlaps). While there is no complete standardisation of the underlying measurement framework used at the national level, akin to the System of National Accounts (SNA) (Hoekstra, 2019), some degree of standardization is already possible – at least in the global North – through common international definitions of, for example, life expectancy, household income and debt, and a wide variety of labour market outcomes. The UN 2030 Agenda and its SDGs have also advanced measurement of a range of outcomes, including in the Global South.

2.21 In areas where there have traditionally been fewer international standards, considerable effort has been made by international organisations over the past decade to develop measurement guidelines, including on the distribution of household income, consumption and wealth; subjective well-being; trust; the quality of the working environment; digital platform employment; and population mental health (OECD, 2023). Regardless, gaps remain in other areas, such as social connectedness (OECD, 2024). Relatedly, the United Nations Statistical Commission (UNSC) created a Friends of the Chair (FoC) Group on social and demographic statistics in 2022 to review the social pillar of statistics and make recommendations to strengthen and improve it (UNSC, 2022).

2.22 The FoC Group initially focused on three main work streams: mapping global and regional work in social and demographic statistics, identifying elements for an overarching conceptual

framework to improve interoperability within the social statistics pillar⁵, as well as integration with the economic and environmental pillars and elevating the role of social and demographic statistics in the eyes of data users and producers. A consensus has emerged from this work around five common ‘building blocks’ – people, relationships, outcomes, places and time – where progressive harmonization of standards and classifications (such as the work of this Task Force related to ‘outcomes’) could improve interoperability. This more integrated data infrastructure would also serve to progressively strengthen a multi-disciplinary evidence base and eventual overarching conceptual framework, which better addresses relationships between outcomes and other components of the system.

2.23 In parallel, further efforts within the SNA will eventually help fill other important international gaps on some aspects of economic well-being and sustainability (Box 2.8). These combined efforts mean that overall, there are considerable similarities in the data that countries use to measure well-being, which will likely converge further in the future.

2.24 Beyond common core themes and indicators that are already internationally comparable, most national well-being initiatives draw on richer national data sources to consider country-specific and contextual factors. Examples of additional dimensions or topics that were found across national frameworks include themes such as identity and language, diversity and discrimination, culture, and sports, accessibility and quality of services, domestic violence, disaster preparedness and resilience, collective family and community well-being (which can include the well-being of nature seen as intrinsically valuable rather than an asset to be utilized, a view often expressed in Indigenous-focused frameworks), and transboundary impacts (OECD, 2023). For more information on how to consider country-specific indicators, see Chapter 6.

2.25 A significant driver of national variations has been the need for strong stakeholder buy-in and ownership, which means that many national well-being initiatives have been co-designed with inputs from a large variety of stakeholders. Public consultation has been a key component of framework development in almost all OECD countries, as has expert consultation, the involvement of multiple government ministries, and cross-party political engagement (OECD, 2023) (Boxes 2.6 and 2.7). One of the success factors often cited for ensuring an enduring approach is this consultative activity from the outset (Wellbeing Economy Alliance, 2021), so even if many national initiatives share a common core, the terminology and overall structure of the framework needs to reflect the issues that emerge through these bottom-up processes, to ensure it has legitimacy with the communities who will later use or be impacted by it.

⁵ The FoC Group is studying the potential for a more integrated systems approach that would aim to cut across the siloes within social and demographic statistics. Social statistics include well-being outcome measures that arise from different practitioner traditions such as public health, income security and labour market economics, sociology, psychology and criminology, and the systems that produce these are not yet necessarily integrated.

Box 2.6

Case study – Ireland's Well-being Framework

The Irish Well-being Framework was launched by the Government of Ireland in July 2021. It seeks to move beyond using just economic measures in gauging progress as a country, by looking at economic, environmental and social issues together. It focuses on quality of life, with a particular emphasis on equality and sustainability.

A **collaborative and wide-ranging approach in the development of the framework** was pursued with the lead Departments (Department of the Taoiseach, Departments of Finance and Public Expenditure and Reform), an Inter-departmental Working Group with all Government Departments, the Central Statistics Office (CSO) and the National Economic and Social Council working closely together. Consultations were held with stakeholders, experts and the public.

The Irish Well-being Framework informs a multidimensional assessment of the country's performance across 11 dimensions and 35 indicators of well-being (Figure 2.8). Sustainability and equality are considered in a cross-cutting manner, by tagging indicators that are particularly important for economic, social and environmental sustainability and by identifying differences between population groups.

Ireland's Framework has been designed to reflect the OECD Well-being Framework to allow for meaningful international comparison, but adjusted to the Irish context and perspective. Together, the dimensions of the Framework capture a holistic picture of the key elements that make up well-being for Ireland, across person, place, and society.

Figure 2.8

The Irish Well-being Framework



Source: (CSO, 2023)

The Well-being Framework for Ireland is integrated into the Budgetary cycle to assist in expenditure decision-making. This includes a budget tagging initiative, which provides a whole-of-government perspective on expenditure using the Framework to better understand the intended impact of Government expenditures on behalf of the public. Work is ongoing across Government to use the Framework to improve performance measurement, support policy analysis, and better understand the impact of Government on quality of life.

Box 2.7

Case study – Italy’s Equitable and Sustainable Well-being (Bes) Indicators

Italy’s Equitable and Sustainable Well-being indicators, referred to as the ‘Bes’ indicators for the Italian acronym (Benessere Equo e Sostenibile), are managed by the Italian national statistical office (ISTAT). The indicators have been presented in an annual report since 2013, and a shorter set of (headline) indicators has been featured in parliamentary reporting and budgetary analysis since 2017. The current Bes indicator set features 152 indicators across 12 dimensions of well-being: health; education and training; work-life balance; economic well-being; social relationships; politics and institutions; safety; subjective well-being; landscape and cultural heritage; environment; innovation, research and creativity; and quality of services.

Widespread consultation helped inform the development of the Framework and selection of indicators. A steering group on “Measurement of Progress in Italian Society” was established to identify relevant well-being domains in Italy, including representatives of entrepreneurs, professional associations, trade unions, environmental groups, cultural heritage groups, women’s groups, consumer protection groups and civil society networks. A Scientific Commission with 80 researchers and experts from ISTAT, universities and other institutions was also established to consult on indicator selection. Moreover, a representative survey of the Italian population was conducted (about 45,000 people interviewed), inquiring which dimensions are important for well-being. This was further supported by a dedicated website, a blog and an online survey to consult with the public on the Steering Group’s and Scientific Commission’s decisions (approximately 2,500 respondents). After the publication of the first report in 2013, the initiative was presented in a series of public meetings in different regions of Italy.

In 2016, a reform to government accounting required the Ministry of Economy and Finance to report to Parliament twice a year on the evolution of headline Bes indicators and the actual or projected impact of different budget scenarios (through a monitoring report every February, as well as an Annex to the Economic and Financial Planning document – the Italian government’s main financial and economic planning instrument – every April). Twelve indicators from the entire Bes set were selected by an Expert Committee in 2017 to underpin these reports: adjusted gross disposable income per capita; disposable income inequality; absolute poverty rate; healthy life expectancy at birth; overweight or obesity rate; early leavers from education and training; non-participation rate; ratio of employment rate for women aged 25-49 with at least one child aged 0-5 to the employment rate of women 25-49 years without children; predatory crime index; length of civil proceedings; emissions of CO₂ and other greenhouse gases; and the illegal building rate. The 2017 Economic and Finance Document (DEF) included four of these indicators, and all 12 were included in the 2018 DEF for the first time. Since then, cross-departmental efforts (led by the Ministry of Economy and Finance) have continued to refine the budgetary reporting on the 12 indicators.

Source: (ISTAT, 2021; Italian Ministry of Economy and Finance, 2023)

Box 2.8

Improvements in data infrastructure - the System of National Accounts

The System of National Accounts (SNA) is an internationally agreed statistical framework that provides a comprehensive and consistent set of macroeconomic accounts for policymaking, analysis and research purposes. A range of internationally comparable aggregate measures of *economic* well-being, such as household income, consumption and wealth are already available in the sequence of economic accounts *within* the SNA production boundary (excluding the value of activities beyond this boundary that may affect well-being, such as the value of households' production of services for own consumption). The SNA also includes information on government expenditures in areas relevant to people's well-being, such as justice, infrastructure, public transport, health and education – but it does not provide information on whether well-being has improved after the consumption of these goods and services.

The 2025 SNA will provide greater visibility for the digital economy and free digital services, as well as include data as a new and separate product category in the core accounts. It will also encourage countries to produce complementary estimates of GDP and gross household disposable income that include unpaid household activities and to produce household sector distributions of income, consumption and wealth. Finally, in the 2025 SNA, depletion of natural capital will be included in net measures of production and income. This will indicate whether current economic activity is occurring at the expense of natural capital stocks, which might affect future economic performance and welfare.

Relatedly, in 2024, the United Nations' Network of Economic Statisticians presented a roadmap for the development of a 'System of Population and Social Statistics' and a 'Framework for Inclusive and Sustainable Well-being' to the United Nations Statistical Commission. The System of Population and Social Statistics might be seen as an addition to the SNA and the System of Environmental and Economic Accounting (SEEA, which is the international statistical standard for measuring the environment and its relationship with the economy), focusing on population and social statistics. It should represent a system-wide agreement of concepts, definitions, and structures to measure demographic and social developments.

Source: (UN Stats, 2024)

Principle 3. Indicators in well-being frameworks are outcome-focused and include both objective and subjective assessments of people's circumstances

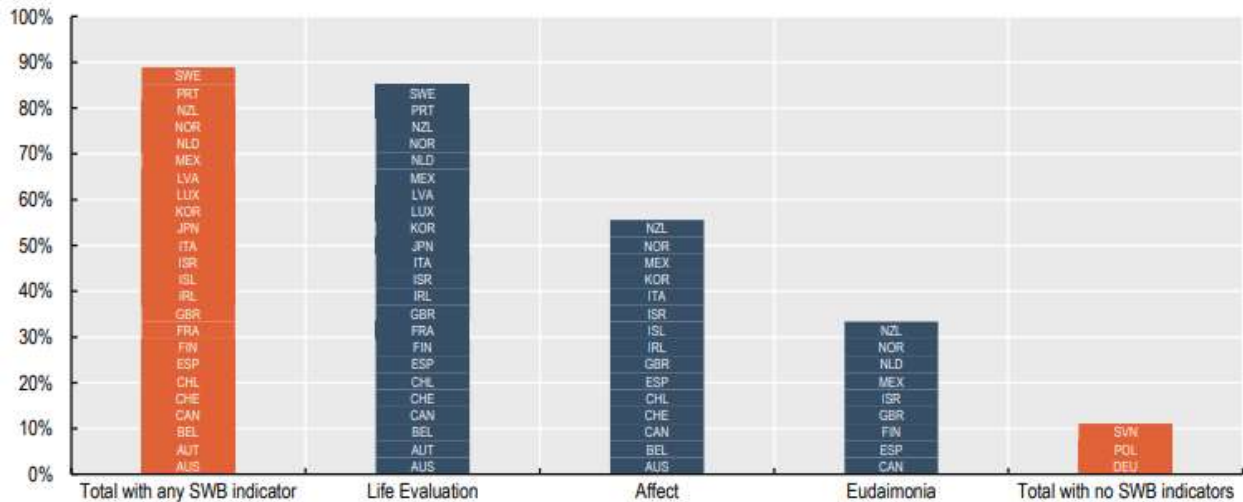
2.26 The third common principle across well-being initiatives relates to the focus and coverage of their indicator sets. The dashboards often concentrate, where possible, on measuring well-being outcomes (aspects of life that are directly and intrinsically important to people), rather than the inputs and outputs that might be used to deliver those outcomes (for example, skills and competencies achieved vs the money spent on schools or the number of teachers trained) (OECD, 2017). This is because outcomes may be imperfectly correlated with inputs (e.g. health expenditure may be a poor predictor of health status if the health care system is inefficient) or outputs (e.g. the number of surgical interventions performed may say little about people's health conditions).

2.27 In addition, following the Stiglitz-Sen-Fitoussi Report's recommendation to provide information on how people experience their lives, many dashboards complement objective (i.e.,

observable by a third party) data on living conditions and quality of life⁶ with at least some indicators capturing a person’s own evaluation and feelings about her or his circumstances. Such subjective indicators include both aspects of “subjective well-being” (defined as “good mental states, including all of the various evaluations, positive and negative, that people make of their lives and the affective reactions of people to their experiences” (OECD, 2013)) and broader perception-based and self-reported indicators (e.g. how safe people feel, how easy or difficult they perceive it to get by financially, how much they trust their government, or, how socially connected they report to be).

2.28 A 2023 review of measurement of current well-being conducted by the Bureau of the Conference of European Statisticians (CES) found that CES Members are using both objective and subjective well-being indicators (UNECE, 2023). Similarly, a recent mapping of national well-being frameworks across OECD countries shows that about 90 per cent include a core measure of overall subjective well-being and many include indicators for life evaluation, affect and eudaimonia, as illustrated in Figure 2.9 (Mahoney, 2023). The mapping also showed that many feature questions on “domain satisfaction”, i.e., asking respondents how satisfied they are with different aspects of their lives, such as housing, their job, or their health. Half of national well-being initiatives in OECD countries also include an indicator of how socially supported people *feel*, and just under half a measure of *feeling* lonely (OECD, 2024). Box 2.9 illustrates how Israel’s well-being dashboard has incorporated both objective and subjective indicators.

Figure 2.9
Subjective well-being indicators in national frameworks



Source: Mahoney, 2023

⁶ . Objective indicators are often produced using administrative data (e.g. tax databases for household income) or sensor networks (e.g. air pollution), but they can also be collected in surveys through self-reporting (e.g. on income, technical deficiencies of a house, conditions of employment, membership of associations, frequency of social contacts).

Box 2.9

Case study – Israel's Well-being, Sustainability, and National Resilience Indicators

Under the resolution adopted by the government of Israel in April 2015, the Israeli Central Bureau of Statistics (CBS) is responsible for developing, reporting and updating indicators of well-being to complement data on economic growth and provide a more comprehensive and multi-dimensional assessment of well-being and quality of life of the population. The development of the well-being dashboard began in 2012, led by the Prime Minister's Office, the National Economic Council and the Ministry of Environmental Protection, and involved discussions among different ministries, academia, Non-Governmental Organisations (NGOs) and the private sector, as well as (online) public consultations and focus groups.

Israel's well-being indicators span 11 dimensions (quality of employment, personal security, health, housing and infrastructure, education and skills, civic engagement and governance, environment, personal and social well-being, material standard of living, leisure culture and community, information and communication technology) and are drawn from both administrative and survey data. The indicators provide a basis for examining changes in well-being in Israel, comparing well-being of different population groups and with other countries.

Building on the Stiglitz report (2009) and the OECD Well-being Framework, Israel used a range of criteria for indicator selection: the individual perspective; emphasis on outcomes; inclusion of distributional indicators where possible; agreed desired direction of progress; a balanced use of objective and subjective indicators; and policy relevance (see Figure 2.10)

Figure 2.10

Objective and subjective indicators in the quality of employment dimension

Indicator	Desired direction	Objective/Subjective
Employment rate	↑	objective
Involuntarily part-time employment rate	↓	objective
Median gross income from work	↑	objective
Satisfaction with work	↑	subjective
Satisfaction with income	↑	subjective
Satisfaction with promotion opportunities	↑	subjective
Field of work related to education	↑	subjective
Rate of persons injured in work accidents	↓	objective
Rate of long-term unemployment	↓	objective

Source: (CBS, 2016)

Chapter 3 Dimensions and Indicators

3.1 The aim of this chapter is to provide a systematic and comprehensive list of common dimensions that together represent well-being and to provide a list of recommended indicators for each dimension that can be used to monitor developments over time and to compare nations, regions, and population groups. Throughout, ‘well-being’ refers to well-being ‘here and now, unless otherwise stated.

3.2 There have been many attempts to produce statistical frameworks and instruments for measuring well-being, taking a variety of starting points (see chapter 2; Hoekstra 2019). This guideline synthesizes the list of dimensions and indicators of well-being by building on the frameworks that are currently considered as authoritative and that form the foundation of efforts to work towards a global Framework on Inclusive and Sustainable Development (FISW) (United Nations 2024). These authoritative frameworks and associated dashboards are the report of Stiglitz, Sen and Fitoussi (2009), the CES Recommendations on Measuring Sustainable Development (2014), the OECD Well-being Framework (2011), and Eurostat’s Quality of Life framework (2016).

3.3 Section 3.1 explains the scope of the Guidelines and defines key concepts. Section 3.2 describes the dimensions of well-being in the main frameworks and presents a list of common dimensions. Section 3.3 presents recommended indicators for each dimension and provides practical recommendations and criteria for the creation of an indicator set. Finally, section 3.4 takes a more detailed look at how to measure the distribution of well-being among population groups.

3.1 Scope

3.4 Measurement of well-being focuses on *outcomes*, aspects of life that are directly and intrinsically important to people, such as life satisfaction, health, or employment. The inputs and outputs that might be used to deliver those outcomes (for example, the money spent on schools or the number of teachers, versus the outcome in terms of skills and competencies) are typically not included, because outcomes may be imperfectly correlated with inputs (e.g. health expenditure may be a poor predictor of health status if the health care system is inefficient) or outputs (e.g. the number of surgical interventions performed may say little about people’s health conditions) (OECD, 2017; see Chapter 2).

3.5 However, the distinction between outcomes and inputs is not as sharp as this suggests. It is not always possible to unambiguously determine whether something is an outcome or an input. For example, employment may be an outcome for some people, an input for others. In other cases, outcome indicators may not be available, and one may decide to rely on available input or output indicators. Hence, while the focus is on outcomes, the Guidelines include input and output indicators. In addition, there are different cultural interpretations of the factors that determine well-being, for example, with respect to the role of family, community, and nature.

3.6 Current and future well-being consists of different dimensions and requires different types of indicators. Current well-being concerns the outcomes in various aspects of quality of life, such as health or work. The dimensions of future well-being relate to the resources (or ‘capitals’) that people use to shape their lives. When the current generation diminishes economic, natural, human and social capital, future generations will not be able to achieve the same level of well-being (UNECE 2014). Future well-being is measured using indicators for the *stocks* of economic, natural, human and social capital (OECD 2013a; UNECE 2014). Current well-being is measured using indicators for the outcomes jointly produced using these capitals.

3.7 For example, wealth is a private resource that people can use to improve their current well-being. When used (e.g. when people withdraw savings to go on an extended holiday), this will show up as consumption. When wealth is collateral (e.g. to acquire a mortgage for a new house), the outcome is an improvement in housing or other living conditions. Wealth is a stock (a capital) while its use shows up as a flow in current well-being. People experience the benefits of strong public institutions, social cohesion and cultural traditions, rich biodiversity, a beautiful landscape, and a liveable biosphere in the present, for example, in better health outcomes, clean air, safe neighbourhoods, higher life satisfaction, and feelings of meaning and purpose. The degree to which resources can be sustained determines if future generations can reap the same benefits. This requires indicators for the quantity and quality of capital stocks. In practice, many of the international and national well-being frameworks do include 'stock' indicators (see Chapter 2).

3.8 In these Guidelines, the focus is on *human* well-being. This does not mean that humans stand at the centre. There exists a wide range of views on inclusive and sustainable well-being. Some cultures see material well-being as a necessary precondition for immaterial well-being, while others feel that nature and community are more important than the economy, and that humans are merely one of the species that share the Earth. Statistics on well-being should be *impartial*. Normative valuations should be left to the users of the statistics (see section 3.4).

3.9 The measurement of well-being should be *inclusive*. In principle, statistics should cover all people living in a nation or region, regardless of their citizenship, age, religion, or other characteristics. This is why statistics on the distribution of well-being form an integral part of the measurement of well-being. Measuring well-being indicators among different population groups or different areas (not only between but also within nations) is also an important tool to keep track of the evolution of inequalities.

3.2 Common dimensions

3.10 This Section aims to synthesize the dimensions in key international frameworks of well-being (Box 3.1). A dimension is a specific aspect of well-being. The set of dimensions should be *comprehensive*, aspiring to cover all aspects of well-being, and each dimension should represent a meaningful part of the way people live their lives. The dimensions represent a classification of relevant aspects of well-being for statistical measurement.

3.11 The dimensions should be *universal*, common to all countries.⁷ There are, however, cultural differences in the dimensions that matter to well-being and in their interpretation. The list of dimensions and subdimensions should be sufficiently broad in its scope and formulation to allow statisticians to make the necessary adaptations that are relevant to their nation, region, culture, or population group, while maintaining the comparability of the overall framework.

3.12 Dimensions and indicators are interrelated. For example, environmental pollution has a negative effect on health, while health influences life satisfaction. *Subdimensions* may be distinguished to capture specific relevant topics. A general idea of conceptually relevant subdimensions helps in selecting a balanced set of indicators (e.g. quantity versus quality of paid work). Some relevant subdimensions will be suggested in the list of recommended indicators (in section 3.3.4). Statistical producers can use these in a narrative of the statistical results. They can also add subdimensions that are specific to national requirements, such as cultural aspects or policy relevance.

⁷ Many national frameworks have similar dimensions, showing that people in different countries tend to list the same things when asked what a good life is (see Chapter 2).

3.2.1 Dimensions in existing frameworks

3.13 The starting point for identification of common dimensions of well-being is the frameworks that have been explored in chapter 2, i.e., (1) the report by Stiglitz, Sen and Fitoussi, (2) the CES Recommendations on Measuring Sustainable Development, (3) the OECD Well-being Framework, and (4) Eurostat's Quality of Life framework.

3.14 Stiglitz, Sen and Fitoussi (2009) distinguish eight dimensions, namely material living standards (income, consumption and wealth); health; education; personal activities including work; political voice and governance; social connections and relationships; environment (present and future conditions); and insecurity, of an economic as well as a physical nature.

3.15 The CES Recommendations on Measuring Sustainable Development (UNECE 2014) divide current well-being into 14 dimensions: subjective well-being; consumption and income; nutrition; health; labour; education; housing; leisure; physical safety; land and ecosystems; water; air quality; trust; and institutions.

3.16 In the OECD Well-being Framework (2011) well-being is comprised of 11 covering *material conditions* that shape people's economic options, *quality-of-life factors* that encompass how well people are and feel, what they know and can do, and how healthy and safe they are, and *community relations* that encompass how connected and engaged people are. Material conditions include income and wealth; housing, and work and job quality. Quality-of-life factors include health, knowledge and skills, environmental quality, subjective well-being, and safety. Community relations include work-life balance, social connections, and civic engagement.

3.17 Eurostat's Quality of Life framework (Eurostat, 2015) contains nine dimensions, of which eight dimensions relate to people's capabilities to pursue their self-defined well-being according to their own values and priorities and one dimension, 'overall experience of life', refers to the personal perception of quality of life, namely life satisfaction, emotions, and sense of meaning and purpose of life (eudaimonia). The 8+1 dimensions are further broken down into topics and subtopics with their related indicators.

3.18 Box 3.1 compares the dimensions of well-being in the four frameworks and links the dimensions to statements in the Universal Declaration of Human Rights. Well-being and human rights fulfilment are intricately related. The UDHR represents a universally agreed-upon standard of human rights to which frameworks of well-being should be mappable.

3.19 Difference in language notwithstanding, the dimensions are in agreement, particularly around the broader themes of material conditions (income, consumption, housing), health, work, education, and physical safety.⁸

3.20 There are two stand-alone themes. *Nutrition* only occurs in the CES Recommendations. The theme was included because nutrition is a basic need and because a lack of nutrition (malnourishment) is a major issue for less developed countries. In other frameworks, nutrition is implicitly included in the dimension of health. *Economic insecurity* is suggested by Stiglitz-Sen-Fitoussi and is covered in the Universal Declaration of Human Rights, but it is not included as a separate theme in the other frameworks, although in the OECD Well-being Framework different indicators of economic insecurity are included within the income and wealth dimension while Eurostat's framework includes it in the same dimension as physical security.

⁸ The difference in language may convey conceptual differences. For example, 'education' may refer to participation in education (e.g. number of children in primary schools), to the achievement of a specific level of education (e.g. the percentage of people with higher education), or to acquiring certain knowledge and skills (e.g. reading and writing, technical skills). This difference in meaning is evident in other themes as well.

Box 3.1

Common dimensions in international well-being frameworks

Stiglitz, Sen, Fitoussi	CES Recommendations	OECD Well-being Framework	Eurostat Quality of Life framework	UN Universal Declaration of Human Rights
	subjective well-being	subjective well-being	overall experience of life	economic, social and cultural rights indispensable for his dignity and the free development of his personality (art. 22)
material living standards	consumption and income	income and wealth	material living conditions (income and consumption)	a standard of living adequate for health and well-being of himself and of his family (art. 25), right to own property (art. 17)
	nutrition			food (art. 25)
health	health	health	health	health (art. 25)
personal activities (work)	labour	work and job quality	productive or other main activity	no slavery or servitude (art. 4), right to work, free choice of employment, just and favourable conditions of work and protection against unemployment (art. 23)
education	education	knowledge and skills	education	education (art. 26)
	housing	housing	material living conditions (housing)	housing (art. 25)
personal activities (other than work)	leisure	work-life balance	leisure and social interactions (leisure)	rest and leisure (art. 24)
insecurity (physical)	physical safety	safety	economic and physical safety (physical and personal security)	right to life, liberty and security of person (art. 3), no torture, inhuman or degrading treatment or punishment (art. 5)
insecurity (economic)			economic and physical safety (economic security and vulnerability)	right to social security (art. 22), right to security in the event of [...] lack of livelihood in circumstances beyond his control (art. 25)
environment (present conditions)	land and ecosystems water air	environmental quality	natural and living environment	While the right to a clean environment is not specified in the UDHR, the human right to a healthy environment is clearly stated in international human rights law.
social connections and relationships	trust	social connections	leisure and social interactions (social interactions)	right to marry and to found a family (art. 16), freely to participate in the cultural life of the community (art. 27), right to freedom of peaceful assembly and association (art. 20)
political voice and governance	institutions	civic engagement	governance and basic rights	legal protection clauses (art. 6 thru 12, 15), right to freedom of thought, conscience and religion (art. 18), right to freedom of opinion and expression (art. 19), right to take part in the government and right of equal access to public service (art. 21), duties to the community (art. 29)

Art.: Article

3.2.2 Recommended common dimensions

3.21 This section provides a list of common recommended dimensions that attempt to capture all aspects of well-being from a human perspective. The recommended dimensions synthesise the dimensions used in Stiglitz, Sen and Fitoussi, CES Recommendations on Measuring Sustainable Development, the OECD Well-being Framework and Eurostat's Quality of Life framework. Each dimension represents a meaningful part of the way people live their lives. Together, the dimensions constitute a coherent whole.

3.22 There is no normative order or hierarchy in the dimensions and subdimensions. From the perspective of statistical measurement, each dimension is equally important. Users can make their own choices, depending on their own requirements, values, preferences, or other considerations. The recommended dimensions are listed in Box 3.2.

Box 3.2

Recommended common dimensions

1. Subjective well-being
2. Material living conditions
3. Work and leisure
4. Housing
5. Health
6. Knowledge and skills
7. Physical safety
8. Social connections
9. Civic engagement
10. Environmental conditions

3.23 Section 3.3.4 explains the relevance of each dimension for well-being and presents recommended indicators for the dimensions.

3.24 Statisticians should not be selective (cherry picking) concerning the dimensions that will or will not be measured. Well-being is a comprehensive, multidimensional concept. Each dimension represents a meaningful part of the way people live their lives. It might not always be possible to measure all dimensions. The preferred solution is to keep in place dimensions for which no indicators are available, but to highlight the absence of indicators. Nation-specific topics can be integrated into the framework by statistical producers, for example, by adding subdimensions to the common dimensions.

3.2.3 Country specific vs. internationally defined dimensions and indicators

3.25 Using indicators already featured in existing international data sets has several important advantages.

- **Data quality:** Typically, these indicators will already have been subject to careful expert scrutiny, will have clear definitions and will be of the required quality.
- **Comparability:** Due to the above processes and international harmonization, it will be possible to compare key aspects of well-being within a country with those of other similar countries. This enables each country to identify the areas in which it is already doing well and also those areas where others are doing better. This process of

comparison can create important benchmarks or targets that can guide future prioritization to improve population well-being.

- **Credibility:** The use of accepted international indicators can promote the idea that the well-being data is credible and that the reasons for choosing indicators are transparent. This may improve public perceptions of the ‘objectivity’ of the selection process.

3.26 There exists a number of databases of indicators that are validated and harmonized at the international level that are valuable starting points for building data set. These include:

- SDG [indicators](#)
- Human Development Reports ([HDI](#))
- OECD How’s life? Well-being [Database](#)
- Eurostat [database](#)
- World Bank [data](#)
- International Labour Organization (ILO) [data](#)
- UNICEF [data](#) and [indicators](#)

3.27 In addition to indicators from internationally comparable data sets, which in many cases draw on nationally produced data, countries may also have unique national data that is relevant for well-being measurement but not in all cases internationally harmonised. While not internationally comparable, such data may offer advantages:

- **Relevance and credibility:** Based on a country’s specific history, characteristics and needs, it might have developed unique data sets that are not internationally comparable but are extremely important for the measurement of well-being in the specific national context. These data sets are often well-known and accepted by policymakers, other professional stakeholders, the media and the general public, and therefore they can also increase the credibility of a national measurement framework.
- **Disaggregation:** Often country country-specific data will have been designed to allow disaggregation relevant to the specific national context. This may include appropriate regional classifications and disaggregation for key sub-groups. National data sets may also have included booster samples to ensure that there is sufficient data available for important sub-populations.
- **Availability and timeliness:** National data sets tailored for a country’s needs have the potential of being well-maintained and produced regularly. Additionally, there may be high-quality national data on topics that are not covered effectively in international data sets.

3.28 In the process of selecting the dimensions and indicators for a national framework for measuring well-being, it is recommended that internationally comparable data be integrated into national indicator sets to the extent possible. Additionally, countries should consider adding country-specific indicators that will make the measurement framework more relevant and useful at the national level.

3.3 Recommended indicators

3.29 An indicator is a statistical variable that provides an accurate and relevant representation of one aspect of a particular dimension of well-being. Since each indicator only measures one aspect of a dimension, providing a full picture requires a set of indicators. The recommended indicators are selected as first choices based on the criteria in Section 3.3.1.

3.30 These guidelines apply some of the same principles as the UNECE Handbook on Measuring Quality of Employment and the OECD Guidelines on Measuring Subjective Well-

being, Trust and Mental Health (UNECE 2015; OECD 2013b, 2017, 2023). The aim has been to make the guidelines practical. Measurement of well-being ‘here and now’ should be within reach for all or most statistical offices.

3.31 Data *availability* in all countries has not been a criterion for selecting the recommended indicators. Some data sources may be available in one country but not in another. It may not be possible or efficient for all countries to produce the same indicators based on the same data sources. Rather, these Guidelines provide a comprehensive set of indicators that countries may draw from, considering their national circumstances and most suitable data sources. The list of recommended indicators specifies in which international frameworks the indicators are already used, indicating the availability of some internationally comparable data for these aspects.

3.3.1 Criteria for selecting indicators

3.32 National statistical offices and other statistical producers who develop indicator sets based on these guidelines will have to consider the data that are available to them. Additionally, the decisions on the inclusion of indicators in the indicator set will depend on the properties of existing data sources, on the availability of resources for statistical production (in the short run and the long run), on national or local policy relevance, and other contextual factors. These guidelines outline the principles that statistical producers should follow when selecting indicators. These criteria have been adapted from national practice and from the assessment criteria the OECD has applied to its well-being statistics, in turn based on a tailored version of the Quality Framework for OECD Statistical Activities (OECD 2019).

3.33 In “Valuing What Counts” (UN 2022), the UN proposed six criteria for the set of core metrics that go “beyond GDP”. The indicators should be comparable across time and countries, well-established and trusted; country owned; universally applicable; able to convey strong and clear messages that are actionable and intuitive; scientifically robust and statistically sound; and iterative and dynamic, based on what exists, while allowing for the addition of new indicators, as relevant.

3.34 When selecting indicators for measuring well-being, the following criteria (Czúcz 2021; OECD 2019; UN 2015) should be considered.

- **Timeliness and frequency:** To remain relevant to policy makers and other users, indicators should be as current as possible and be updated periodically, preferably at least annually.
- **Credibility and comparability:** The indicators have to be reliable and reproducible. This means that they remain consistent and comparable (over time and between countries and regions). This is why indicators should preferably be based on international standards, internationally agreed-upon definitions, classifications, recommendations, and best practices. They should be based on sound methodology, be scientifically robust, and have a proven track record.
- **Accuracy:** Indicators must correctly reflect the underlying concepts that they are intended to capture (validity) and capture consistent information over time and across measurement vehicles (reliability).
- **Relevance:** Indicators should reflect existing scientific understanding of well-being (intrinsic relevance) and should be related to well-being outcomes (instrumental relevance). Indicators may be selected because they are highly relevant for national (policy) discussions. Their intrinsic relevance for well-being should be clear. Such nationally relevant indicators should preferably be internationally comparable.

- **Directional meaning:** It must be possible to interpret a change in the value of an indicator unambiguously. There should be consensus on whether an increase or decrease is favourable (or unfavourable) in terms of well-being.
- **Universality:** The indicator should be reasonably applicable across countries, cultures, scales, and population groups.
- **Measurability:** Indicators should be measurable. Regular and timely data collection can be done with reasonable cost and effort, using well-established sources of public and private data; recommended indicators should be within the capacity of most statistical offices. Indicators should be *technically feasible* to produce.
- **Disaggregation:** It should be possible to disaggregate indicators by population group or region. The indicators are defined, as much as possible, independently of these categories (UNECE 2015).
- **Understandability:** Indicators should be easy to understand, communicate and interpret.

3.35 While these inclusion criteria should be fulfilled to the extent possible, sometimes the “best possible available alternative” must be selected, based on available data sources and to ensure balance across the well-being dimensions. All work on official statistics should adhere to the Fundamental Principles of Official Statistics.

3.3.2 Properties of the indicator set

3.36 A complex multidimensional phenomenon, such as well-being, requires a carefully composed, balanced set of indicators that properly describes all relevant aspects. The set of indicators should be comprehensive, covering, if possible, all dimensions of well-being, and balanced across dimensions (not too many indicators for one dimension and too few for another). The indicator set should contain both subjective and objective indicators. Indicators that are considered highly relevant but do not exist may be included in the set of indicators to signal a data gap with respect to a comprehensive suite of indicators.

3.37 When selecting the indicators, an important aspect to consider is their *timeliness and frequency*. Depending on the use of the indicators, the timeliness and frequency may be crucial, e.g., if a dashboard of indicators is meant to inform on-going policy decisions. If there is a need to improve timelines, NSOs may consider ways to reduce time lags in existing statistics and explore new and alternative data sources, including, e.g., social media, and compilation methods. The guidelines recommend leveraging existing national and international data sources to ensure well-being indicators are updated more frequently, ideally at least annually.

3.3.3 Objective and subjective indicators

3.38 There is consensus that the indicator set should comprise both subjective and objective indicators, as recommended by Stiglitz, Sen & Fitoussi (2009, p. 16): “Measures of both objective and subjective well-being provide key information about people’s quality of life. Statistical offices should incorporate questions to capture people’s life evaluations, hedonic experiences and priorities in their own survey: objective and subjective dimensions are both important.” The decisions people take to shape their lives are determined as much by factual circumstances (objective) as by their perceptions of, and feelings about, those circumstances (subjective). Both must be measured to adequately represent the state and development of well-being (see also Chapter 2).

3.39 Indicators are usually considered to be either objective or subjective. The adjectives ‘objective’ and ‘subjective’ refer to the substance of an indicator, not to how it is measured or the accuracy of the measurement (UNECE Handbook Quality of Employment; OECD 2011).

3.40 **Subjective indicators** measure how people perceive, emotionally experience or otherwise feel about an aspect of their life. Typical subjective indicators measure ‘satisfaction’ (e.g. job satisfaction, satisfaction with life), ‘experiences’ (e.g. finding it difficult to get by financially), and ‘feelings’ (e.g. feeling unsafe in a neighbourhood or uncertain about the future).

3.41 **Objective indicators** measure conditions, achievements and behaviours concerning an aspect of well-being for groups of people, independent of how people perceive their lives concerning that aspect. Typical examples are child mortality rates or the number of hospital beds per 1,000 population.

3.42 One needs to distinguish between the nature of the phenomenon and how information is collected. Subjective indicators are usually produced based on surveys. Objective indicators are often produced using administrative data (e.g. tax databases for household income) or sensor networks (e.g. air pollution), but they can also be collected in surveys through self-reporting (e.g. on income, technical deficiencies of a house, conditions of employment, or membership of associations).⁹ Box 3.3 illustrates the difference between measurement methods and the inherent nature of the indicators. Some indicators are clearly objective, others are clearly subjective, but the distinction is not always that clear in practice and measurement methods can blur the boundary.¹⁰

3.43 **Recommendation:** Where possible, the indicator set should include subjective as well as objective indicators in every dimension of well-being.

Box 3.3

Objective and subjective indicators and measurement methods

		Reporting method	
		Administrative records, monitoring systems, and censuses	Surveys
Nature of the phenomenon	Objective	Urban population exposure to air pollution by particulate matter	Presence of specific defects in a house
	Subjective	Sentiment ¹¹	Life satisfaction

3.3.4 Recommended indicators

3.44 Tables 3.1 – 3.10 presents recommended indicators for measuring well-being by dimension. For each indicator, the Annex provides more details regarding definitions, data sources and links to existing frameworks.

3.45 The tables include general descriptions of ideal indicators. For example, a common *indicator* of material well-being is household income. Household income is a monetary value. This means that for monitoring developments over time, it must be expressed in constant prices of a reference year and for international comparisons, the values must be expressed in the same currency, preferably in purchasing power parities (PPPs). Also, the distribution of household income is skewed, which means that averages overestimate the level of income. Thus, the

⁹ In many countries, surveys are still a widely used method to collect self-reported objective information.

¹⁰ Some indicators are a combination of objective and subjective information. For example, Eurostat calculates healthy life expectancy using mortality statistics (objective) and data on self-perceived long-standing activity limitations (subjective). Source: [Healthy life years statistics - Statistics Explained - Eurostat](#)

¹¹ For example Statistics Netherlands’ [Social tensions indicator: Gauging society](#)

corresponding *measure* of the indicator will more likely be ‘median household income in purchasing power parity (PPP) dollars of a reference year’.

3.46 Indicators with the same name may be measured in different ways. As NSOs build their well-being frameworks, they will generally take a pragmatic approach, using what is available now. The implication may be that such indicators are not internationally comparable.¹² However, international harmonisation of well-being frameworks is the medium- to long-term goal of the statistical well-being agenda.

3.47 The names of indicators do not refer to specific groups, regions or other characteristics. Indicators can be disaggregated in several ways, for example by gender, age, education level, ethnicity, top and bottom of a distribution, as well as by region or neighbourhood. In some cases, such specifications can be meaningful. For example, indicators on sexual violence must be presented separately for women and men. Road fatalities could be measured specifically for young people, because this is the main cause of death among youths (and an avoidable case at that) in some countries. Although deprivation can be seen as a specific way to slice an indicator, it may be valuable to include deprivation indicators in the list of recommended indicators (see Boarini & d’Ercole, 2006 for a discussion of material deprivation indicators). Section 3.4 provides a more detailed discussion of the disaggregation of indicators.

3.48 Normalisation of indicators is standard practice. Indicator data have to be made comparable over time and between regions and nations. This is why monetary indicators are adjusted for inflation and currency differences, why numbers are expressed per capita, as a percentage of the population, as a percentage of GDP, per square kilometre, and so on. Where normalisation is essential, the type of normalisation will be included in the description of the indicator. Note that normalisation also hides absolute numbers (e.g. total CO2 emissions, the number of households living in poverty, the total shortage of houses), which are also essential for policy makers and could be presented concurrently or made available upon request.

3.49 The list of indicators specifies in which framework the indicators are already used (i.e. in OECD How’s Life?, in the Eurostat QoL Framework, and the CES Recommendations). The UNECE Handbook Quality of Employment and Principle 9 of the Fundamental Principles of Official Statistics recommend producing indicators based on international statistical guidelines and classifications. This helps to avoid duplication of effort, ensure consistency of indicators with international standards and facilitates identification of good practices for the development of new indicators (and dimensions) of well-being (UNECE 2015).

3.50 Some indicators are actually composite measures. The recommendation is to only use composite indicators that have been produced by authoritative institutions and on a transparent basis. This ensures adherence to statistical standards and practices, which is essential for consistency over time and international comparability.

Dimension 1: Subjective well-being

3.51 Subjective well-being concerns the cognitive evaluation of a person’s life as a whole or aspects of it (satisfaction), eudaimonia which relates to people’s sense of purpose and meaning, and affect (concerning feelings such as happiness, pain, worry, calm) experienced by the respondent at a particular point in time.

3.52 Relevant subdimensions: life satisfaction, eudaimonia, affect.

¹² Alternative indicators (‘proxies’) should always be conceptually identical. For example, in New Zealand the indicator “feelings of discrimination” is measured by asking about “experience of discrimination in the last 12 months”, whereas in the Netherlands the measure is “percentage of the population aged 15 years and over who perceive themselves as belonging to a discriminated group” (an indicator from the European Social Survey). Both refer to the phenomenon but using different measures.

Table 3.1

1. Subjective well-being^{a)}

nr.	indicator	use	type
1.1	Life satisfaction	O,E,C	subj
1.2	People who feel their life has meaning and purpose	O	subj
1.3	Negative affect balance ^{b)}	O	subj

O = Used in OECD How's Life? Well-being Dashboard or listed in OECD measurement guidelines on subjective well-being, E = Used in the Eurostat QoL Framework, C = included in the CES Recommendations.

^{a)} Relevant international statistical guidance: OECD Guidelines on Measuring Subjective Well-being (2013), to be updated with revised recommendations for affect, eudaimonia and globally inclusive measures of subjective well-being in October 2025. The types of affect that are included in the OECD Guidelines on Measuring Subjective Well-being include feeling pain, happy, worried, calm, sad, angry, joyful, tired and stressed.

^{b)} The types of affect included in the indicator, Negative affect balance, should be comparable across countries.

Dimension 2: Material living conditions

3.53 Income shapes the consumption possibilities of households. Uncertainty about future material conditions reflects the existence of a variety of risks, in particular for unemployment, illness, and old age, which have negative consequences for well-being 'here and now'.

3.54 Relevant subdimensions: income, economic insecurity.

Table 3.2

2. Material living conditions

nr.	indicator	use	type
2.1	Household adjusted disposable income	O,E	obj
2.2	Relative income poverty	O,E	obj
2.3	Difficulty making ends meet	O,E	subj
2.4	Financial insecurity	O	obj/subj

O = Used in OECD How's Life? Well-being Dashboard, E = Used in the Eurostat QoL Framework, C = included in the CES Recommendations.

Dimension 3: Work and leisure

3.55 Work refers to productive activity (whether paid or unpaid), and work quality concerns the material and non-material aspects of people's working conditions. Paid work can provide identity and a sense of meaning and purpose to people as well as opportunities to build strong social connections with others. Not all jobs are equally valuable in this respect, which is why job quality matters. Unpaid work is essential for sustaining daily life and includes activities such as cooking, shopping and caring for children and other household members. As with paid work, the conditions under which such unpaid work takes place influence the extent to which its impact on overall well-being is positive or negative. Leisure time provides opportunities for activities of one's choosing, which contributes to people's health, satisfaction with life and social relationships. The quantity and quality of leisure time, including time allocated to leisure and personal care as well as participation in cultural events, contribute to well-being 'here and now'. People's self-assessment of the balance between work, care and leisure in their daily activities is also a determinant of overall subjective well-being.

3.56 Relevant subdimensions: paid work, unpaid work, leisure time.

Table 3.3

3. Work and leisure

nr.	indicator	use	type
3.1	Labour force participation rate	O,C	obj
3.2	Unemployment	O,E	obj
3.3	Perceived job security		subj
3.4	Job satisfaction	O,E	subj
3.5	Long working hours ^{a)}	O	obj
3.6	Work injuries		obj
3.7	Leisure time ^{b)}	O,C	obj
3.8	Satisfaction with leisure time	O,E	subj
3.9	Informal care and household work	O,E ^{c)}	obj

O = OECD How's Life? Well-being Dashboard, E = Eurostat QoL Framework, C = CES Recommendations.

^{a)} In OECD How's Life? "long hours in paid work" refers to the percentage of employees (aged 15+) whose usual working hours are 50 hours or more per week. The threshold is set at 50 hours because, after commuting, unpaid work and basic needs (such as sleeping and eating) are considered, workers routinely working more than 50 hours per week are left with few hours for other activities. Moreover, in countries where there is a regulation on maximum working time, this is generally limited to 48 hours per week.

^{b)} Use terminology in line with the International Classification of Activities for Time-Use Statistics 2016 (ICATUS 2016) to promote harmonisation of measures of time-use, including time spent on unpaid work, leisure time, and volunteer work. ^{c)} The Eurostat QoL-database contains data on "Time spent in total work (paid and unpaid work as main or secondary activity) by sex and by form of work".

3.57 For more information on employment indicators, see the UNECE (2015) Handbook on measuring quality of employment. Recently, the UNSC endorsed the [Guide to Producing Statistics on Time Use](#), which promotes the adoption of light instruments for collecting time-use data to facilitate more frequent measurement of unpaid domestic and care work. Many countries are embracing this approach by incorporating time-use modules into labour force or other household surveys, enabling more regular reporting on unpaid work as well as other objective and subjective measures on well-being.

Dimension 4: Housing

3.58 Housing provides shelter, safety, privacy and personal space. The area where people live also determines their access to many different services. Different aspects of housing conditions include the quality of housing, housing affordability (share of housing cost in household income) and the amenities and characteristics of neighbourhoods.

3.59 Relevant subdimensions: quantity, quality, affordability, neighbourhood.

Table 3.4

4. Housing

nr.	indicator	use	type
4.1	Satisfaction with housing		subj
4.2	Population living in a dwelling with major deficiencies	E,C ^{a)}	obj
4.3	Overcrowding	O,E	obj
4.4	Housing affordability	O,C	obj
4.5	Housing cost overburden	O	obj
4.6	Satisfaction with own neighbourhood		subj
4.7	Energy poverty	O	obj

O = OECD How's Life? Well-being Dashboard, E = Eurostat QoL Framework, C = CES Recommendations.

^{a)} Living without housing deprivation.

Dimension 5: Health

3.60 Health is about being and feeling well: a long life unencumbered by physical or mental illness, and the ability to participate in activities that people value. A life lived free of illness and disability has intrinsic value for people as well as instrumental value. It enhances people's opportunities to participate in education, the labour market and community life.

3.61 Relevant subdimensions: physical health, mental health.

Table 3.5

5. Health

nr.	indicator	use	type
5.1	Life expectancy	O,E,C	obj
5.2	Perceived health	O,E	subj
5.3	Overweight population	O ^{a)} ,E	obj
5.4	Population with severe long-standing limitations due to health problems	E	obj
5.5	Deaths from suicide, acute alcohol abuse and drug overdose	O,C	obj
5.6	People who experience symptoms of anxiety or depression ^{b)}	O	subj
5.7	Avoidable (or premature) mortality	O ^{a)}	obj

O = OECD How's Life? Well-being Dashboard, E = Eurostat QoL Framework, C = CES Recommendations.

^{a)} Under human capital in the OECD Well-being Dashboard.

^{b)} The guidance is on capturing the two most common mental health conditions (anxiety, depression). See OECD (2023) Measuring Population Mental Health.

Dimension 6: Knowledge and skills

3.62 Education provides the skills and competencies people need to function and adapt in society and the economy. Education is strongly associated with higher life satisfaction, better health status, higher income, lower unemployment, more social connections, and greater engagement in civic and political life.

3.63 Relevant subdimensions: education, skills.

Table 3.6

6. Knowledge and skills

nr.	indicator	use	type
6.1	Secondary educational attainment	O ^{c)} , E, C ^{a)}	obj
6.2	Youth not in employment, education or training	O ^{d)} , E	obj
6.3	Lifelong learning	E, C	obj
6.4	Skills in reading	O, E ^{b)}	obj
6.5	Skills in mathematics	O ^{b)}	obj
6.6	Skills in science	O, C	obj
6.7	Digital skills	O, E ^{b)}	obj

O = OECD How's Life? Well-being Dashboard, E = Eurostat QoL Framework, C = CES Recommendations.

a) Educational attainment, not distinguishing the level of education.

b) The CES Recommendations refer simply to "Competencies".

c) Under human capital/ resources for future well-being in the OECD Well-being Framework.

d) Under work and job quality in the OECD Well-being Framework.

Dimension 7: Physical safety

3.64 Safety is about freedom from harm in the form of crime, conflict, violence, terrorism, oppression, accidents or natural disasters. Personal insecurity puts at risk the physical integrity of each person at risk. In extreme cases, these factors can lead to the death of the person involved.

3.65 Relevant subdimensions: feeling safe, crime, traffic accidents.

Table 3.7

7. Physical safety

nr.	indicator	use	type
7.1	Crime rate		obj
7.2	Victimization rate	E	sub
7.3	Homicide rate	O, E	obj
7.4	Sexual violence		obj
7.5	Feeling safe in the area where they live	O	subj
7.6	Road fatalities	O	obj

O = OECD How's Life? Well-being Dashboard, E = Eurostat QoL Framework, C = CES Recommendations.

3.66 The difference between 7.1 *Crime rate* and 7.2 *Victimization rate* is that the former is an objective indicator for the number of crimes (per 100,000 people) reported to the police, while the latter is a subjective indicator based on people's own assessment of whether they have been victims of a crime. Certain types of crimes, for example, sexual violence, often go unreported, so the subjective measure is important to monitor.

3.67 Sexual violence is an example of an indicator where disaggregation (in this case by gender) would be relevant and recommended.

Dimension 8: Social connections

3.68 Social connections capture the quantity and quality of social interactions and the support provided by these connections. People derive intrinsic pleasure from spending time with others. People with extensive and supportive networks have better health, tend to live longer, report higher life satisfaction, and are more likely to be employed. Social isolation is the deprivation of social interactions (contact with family, friends, neighbours, colleagues).

3.69 Relevant subdimensions: social interactions, support, quality, community, trust.

Table 3.8

8. Social connections^{a)}

nr.	indicator	use	type
8.1	Frequency of social contacts	O,E,C	obj
8.2	Having someone to rely on	O	obj
8.3	Satisfaction with personal relationships	O,E	subj
8.4	Experience of discrimination		subj
8.5	Loneliness	O	subj
8.6	Trust in other people	O ^{b)} , ^{a)} ,C	subj
8.7	Participation in cultural activities	E	obj
8.8	Volunteering	O ^{b)} ,C	obj

O = OECD How's Life? Well-being Dashboard, E = Eurostat QoL Framework, C = CES Recommendations.

^{a)} Relevant international statistical guidance: OECD Guidelines on Measuring Trust (2017). The OECD is currently working on producing guidelines for measuring social connections.

^{b)} Under social capital/resources for future well-being in the OECD Well-being Framework.

Dimension 9: Civic engagement

3.70 Civic engagement is about whether people can and do take part in a range of important civic activities that enable them to shape the society they live in. It has intrinsic value to participate as full citizens, to have a say in the framing of policies, to dissent without fear and to speak up against what one perceives to be wrong. Civic engagement also has instrumental value for public policy and politics.

3.71 Relevant subdimensions: political voice, political participation.

Table 3.9

9. Civic engagement

nr.	indicator	use	type
9.1	People who feel they have a say in what the government does	O	subj
9.2	Active citizenship ^{a)}	E	obj
9.3	Voter turnout	O,E,C	obj
9.4	Trust in institutions	O ^{b)} ,E	subj

O = OECD How's Life? Well-being Dashboard, E = Eurostat QoL Framework, C = CES Recommendations.

^{a)} Eurostat defines active citizenship as "active citizens, meaning that they had attended meetings, signed petitions, or otherwise participated in activities related to political groups, associations or parties."

^{b)} Under social capital/resources for future well-being in the OECD Well-being Framework. Relevant international statistical guidance: OECD Guidelines on Measuring Trust (2017).

Dimension 10: Environmental conditions

3.72 Environmental quality affects human health through the quality of air, water and soil, which is related to the presence and density of hazardous substances and harmful environmental conditions such as extreme heat. It matters intrinsically to people who value natural beauty and the amenities that affect their life choices. People also benefit from environmental services and assets.

3.73 Relevant subdimensions: environmental quality, nature and biodiversity, extreme temperatures.

Table 3.10

10. Environmental conditions

nr.	indicator	use	type
10.1	Air quality ^{a)}	O,C	obj
10.2	Noise pollution	E	subj
10.3	Access to green space	O	obj
10.4	Exposure to extreme temperatures (heat stress)	O	obj
10.5	Clean drinking water		obj

O = OECD How's Life? Well-being Dashboard, E = Eurostat QoL Framework, C = CES Recommendations.

^{a)} Relevant international statistical guidance: WHO Air quality guidelines (updated in 2021).

3.4 Distribution of well-being

3.74 In addition to focusing on the individual and household perspective, the existing frameworks consider it of high importance to measure distributions and identify inequalities in society (see also Chapter 2). Inequalities not only in income and wealth but also in health, education and subjective well-being and other areas inform about gaps among population groups or geographical areas and put a spotlight on deprived population groups (see Burger, J., and J. van Beuningen, 2020).

3.75 Measuring inequalities in income and wealth is one of the issues considered in the 2025 System of National Accounts to better reflect societal well-being. The 2025 SNA is also addressing other topics that may be of relevance in measuring well-being, such as unpaid household service work, health care, labour, education, and environmental-economic issues.

3.76 Also, Stiglitz, Sen and Fitoussi gave several key recommendations on the distribution of well-being:

- *Recommendation 4: Give more prominence to the distribution of income, consumption and wealth:* averages are meaningful, medians provide a better measure of the typical individual or household, and for many purposes it is also important to know what is happening at the bottom or the top.
- *Recommendation 7: Quality-of-life indicators in all the dimensions covered should assess inequalities in a comprehensive way:* Inequalities in quality of life should be assessed across people, socio-economic groups, gender and generations, with special attention to inequalities that have arisen more recently, such as those linked to immigration.
- *Recommendation 8: Surveys should be designed to assess the links between various quality-of-life domains for each person, and this information should be used when*

designing policies in various fields: “joint distribution” of the most salient features of quality of life across everyone in a country.

3.77 In addition to population averages, The OECD Well-being Framework and associated dashboard considers inequalities within groups, inequalities between groups, and deprivations. It distinguishes three types of inequality in the distribution of well-being ‘here and now’ (see e.g. OECD 2024):

- gaps between population groups (horizontal inequalities);
- gaps between those at the top and those at the bottom of the achievement scale in each dimension (vertical inequalities); and
- deprivations (i.e. the share of the population falling below a given threshold of achievement).

3.78 NSOs are typically interested in differences between various population groups. Standard breakdowns are age, gender, education level, and income group. Other relevant ways to disaggregate an indicator include regional breakdowns, population density of the community (urban versus rural), indigenous status, ethnicity, household composition, and disability status. The results more precisely show where well-being is higher or lower.

3.79 Breakdowns are often associated with policy relevance or notions of causality. For example, it is known that health outcomes vary by age, that trust in institutions varies by education level, that people in urban areas experience more crime and lower social cohesion than in rural areas, and that labour participation and earnings vary by gender. Figure 3.1 shows an example from the Netherlands, namely average life satisfaction by gender, age group, education level, and country of origin and birth. Grey bars indicate that there is no statistically significant difference from the population average, red bars indicate numbers significantly lower than the average, and green bars indicate numbers significantly higher than the average.

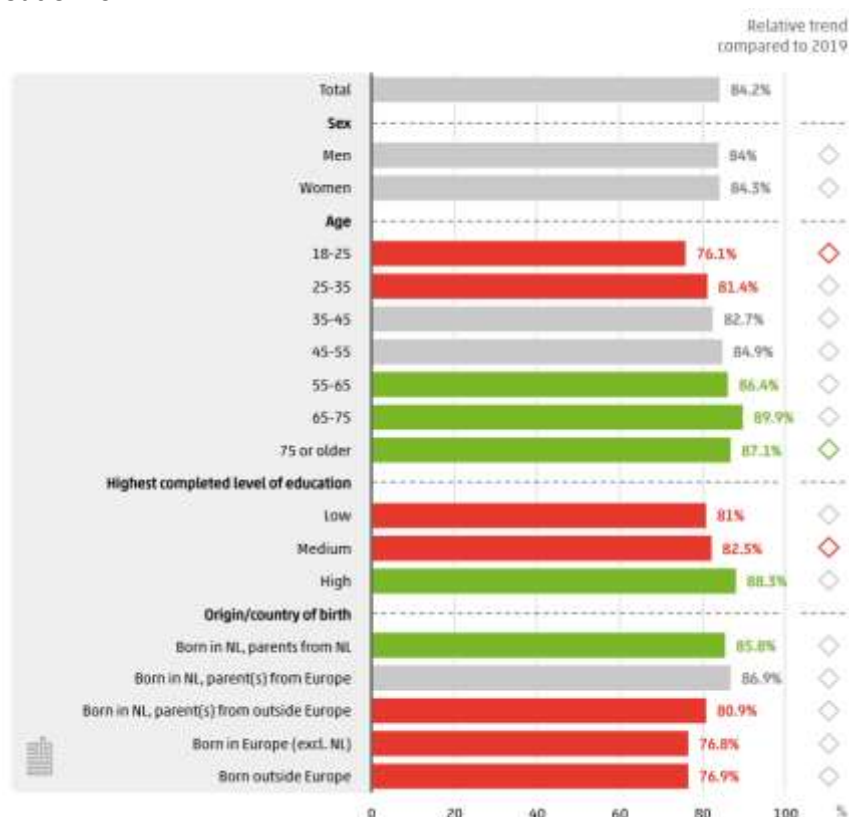
3.80 **Recommendation:** Rather than selecting breakdowns based on policy relevance or causal models tailored to each indicator, it is advisable to monitor the distribution of well-being ‘here and now’ by disaggregating all or a sample of indicators (for example, one or two for each dimension) for the same population groups (e.g. age, gender, education level, and income group). This provides a more consistent picture of the overall well-being of each of these population groups and enables insights that may not be apparent.

3.81 A more advanced but technically more difficult analysis is to combine information on well-being outcomes in different dimensions on the individual level using microdata. This reveals how positive and negative well-being outcomes accumulate in different population groups.¹³ Another way to combine information is by looking at the joint distribution of indicators by different characteristics (for example, sex AND geographic region AND level of education), to identify the most disadvantaged population groups (see [Istat 2024](#)).

¹³ The accumulation of positive and negative well-being outcomes is monitored in the [Monitor Well-Being and the Sustainable Development Goals 2024](#) of Statistics Netherlands.

Figure 3.1

Satisfaction with life by sex, age, education level, and origin/country of birth in the Netherlands in 2023. The percentage of the population that scored life satisfaction at least 7 out of 10.



Source: Statistics Netherlands, Monitor Well-Being and the Sustainable Development Goals 2024.

3.82 The CES Recommendations recognize distributional indicators. In their presentation of the sustainable development indicators to the dimension of human well-being (“Here and now”), they distinguish them from aggregate indicators. The following distributional measures are adopted in their recommendations: 7. Income inequality, gender pay gap, 15. Distribution-health, 19. Female employment rate, 20. Youth employment rate and 27. Distribution education (see also page 70 of the CES recommendations, Table 8.1).

3.83 The Beyond GDP framework, as proposed in the UN Valuing What Counts report (p. 154), mentions “reduced inequalities and greater solidarity” towards a more equal distribution of well-being as one of three outcome elements derived from the Brundtland Report and the SDGs. The other two outcome elements are ‘well-being and agency’ to focus on current well-being and ‘respect for life and the planet’ to ensure possibilities for life and well-being in the future. All three elements are directed to achieve greater solidarity, transformation, stronger governance and resilience, technology, innovation, and creativity to ensure well-being today, in the future and for everyone, underpinned by active, free and meaningful participation of people.

3.84 When applying and interpreting inequality measures, for example on poverty (see Box 3.4), one should be aware of implicit value judgements, such as “more happiness is better” or the choice to treat all same-sized differences in well-being equally rather than penalizing increases in unhappiness.

Box: 3.4

Subjective and objective measures for poverty

Objective poverty measures alone are not sufficient to understand the complexity of poverty. Subjective measures can complement them in important ways, especially with regard to reaching the poorest and making their voice heard. Applying a subjective approach allows for a better understanding of what poverty means to people, as well as to verify whether objective evaluations of poverty are consistent with the social perception of this phenomenon. Subjective measures also provide information on 'public moods', which can influence people's behaviour in both the economic, social and political spheres. In its final report, the UNECE Task Force on Subjective Poverty Measures (ECE/CES/2024/2) recommended two indicators of subjective poverty, one based on qualitative responses and the other on quantitative responses. The indicators are developed using two measures: (1) perceptions of a household's financial well-being, and (2) perceptions of a household's minimum resources to make ends meet. Subjective measures can further add value in considering quantitative approaches to measuring poverty, which, rather than asking for a specific monetary value (levels of income, expenditures, consumption, or wealth), consider respondents' perceptions about their (or a hypothetical household's) material, financial, or economic situation. Statistical analyses related to the use of subjective and quasi-subjective measures may also be used to verify and even construct measures of an objective nature, for example, the consensus method for constructing deprivation indices, and verification of equivalence scales used.

3.85 Statistical data tend to focus on the working-age population, and there is a risk that children and elderly people are not sufficiently represented. When it comes to surveys to collect subjective indicators (on satisfaction, fears, worries, experiences), these may exclude children and elderly people, or the questions may be designed mainly to capture the sentiments of the working-age population. The broader issue is that specific indicators need to be developed to measure the well-being of the young and the old. Examples for the young include youth discomfort, relations with classmates, bullying, and Internet abuse. The inclusion of children in a well-being measurement framework is elaborated in Box 3.5. Examples for the elderly include the level of state pensions paid relative to the median wage, the level of provision of care and accommodation, and the level and quality of social care and geriatric health care.

Box 3.5

Children in well-being measurement frameworks

Many international and national well-being frameworks are conceptualized purely or primarily about the well-being of adults. This creates gaps at the conceptual and measurement levels.

Conceptually, many dimensions and indicators of well-being are equally relevant to adults and children. However, frameworks designed with adults in mind may not fully represent the issues most relevant to children's well-being. For example, pressure at school, experiences of peer bullying, experiences of participation, and children's individual experiences of material deprivation are well-established as important factors that affect children's well-being. The [OECD Child Well-being Dashboard](#) contains a range of child-specific indicators that may be considered to fill this gap. The UK national well-being framework includes [a list of child-specific indicators](#).

At the measurement level, gaps can occur not because there is a need for a different measure for children but simply because there aren't currently mechanisms in place to include children. This is true for many of the subjective indicators recommended in this chapter. It is well-established that children above a certain age (variable depending on the question) can answer questions about their subjective well-being. The problem is that the surveys used to gather this data often only include adults.

Due to such omissions, well-being conversation becomes one about adult well-being. For example, the World Happiness Report focuses primarily on life satisfaction based on surveys of people aged 15 and above. It is an underlying assumption of developing national well-being frameworks that they may be used to inform national policy to improve people's lives. So, if groups of the population are excluded, their views and experiences will not inform policy. This includes a risk that the policy becomes more adult-centric and neglects children's well-being.

For these reasons, it is essential that well-being frameworks that are intended to represent the whole population include children. This may require adaptations to existing surveys (for example, the [Understanding Society](#) survey in the UK is an annual household survey which includes an individual self-completion questionnaire for children aged 10 to 15 in the household). It may also require new survey initiatives, such as school-based surveys, to gather data.

In conclusion, when countries are developing and implementing measures of national well-being, it will be important to consider how to include existing data relevant to children's well-being and also to consider what additional data may be needed in the long term to develop an overview of this age group that can inform policy.

Chapter 4 Composite Indicators

4.1 This chapter provides guidance to NSOs and other statistical producers who wish to construct a composite indicator of well-being. The aim is to help find the right approach for their purposes and identify appropriate methods and techniques. Section 4.1 provides definitions of dashboards and composite indicators. Section 4.2 discusses key issues to consider before a composite measure can be constructed, advantages and disadvantages and gives a general overview of the methodological steps that are involved, building on existing guidelines of the OECD and UNECE that aim to ensure a degree of international comparability and methodological consistency. Section 4.3 discusses the use of weights in composite indicators in more detail. Section 4.4 provides two examples of composite indexes compiled by Portugal and United Kingdom.

4.2 Why do we have a chapter entirely focused on composite indices? Sharpe (2004) describes the challenge well:

“The aggregators believe there are two major reasons that there is value in combining indicators in some manner to produce a bottom line. They believe that such a summary statistic can indeed capture reality and is meaningful, and that stressing the bottom line is extremely useful in garnering media interest and hence the attention of policy makers. The second school, the non-aggregators, believe one should stop once an appropriate set of indicators has been created and not go the further step of producing a composite index. Their key objection to aggregation is what they see as the arbitrary nature of the weighting process by which the variables are combined.”

4.3 When attempting to visualize well-being, the question is how to strike a balance between delivering a simple metric, which is easy for users to digest and apply, and presenting the diversity of the underlying data and the varying trends in the underlying data sources. A dashboard answers this question one way, whilst a composite index takes a very different approach. In a dashboard approach, the entire set of indicators is presented in such a way that the reader can (and indeed must) deduce developments and comparative levels of well-being from the visualization or database. In a composite index, the indicators for dimensions of well-being are weighted into a single number.

4.4 These two approaches have different positives and negatives that should be carefully considered under the use conditions:¹⁴

- The dashboard places the onus on the policy-user to consider the trade-offs between the variables, but ensures they have a view of all the key variables. However, key data may be obscured in the complexity of the presentation.
- A composite index can be a useful tool to simplify and communicate complicated results, but it can run the risk of obscuring data variables, which may be showing very different trends, or if they are omitted from the composite, exclude them entirely. Both of these risks are most likely to be determined by the mis-specification of the weights.

4.5 Composite indices and dashboards can also be (and often are) used side-by-side. Also, composites may include subsidiary composites, and dashboards can contain composite indicators, for example, an indicator for a specific thematic outcome area that combines multiple components.

¹⁴ An overview of the pros and cons of composite indicators is presented by Saisana and Tarantola (2002) can be found in the OECD Handbook on constructing composite indicators, pp. 13-14 (OECD 2008).

4.1 Definitions

4.6 A **dashboard** approach requires a model to select relevant dimensions and the associated indicators. The difference is that the statistical results are made accessible and understandable using visualisation techniques (and/or a background database) rather than by reducing the information to a single composite index.

4.7 A **composite indicator** is an index constructed by aggregating multiple individual indicators that together measure a complex, multidimensional phenomenon (OECD 2008, p. 13; UNECE 2019, pp. 67-68). Well-being is an example of such a phenomenon.

4.8 Again, assuming a formative framework, whereby the different data items are drivers of well-being, the selection and aggregation of indicators requires a *model* that explains how different components combine to deliver an understanding of the complex, multidimensional phenomenon. A well-being framework is such a model: it separates the entire phenomenon into constituent dimensions, explains how each dimension is related to overall well-being, and identifies the indicators that are to be aggregated into a composite index. A framework model is also required to form a solid well-being dashboard.

4.9 **Weights** are required to combine individual indicators into an aggregate number. A weight indicates how much an indicator or theme contributes to the aggregate outcome. When all the components of a composite index are assigned equal weights, this does not mean that the composite is an unweighted index. All components are assumed to be equally important.

4.2 Approaches for composite indicators

4.10 Different stakeholders and other users have different needs. Some users and some purposes are better served by the dashboard model, whilst other users and purposes benefit more from a composite index. Both may be useful in different contexts. A composite index can be an effective way to communicate the results of a complex, multi-indicator dashboard to the media, politicians and policy-makers, but this can depend heavily on individuals and their preferences. Politicians and policymakers may have different preferences and interests, and in their debates and decisions, they inevitably have to make trade-offs and understand the synergies between different aspects of well-being.

4.11 It is important to be aware of and transparent about the underlying assumptions and limitations. In general, carefully considering the assumptions and limitations involved in constructing a composite index facilitates responsible use of that index by the users of official statistics.

Box 4.1

Be transparent about methods, assumptions and limitations.

“The absence of an ‘objective’ way to determine weights and aggregation methods does not necessarily lead to rejection of the validity of composite indicators, as long as the entire process is transparent. The modeller’s objectives must be clearly stated at the outset, and the chosen model must be tested to see to what extent it fulfils the modeller’s goal.”

(OECD 2008, p. 33)

4.12 This chapter provides a general overview of the methodological steps that are involved in constructing a composite index of well-being. This overview builds on the guidelines of the OECD and UNECE. The aim is to ensure a degree of international comparability and methodological consistency. The explanation is deliberately not technical so that countries with less sophisticated statistical systems can also apply it. Producers who need more advanced methods and techniques can find detailed explanations in the existing technical handbooks.

4.13 The existing guidelines divide the process of constructing a composite index into ten steps (OECD 2008, pp. 20-21; UNECE 2019, pp. 70):

1. **Developing a conceptual framework** as the basis for the selection and combination of variables into a meaningful composite indicator.
2. **Selection of data**, based on the analytical soundness, measurability, country coverage, and relevance of the indicators to the phenomenon being measured and their relationship to each other.
3. **Preparation of data and imputation of missing data**, in order to provide a complete dataset.
4. **Multivariate analysis**, to study the overall structure of the dataset, assess its suitability, and guide subsequent methodological choices, such as weighting and aggregation.
5. **Normalisation of data**, to render the variables comparable.
6. **Weighting and aggregation**, along the lines of the underlying theoretical framework.
7. **Uncertainty and sensitivity analysis**, to assess the robustness of the composite indicator in terms of the mechanism for including or excluding an indicator, the normalisation scheme, the imputation of missing data, the choice of weights, and the aggregation method.
8. **Evaluating plausibility and validity**, to examine whether the composite indicator gives a good and reliable measure of the phenomenon it is intended to represent.
9. **Links to other statistics**, to correlate the composite indicator (or its dimensions) with existing (simple or composite) indicators, as well as to identify linkages through regressions.
10. **Communication and visualisation**, to help users make correct interpretations of the composite index and help avoid misunderstandings.

4.14 The use of an international framework as the model for the selection of dimensions and indicators is recommended. Well-being should be measured systematically and comprehensively. When constructing a composite indicator, all dimensions should be included, without a priori selection.

4.15 Aggregation of indicators into a composite index should be done step-by-step following the structure of the underlying model. Sustainable and inclusive well-being is a layered framework: it contains different perspectives in time and space (well-being ‘here and now’, ‘later’, and ‘elsewhere’ as outlined in the CES Recommendations), each perspective contains multiple dimensions (e.g. health and subjective well-being in well-being ‘here and now’), and most dimensions are measured using multiple indicators (for example, to measure both objective and subjective aspects of well-being). Stiglitz, Sen and Fitoussi note that well-being ‘here and now’, ‘later’, and ‘elsewhere’ should never be aggregated into a single composite index. For each component, indicators should first be aggregated into a composite index for individual dimensions and only then into a composite index for all dimensions together (e.g. for well-being ‘here and now’).

4.3 The use of weights in composite indicators

4.16 A composite indicator of overall well-being can be constructed in two steps. Firstly, by weighting and aggregating the individual indicators of each dimension into composite indicators of the dimensions. Secondly, by weighting and aggregating the composite indicators of the

dimensions into one composite indicator of overall well-being. Hence, constructing a composite indicator of overall well-being requires weights of the individual indicators and the dimensions.

4.17 The weights should reflect the relative importance of the components that together make up the composite indicator. To some extent, the weights may be assigned based on the conceptual framework or the intended use of the indicators. However, in most cases, weights will have to be estimated. The challenge is to find a method to expose the relative importance that people as a collective place on the components of the composite measure. There are several methods to estimate the weights that aim to avoid bias or a priori opinions by the compiler of the indicator (OECD, 2008, pp. 31-33; UNECE 2019, pp. 75-78). The most used methods are briefly presented below.

Equal weighting

4.18 Equal weighting can be applied at both aggregation steps: from individual indicators to dimensions and from dimensions to the overall composite measure. Equal weights may be applied if the components can be considered equally important, based on the conceptual framework and the purpose of the composite indicator. Equal weighting will often be a suitable solution and perform well compared to other methods. It also has the advantage of being transparent and easy to explain to users.

4.19 A composite indicator of overall well-being may include 8-10 dimensions that are different in nature and cover very different aspects of well-being. For such broad types of composite indicators, it may not be possible to estimate and apply explicit weights. Explicit weights of the components, whether estimated by statistical methods, experts' judgements or public opinion, may be interpreted as value judgements about the relative importance of the different dimensions and raise criticism. Hence, at the level of dimensions, equal weighting might be the preferred option. However, while equal weighting avoids over- or underestimating the importance of components based on a subjective choice, the allocation of equal weights is in itself a choice that may (deliberately or inadvertently) omit information about the relative importance of the components.

Empirical methods

4.20 Empirical methods, sometimes also referred to as data-driven or statistical methods, derive weights based on statistical analysis of the dataset. Methods include Principal Component Analysis (PCA) and frequency-based weights. Research on multidimensional poverty measures (Dutta, Nogales, and Yalonetzky 2021) demonstrates that the resulting indices may violate two fundamental properties: *monotonicity* and *subgroup consistency*. Monotonicity states that if the experience of an individual worsens in any indicator, then the overall experience of the society to which this individual belongs should not improve.¹⁵ Subgroup consistency requires that changes in the overall population should reflect the changes happening at the smaller population subgroup level. For instance, if the outcome of interest in a particular region of a country improves, while all other regions remain unchanged, subgroup consistency implies that the overall outcome metric in the country should not decrease.¹⁶ In short, it is possible to observe instances where, for example, poverty in a group may increase, but if the weights move by a relatively larger factor towards groups observing constant poverty rates, this can result in the poverty metric appearing to improve.

4.21 A particular group of empirical methods builds on measures of people's preferences through information about their actions (revealed preferences). These methods include the use

¹⁵ This is a particular instance of suppression where the framework does not only suppress the signal contained in a particular data series, but through the application of the weighting system derive a misleading outcome where it appears the situation improves while actually getting worse.

¹⁶ This is the same instance of suppression, but viewed via the geographical axes rather than the individual data series.

of *prices* or *time* as a numeraire and the use of *legislation and regulations* as a proxy for social preferences. It is also possible to use a *common numeraire* derived for this purpose, such as a quality-adjusted life year (QALY) or well-being-adjusted life year (WELLBY) (as per Layard and De Neve 2023) and using the change in these metrics multiplied by the monetary value assigned to these as the weights.

Normative weights

4.22 Normative weights, also referred to as expert-driven or subjective weights, will generally be derived by expert-led processes. The weights for individual indicators and dimensions of composite indicators may be estimated based on experts' judgment about the relative importance of the individual indicators or dimensions. The relevant expertise could include information from both field experts and researchers. However, for composite indicators that cover a broad set of dimensions, it may be difficult to obtain the very broad expertise required. A composite indicator of well-being, for example, may cover 8-10 dimensions, each of which requires special expertise. Weighting these together into a composite indicator would require knowledge or expertise on their relative importance. For composite indicators of particular dimensions of well-being, there may be more expertise or studies available that could be used to decide on the weights. Expert-driven weights may be discarded as being too open to criticism for being value-based or subjective.

4.23 The problem of value judgements applies particularly to the aggregation of composite indicators of dimensions of well-being into a single composite measure of overall well-being. The aggregation of different indicators within a particular dimension into a composite index for that dimension is less problematic, but still relies on the assumption that the selected indicators accurately measure the dimension of interest.

Public opinion

4.24 In the public opinion (or participatory) approach, weights are based on the outcomes of polls or surveys, where people are asked to express which areas matter most. Public opinion can be used to estimate weights for both individual indicators and for dimensions, but is probably more suitable for estimation of weights of dimensions since estimation of weights for individual indicators usually will require more detailed knowledge. The survey should be of sufficient quality to ensure that the weights are of sufficient precision and reliability.

4.25 Public opinion may change, which may necessitate updating the weights of the indicators and the dimensions. There are advantages in keeping the weights constant over time. However, if public opinion about the relative importance of the components of the composite indicator changes, the weights may need to be updated to reflect this. Changing the weights implies that the development in the composite indicator will not only be the result of changes in the individual components but also their relative weights.

4.26 Irrespective of the method used to derive weights, an important assumption to consider is that of compensability or substitutability of dimensions and indicators. In a composite time series that combines two indicators (A and B), the implicit assumption is that an increase in A can be offset by a decrease in B. For example, if A is household income and B is air pollution, the assumption is that a decline in environmental quality can be offset by an increase in material well-being. This may not necessarily be the case, or may be unacceptable to some users. The recommendation is therefore that composite indices should be accompanied by dashboards (or other visualizations or dashboards) that give information about the development in the underlying components.

4.4 Country examples

4.27 This section provides examples of composite indicators compiled by Portugal, United Kingdom and Canada. The aim is to help compilers find the right approach for their purposes and identify appropriate methods and techniques.

Portugal: Well-being index of Portugal

4.28 The Well-being Index (WBI), introduced by Statistics Portugal in 2013, serves as a tool to monitor several dimensions of well-being within the country. Its inception responds to a growing international consensus recognizing the limitations of traditional economic indicators like GDP in capturing the complexities of human well-being. The index is structured around two primary perspectives: Material living conditions and Quality of life, each encompassing a range of domains reflecting various aspects of societal welfare.

4.29 Underpinning the development of the WBI are international guidelines and frameworks advocated by organizations such as the United Nations, OECD, and Eurostat. Notably, the European Commission's "Beyond GDP" initiative and the Stiglitz-Sen-Fitoussi report have provided pivotal insights into complementing economic metrics with comprehensive well-being indicators. Furthermore, programmes like the OECD's Better Life Initiative have contributed valuable insights into selecting relevant domains and indicators.

4.30 The WBI comprises ten domains, incorporating 78 baseline indicators from administrative data and other sources. These indicators range from the Material living conditions perspective (Economic well-being, Economic vulnerability and Employment) to the Quality of life perspective (Health, Work-life balance, Education, Social relations, Civic participation, Personal security and Environment). To ensure the comparability and coherence of these indicators, Statistics Portugal employs normalization methods, such as the goalpost method, to account for variations in data sources and units of measurement.

4.31 Addressing the challenge of missing data, Statistics Portugal adopts imputation techniques, including linear interpolation and exponential smoothing, to fill information gaps. The aggregation of indicators within each domain is carried out using arithmetic means. The Perspective and the overall Well-being Index are computed using geometric means to limit the compensation effect. In both cases, equal weighting is assigned to each indicator and each domain. This methodological approach ensures that no single domain or indicator disproportionately influences the overall index.

4.32 By providing a holistic well-being assessment, the index facilitates a nuanced understanding of societal progress beyond purely economic metrics. Its regular annual dissemination promotes transparency and accountability in governance, empowering stakeholders to evaluate policy effectiveness and advocate for positive societal change.

4.33 Detailed information about the WBI is available on [Statistics Portugal - Web Portal](#). Statistics Portugal also publishes the individual indicators and, in this way, provides information both to those users who are only interested in the overall development and those who want to know about the underlying indicators.

UK: money-weighted composites alongside GDP

4.34 Gross Inclusive Income (GII) and its net sibling Net Inclusive Income (ONS 2023) are composite indices drawn from the same methodology as the National Accounts use to produce Gross Domestic Product (GDP) and Net National Disposable Income (NNDI). Concerning the two methods issues raised above – which variables to include and the weighting method, GII and NII utilise well-established approaches, drawing from a theoretical framework based on the

National Accounts principles of the asset and production boundary. The National Accounts define a set of assets (produced capital) which lie within a specified 'asset boundary'. Alongside these, all the resultant flows which result from human interaction with these assets deliver the sum of flows of output, income and expenditure within the 'production boundary'.

4.35 Using this method, the Inclusive Income indices expand the asset boundary to account for human and natural capital, and commensurately expand the production boundary to align with the output arising from this wider class of assets. As these flows of benefits are not all strictly 'output', the framework is re-conceptualised to align with the concept of consumption and proxied by equivalent income flows commensurate with the flow of consumption from the results of these assets' interaction with human activity or as part of natural actions.

4.36 Importantly these indices, under this regime, forms a strong theoretical match for the concept of economic welfare, that is the absolute total of the flows of benefits received from humanity's interaction with the economy and the other structures and ecosystems, primarily unpaid work and the environment which deliver flows of benefits which can be conceptualised in such a framework. Factors such as subjective well-being and purely social factors may not be best considered within such a framework, and as such are excluded.

4.37 The Inclusive Income indices are weighted using market price money metrics. This is not to say that alternative money price metrics could not be considered; as proposed by Dasgupta (2021), accounting prices, loosely defined as shadow prices taking account of externalities, would potentially be a superior alternative numeraire in the Inclusive Income framework, and indeed, Dasgupta would argue a more appropriate one. Please see [here for research ONS has carried out on how inclusive income/wealth would be measured in accounting prices](#).

4.38 While dashboards deliver value by providing a broad set of indicators, a composite indicator summarises this range of information into a single measure. If appropriately weighted, it is possible to derive trade-offs between components of the composite indicator. So, if GDP increases but at a cost to the environment and the services it delivers to citizens, this can be seen by the growth rate being lower than that of GDP, and maybe even negative. Equally, it can reveal the importance of the market economy within a wider measure of economic welfare.

Canada: thematic outcome indices

4.39 As distinct from composite indices that seek to combine dimensions to provide summary measures of overall well-being, Canada's Quality of Life framework includes composite indices as indicators for specific outcome areas, such as health and crime.

4.40 Health-adjusted life expectancy (HALE) is defined as the number of years an individual is expected to live given current morbidity and mortality conditions. This measure incorporates information on mortality (such as life expectancy) and health status (such as morbidity) into a single estimate that can be considered not only a measure of quantity of life, but also a measure of quality of life from a health standpoint. Population-level estimates of HALE assess expected future trends if current patterns of mortality and health status persist. This summary measure can be useful for analytical purposes, such as to understand health inequities and the relative impact of different risk factors.

4.41 From a technical standpoint, HALE combines the Health Utilities Index Mark 3 (HUI3) as a measure of health status with estimates of life expectancy. HUI3 is itself a composite index of health-related quality of life based on eight attributes of self-reported health status: vision, hearing, speech, ambulation, dexterity, emotion, cognition, and pain. The value of HUI3 can range from -0.36 (state worse than death; death represented by 0) to 1.00 (best possible health state).

4.42 The Crime Severity Index (CSI) tracks changes in the severity of police-reported crime by accounting for both the amount of crime reported by police in a given jurisdiction and the relative seriousness of the crimes. It is useful to measure change in time and differences between communities, and complements the volume-based reported crime rate (per 100,000 population).

4.43 From a technical standpoint, this composite index assigns a weight to all Criminal Code violations (including traffic and drug violations) and assigns weights based on their seriousness. These weights are determined based on actual sentences handed down by the courts. More serious crimes are assigned higher weights and thus have a greater impact on changes in the index. The weights are updated every five years.

4.44 In both cases, these composite indices provide meaningful insight about broad trends and distributional differences that span the relevant outcome dimension.

4.5 Global examples

4.45 There are various examples of composite indexes for global comparison. Prominent examples are the global Multidimensional Poverty Index (global MPI), the Human Development Index (HDI) and the inequality-adjusted Human Development Index (IHDI). The global MPI measures acute multidimensional poverty in more than 100 developing countries. It captures acute, overlapping deprivations in health, education, and living standards that people in poverty face. The HDI measures human development as a composite index of data on education, life expectancy and income. The IHDI adjusts the HDI for inequalities in education, life expectancy and income.

Chapter 5 Communication

5.1 Communication of well-being indicators can be challenging for countries implementing and maintaining well-being frameworks. There have been calls for guidance and examples of good practices on how to communicate well-being indicators for different users, including policy makers, to optimise the relevancy and use of the well-being frameworks. This chapter includes an overview of communication approaches for well-being frameworks, recommendations for analysis, visualisation and dashboard development and examples of national communications approaches.

5.1 Overview of communication approaches

5.2 This section considers three aspects of communicating well-being frameworks. Firstly, the stages of communication recommended to develop and maintain a well-being framework are outlined. These are based on the stages for communication of leading, composite and sentiment indicators (UNECE, 2019). Secondly, user segmentation is discussed as an approach that can be used to target well-being framework statistical and communication products to the relevant users. The user group definitions used reference those from the European Statistical Advisory Committee (ESAC) classification of users (ESAC, 2015). The differences between stakeholders, users and audiences are also described. Thirdly, the types of communication channels and the mapping of these channels to groups using a content strategy are outlined. This is based on the approach in the Statistical Communications Framework for Statistical Institutions (UNECE, 2021).

5.1.1 Communication stages in the development of a well-being framework

5.3 The Guidelines on producing leading, composite and sentiment indicators (UNECE, 2019) suggest four stages of communication, which are also applicable to well-being frameworks. The four stages can be resource and time demanding, but increase the likelihood of support for the framework by stakeholders and user groups. Stakeholder engagement in the development of a well-being framework must be balanced with the Fundamental Principles of Official Statistics (UN, 2014), including the requirements of independence, impartiality and transparency. The four stages include:

1. **Stakeholder and user consultation** - early and active stakeholder and user consultation from the outset of the process in order to ensure appropriate messages are delivered and buy-in. This includes both external and internal stakeholders. This allows stakeholders to provide crucial input on the relevance and potential design and communication of proposed indicators, the domains into which they are placed, and the overall design of the well-being framework.
2. **Design and production** - iterations which give stakeholders and users multiple opportunities to help shape the final framework. More detailed discussions with internal stakeholders, including technology, communication, dissemination, and statistical subject matter experts, would be recommended at this stage. Well-being frameworks often include indicators from a range of surveys and administrative sources within various business units of an NSO and other agencies. Inclusion of internal stakeholders early in the development process ensures that the overall well-being framework, underlying indicators, and proposed design are feasible and align with the overarching NSO communication, dissemination and technology strategies and policies. It also

ensures that the well-being framework is incorporated into ongoing communication calendars and is resourced sufficiently across different teams within an NSO.

3. **Dissemination** - This will involve not only presenting the numbers and high-level indicators, but also interpreting their implications, within the context that they are to be used or the user group and audience to which they are targeted. A key consideration is the complexity of information required to be easily accessible to different user groups. This ranges from high-level indicators for the general public to detailed tables and methodological documents for policy makers. The recommended communication and dissemination approaches are expanded upon in the sections on recommendations for visualisation, dashboard development and analysis.
4. **Continuous evaluation** – this stage is based on an ongoing communication strategy that acknowledges well-being frameworks as statistical products with iterative development and communication cycles. An ongoing dialogue with users is a key to producing high quality statistics that are also policy relevant, especially as indicators may change as scientific knowledge, policy concerns and data availability progress. However, further development, exclusion and inclusion of indicators must be balanced against the needs of stakeholders who may require certain indicators to remain included over time. An ongoing dialogue also aids the visibility and relevance of the well-being frameworks to stakeholders.

5.4 This fourth stage also includes ongoing communication with internal stakeholders responsible for statistical products within the NSO. There are constant developments of these products, with new questions, surveys and administrative sources becoming available, which may be relevant for future iterations of well-being frameworks. Changes may also occur to statistical products linked to the current well-being framework indicators, which should be clearly communicated within an NSO. It is also helpful to exchange communication with colleagues in other NSOs, given potential similarities in best practice for well-being frameworks.

5.5 The ongoing communication may be formalised in the NSO communication plan. This could include requirements to review the well-being framework at specific intervals, publish regular press releases, and actively engage with key stakeholders, including policymakers, through attendance and seminars, creation of bespoke analysis and active engagement with stakeholders on potential improvements to the well-being frameworks.

5.1.2 Communication for stakeholders, users and audience

5.6 Understanding the different needs of stakeholders, users, and audiences is a useful starting point when targeting communications. NSOs will have differing relationships and communication approaches with each of these cohorts, thus, a broad overview is outlined in the following sections. The Strategic Communication Framework for Statistical Institutions (UNECE,2021) defines stakeholders, users and audience as follows:

- **Stakeholders** are primarily those with an interest in the NSO's business. They can be individuals, groups or organizations that are affected by the activity of the business, as well as providers of its data.
- **Users** are defined as a person or organization that receives a service. For example, accessing an NSO's website to acquire data. When researching users, it can be helpful to understand who they are and what they are trying to do; how they currently do it (for example, what services or channels they use); the problems or frustrations they experience and what they need from your service to achieve their goal. The ESAC (2015) definition of user segmentation is outlined in this chapter.

- **Audience** is the term typically used for those receiving the communication. This could be a particular user group (for example, applicants to a particular service) or a group of stakeholders (e.g., policymakers). It may also refer to the public in general. The Strategic Communication Framework for Statistical Institutions (UNECE,2021) defines audience segmentation is outlined in this chapter.

Types of users by statistical products

5.7 The following tables outline an approach to mapping users (ESAC, 2015) to the statistical products and other communication channels associated with well-being frameworks. Table 5.1 references these users against statistical products, such as dashboards, infographics, microdata, and international publications. Table 5.2 references these users against other communication channels, including press releases, seminars, and social media. Table 5.2 does not differentiate between communication products and communication channels.

Table 5.1
Types of users by statistical products

	Statistical Products						
	Infographic	Dashboard	Indicators	Metadata	Microdata	Links to related NSO publications	Links to international publications
Institutional Users of Well-being Indicators							
Internal NSO Stakeholders	X						
Government Agencies	X	X	X	X		X	X
Policymakers within Government Agencies	X	X	X	X	X	X	X
Other NSOs	X	X	X	X			X
Other International Stakeholders (OECD, UN, etc.)	X	X	X	X			X
Non-institutional users of Well-being Indicators							
Users with a general interest							
Journalists and Media	X	X	X				
Citizens	X	X	X				
Students and Teachers	X	X	X	X		X	X
Users with a specific subject/domain interest							
Other decision-makers	X	X	X	X		X	X
Policy analysts	X	X	X	X	X	X	X
Experts in a specific field		X	X	X	X		
Users with a reuse and reproduction interest							
Other producers of official statistics	X	X	X	X	X	X	X
Private or government organisations providing information services/products.	X	X	X	X	X	X	X
Other providers of information services (e.g., App builders)				X	X	X	X
Users with a research interest							
Academics and Researchers		X	X	X	X	X	X
Consultants in Governmental Agencies or Private Sector		X	X	X	X	X	X

Table 5.2

Types of users and communication channels

	Other Communications Channels					
	Press Releases	Social Media	Policy- Based Reports	Ad hoc Reports and Queries	Liaison Groups	Seminars
Institutional Users of Well-being Indicators						
Internal NSO Stakeholders				X	X	X
Government Agencies	X	X	X	X	X	X
Policymakers within Government Agencies	X	X	X	X	X	X
Other NSOs	X	X	X	X	X	X
Other International Stakeholders (OECD, UN, etc.)	X		X	X	X	X
Non- Non-institutional users of Well-being Indicators						
Users with a general interest						
Journalists and Media	X	X				X
Citizens	X	X				
Students and Teachers	X	X		X		
Users with a specific subject/domain interest						
Other decision-makers	X	X	X	X	X	X
Experts in a specific field	X	X	X	X	X	X
Policy analysts	X		X	X	X	X
Users with a reuse and reproduction interest						
Other producers of official statistics			X		X	X
Private or government organisations providing information services/products.						X
Other providers of information services (e.g., App builders)						
Users with a research interest						
Academics and Researchers	X	X	X	X		X
Consultants in Governmental Agencies and the Private Sector	X		X	X		X

5.1.3 Communication of Indicators

5.8 Well-being indicators must be clear and understandable for the user. The indicator's message should also convey the specific context of that indicator within a well-being framework. Indicator-based communication has both an informative function, where the communication is used to inform target audiences, and a societal function, where communication is used to assess societal trends and allow different social groups to participate in the governance of society with a better-informed opinion. Thus, indicator-based communication cannot be regarded simply as information transmission but as a specific type of communication with a high societal engagement (Eurostat,2015).

5.9 Traditionally, NSOs have provided descriptive statistical information, without analysis or interpretation, allowing users to interpret the data themselves. The selection and analysis of the indicators must have the potential for communication of the indicators as a priority. Well-being indicators are deceptively complex, and it is crucial that the indicators are communicated in a clear form that meets users' needs and with sufficient documentation and explanation to facilitate correct interpretation and use of the indicators and avoid misunderstandings. In this

regard, it is also helpful to develop the capacity in statistical storytelling tailored to the needs of different users. It is important that changes in methods or individual indicators are communicated to users in a timely and clear way. The communication should include a description of the applied methodology and the component series of the composite indicator.

5.10 There are key principles for clearly communicating all types of indicators:

- The indicator title should be clear, succinct, and non-technical.
- If indicator titles must be technical, then additional explanatory techniques, such as metacommunication, should be used to convey the message to the wider audience.
- There should be a short narrative or brief textual explanation accompanying the indicator.
- Simple infographics may accompany the indicator.
- Directional information, via text or infographics (e.g., good/bad, up/down) using traffic lights, colours or arrows may be included. This provides the user with the necessary information to assess the actual development shown by the indicator.
- Graphical representation of the data by demographics of interest.

5.11 Metadata and links to relevant sources related to the indicator should be easily accessible. Metadata contains essential information needed to understand and effectively use the data. Users must be able to understand ‘at a glance’ the possibilities and limitations of using indicators, especially when used for decision making. As noted earlier, there is often alignment between well-being indicators, which may be reported publicly, such as the SDGs. Including explanations of the relationship and links is helpful for users where these are disseminated separately

5.12 Statistical indicators, which are used for specific purposes, require specific metadata. In particular, indicator metadata should provide a deeper focus on the context in which the indicator is used (e.g., monitoring a policy strategy) and the exact definition and explanation of the indicator-specific methodology, information which is normally not included in the metadata of data sets. On the other hand, methodological details on the underlying sources, normally included in metadata for data sets in general, may be less relevant for indicator-specific documentation. Types of metadata include, but are not limited to:

- Links to and information on the underlying tables and datasets
- Links to the source statistical publication.
- Links to the relevant methodological documentation,
- Links to external comparative data (e.g., Eurostat tables), where relevant
- Links to other governmental well-being framework publications, where relevant

5.13 When communicating well-being indicators, it is important to consider their *timeliness* and *frequency*, and to what extent published indicators meet user needs for timely information. Some countries and organizations have taken steps to improve data timeliness: the OECD maintains a quarterly updated dataset with over 80 well-being indicators across 41 countries, while Ireland’s Well-being Information Hub provides real-time updates through interactive charts linked to its open data platform, and the Netherlands integrates well-being metrics into its Sustainable Development Goals monitoring system. Timely data is essential for effective communication, as dashboards and reports tend to lose their usefulness when data becomes dated.

5.2 Recommendations for visualisation

5.14 Visualisation can be standalone or integrated into a well-being framework, and can provide a simple, visual overview of indicators while also adding further context to the indicators, domains, and well-being frameworks. Visualisation approaches and tools used will be dependent on national considerations, availability of visualisation tools and alignment with NSO dissemination and communication strategy and policy. Audio-visual content, including videos and podcasts, are also a potential avenue of communication but are not explored in detail in this section.

5.15 Visualisations integrated into a well-being framework should provide further context to an indicator and potentially provide more information on the indicator. Within a domain or indicator, a picture, icon, or graphic can be a simple visual interpretation of that domain. A similar approach can be applied to indicators.

5.16 Visualisations including graphs, bar charts, line charts, etc., can be integrated into a well-being framework and aid in both the interpretation of the indicator and provide more detailed comparative or time series data. Where possible, these visualisations should be dynamic and directly linked to live source data sets. This reduces the manual burden of updating well-being frameworks and aids in their communication. The choice of graph accompanying indicators or domains will be dependent on national requirements. Infographics should be used to tell a story, be clear and very concise, and include a small number of indicators with illustrations to describe those indicators. Infographics may be more useful in describing indicators within specific domains, as the inclusion of too many indicators will decrease the effectiveness of an infographic.

5.3 Recommendations for dashboard development

5.17 Recommendations for the dashboard developed are referenced from the United Kingdom Office for National Statistics Data visualisation guidance¹⁷.

5.18 Dashboards are a very useful tool in the communication of well-being frameworks. Dashboards allow for the communication of a large range of indicators in one place. They may be live and linked to live data, or they may require manual intervention. In both cases, dashboards require ongoing oversight and maintenance. The design should be carefully considered and incorporated into the development of the well-being framework at an early stage. Dashboard user needs must be clearly defined in order to develop and prototype a dashboard that meets the needs of the users. Questions include:

- What will users do with the data?
- What decisions will users make based on the dashboard?
- How will they interact with the data?
- Do they want to explore the data?
- Do they need the story told to them?
- What trends do they need to understand?
- What background information do they need to understand the data?
- Will users have the time to get insight out of dashboards?

¹⁷ <https://service-manual.ons.gov.uk/data-visualisation/guidance/dashboards>

5.19 The design, structure and navigation of dashboards should incorporate how users are expected to navigate and interpret the well-being framework, underlying domains, and indicators. A format with a chart title, chart and short commentary allows for more context to be given. The focus should be on the important insights. Visual clutter and the amount of scrolling should be minimised.

Metadata should include:

- the date of the previous update and information about what was updated
- the date of the next update so that users know when to expect new data
- a clear, appropriate, and searchable title
- data reference periods
- links to definitions, guidance, and methodology
- appropriate quality information
- links to other related information
- commentary or links to commentary
- important contextual details
- contact details for the statistician or team

5.20 The indicators within a dashboard are comprised of data from differing statistical publications, using different methodologies, using administrative and survey datasets and with varying timelines. The timeliness of different indicators on a well-being dashboard and the interpretation of the changes in indicators over time can be challenging for policymakers who are involved in annual or semi-annual budget and policy processes, where the systematic use of the well-being dashboards is a requirement.

5.21 Where a traffic light style presentation is used, for example, green for positive change and red for negative, accessibility can be enhanced through attention to dark/light contrast.

5.4 Examples of national communication platforms and tools

5.22 The recommendations for dashboard development are based on the UK National Well-being Dashboard, available on - [UK Measures of National Well-being Dashboard - Office for National Statistics](#). Below follow examples of communication platforms in Ireland, the Netherlands, Canada and Japan.

5.4.1 Ireland

5.23 The Irish Well-being indicators hosted on the [Well-being Information Hub](#) were chosen in consultation with the Central Statistics Office (CSO), based on specific criteria and should be seen as an indication of the overall progress towards collective well-being in Ireland. The Government of Ireland has committed to a formal review of the Framework after four years, allowing time for the initial dashboard to be used and tested.

5.24 The CSO Well-being Information Hub is one element of the Well-being Framework for Ireland. It was a novel product for the CSO, which allowed for direct linking of interactive charts and reference tables to PXStat, the CSO's open data platform. This allows for real-time updates of charts when the underlying tables are updated, reducing the manual oversight significantly

and maintaining the relevance of the product. The CSO Well-being Information Hub contains 35 indicators across well-being.

5.25 The target audience of the Well-being Information Hub is the general public in the first instance, with links to data sources and metadata for more expert users and policy makers displayed on each indicator page. Graphics are used on all pages of the well-being information hub. The well-being hub does not contain composite indicators.

5.26 The Well-being Information Hub is designed to mirror the structure of the well-being framework. The landing page contains a graphic, a definition of well-being, a note explaining the tagging of sustainable indicators and a menu of all domains and indicators. A snapshot or summary page contains one indicator from each domain and a comparator over time, by demographic or internationally. There is a landing page for each domain with a simple definition and links to all indicators. The long-term change of each indicator is highlighted in a traffic light table. There is also a link to the Well-being Framework of Ireland Portal on the gov.ie website, which is the online repository for all documentation and communication on the broader well-being framework, beyond the statistical indicators.

5.27 Press releases for the Well-being Information Hub are included in the yearly communication plan and are published annually. The press releases are tailored so that the statistician’s comments can be incorporated into media publications with minimal amendments. They are also reviewed by the press team before publication, ensuring that the messages align with the office standards. Social media channels are also used to update users on the day of the press release.

Figure 5.1
Well-being Information Hub – Ireland

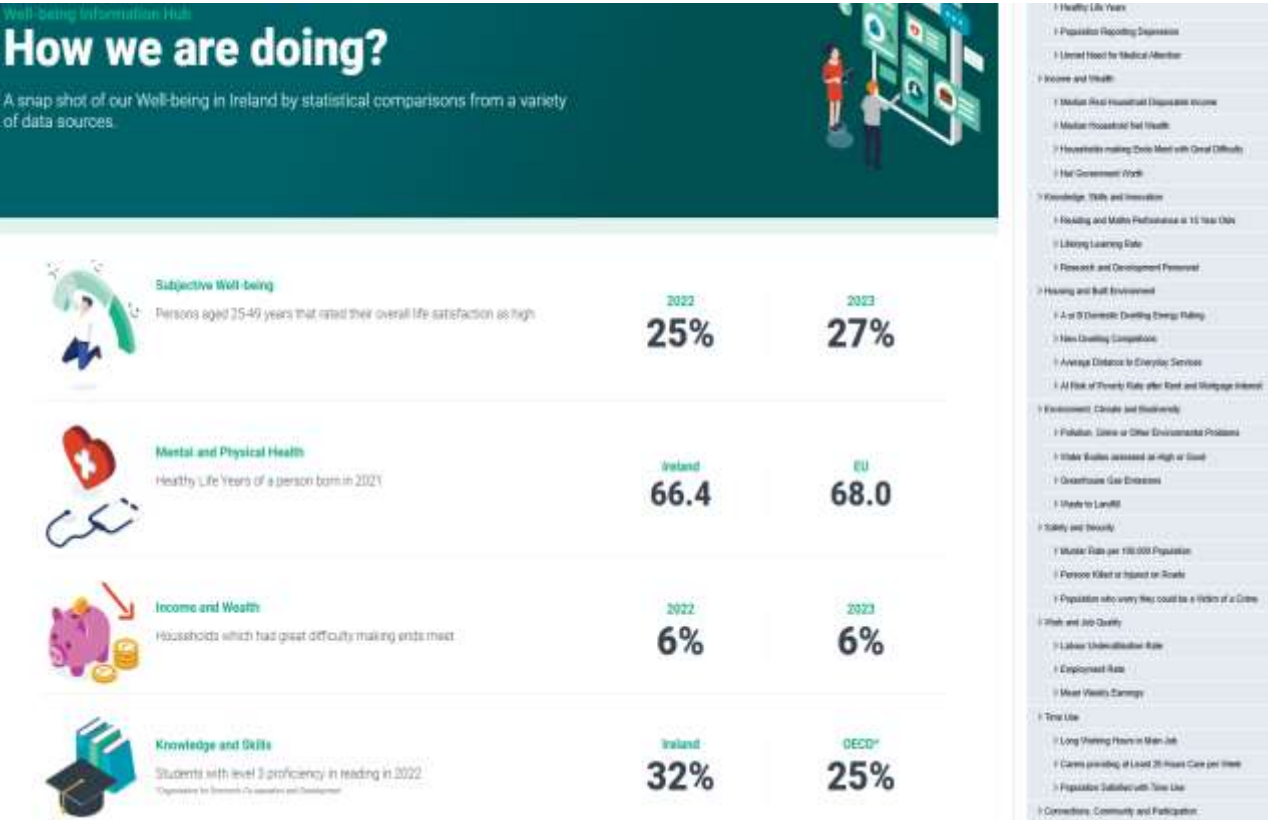
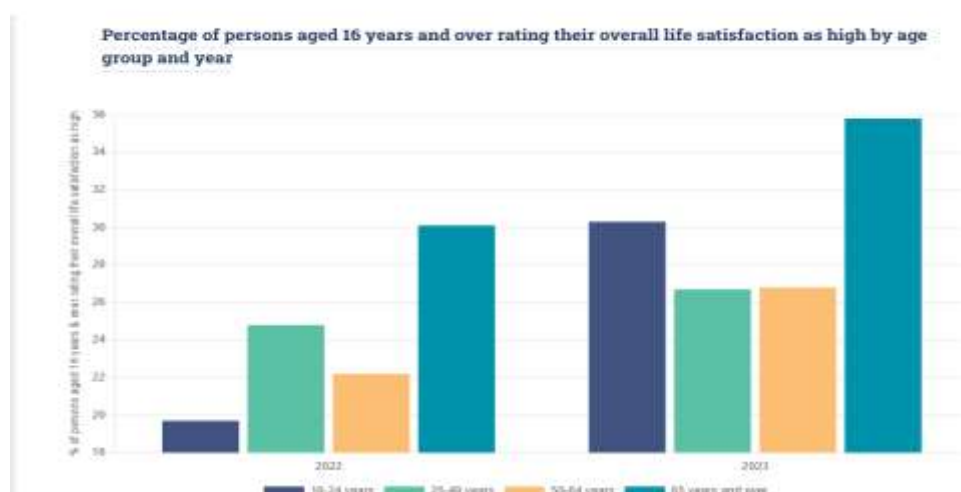
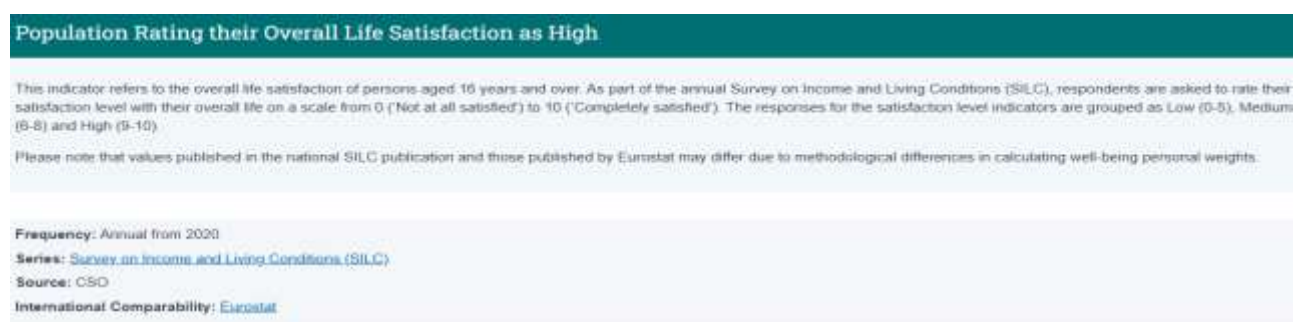


Figure 5.2
Well-being Information Hub, indicator presentation – Ireland



5.4.2 Netherlands

5.28 The Dutch Monitor of Well-being and the Sustainable Development Goals uses a dashboard approach. The Monitor measures sustainable and inclusive well-being based on the CES Recommendations on Measuring Sustainable Development (UNECE 2014), distinguishing the three dimensions of well-being 'here and now', 'later', and 'elsewhere'. It was clear from the recommendations of Stiglitz, Sen & Fitoussi that a composite index should never aggregate the dimensions into one index.

5.29 In the process of developing the dashboard in 2017, different users were asked about their specific needs. Most stakeholders, particularly politicians, policy makers, and researchers in advisory councils and public assessment offices, preferred a dashboard with individual indicators. They saw no added value in replacing GDP with another single number. Instead, users highlighted the advantages of a dashboard that provides detailed information and allows for an analysis of trade-offs and synergies. In addition to user needs, a major consideration for Statistics Netherlands in deciding not to produce a composite index is that the weights required to aggregate the indicators are inherently normative.

5.30 Three design principles were used to develop dashboards and visualisations. First, keep the visualisations sparse. A minimum of information on each individual indicator prevents users from losing sight of the overall results. Second, use colours that provide intuitive signals to users. The colours green and red are generally recognized as colours that indicate developments that are associated with (respectively) higher and lower well-being. Third, keep the language simple. Metadata were rewritten to provide more understandable descriptions of the most recent figure for each indicator.

5.31 Statistics Netherlands is continuously working to improve and innovate dashboards and visualisations. Interactive visualisations have been tested. The monitor’s website is regularly subjected to user analysis. As part of these experiments, Statistics Netherlands is also looking into the possibilities for using a composite index for communication purposes, as an additional tool rather than a substitute for the dashboard approach.

Figure 5.3
Dashboard visualizations of well-being indicators in the Netherlands

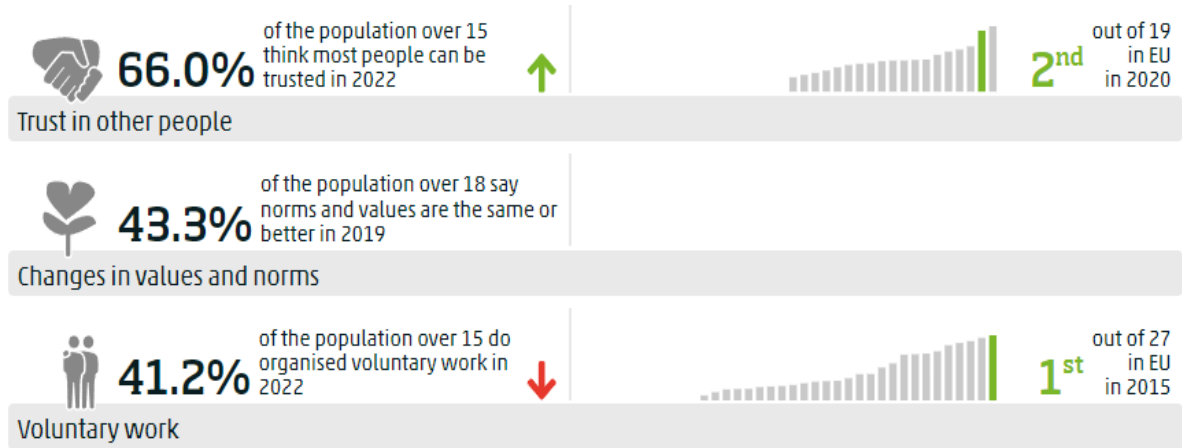
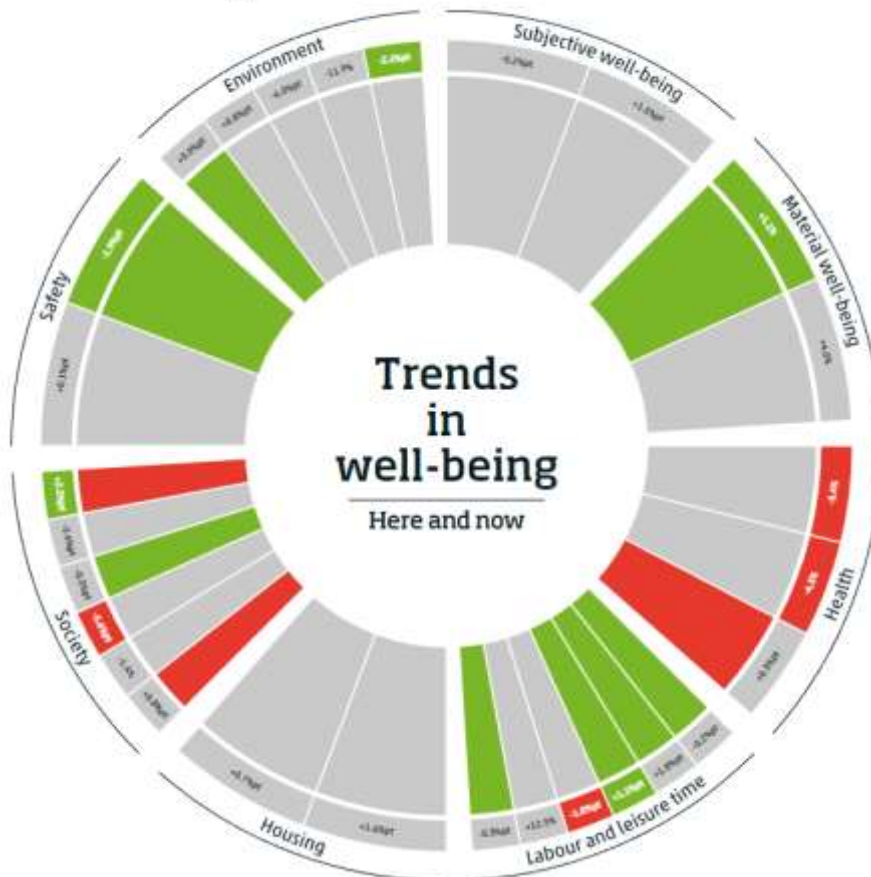


Figure 5.4
Dashboard visualizations of well-being indicators in the Netherlands

Trends in well-being and SDG's: Here and now



5.4.3 Canada

5.32 The Government of Canada uses a dashboard of indicators for its Quality of Life Framework, selected based on evidence of the determinants of life satisfaction. Overall evaluations of life satisfaction and the eudemonic measure “sense of meaning and purpose” are the central measures of the framework, reflecting this underpinning logic. The design of Canada’s Quality of Life framework reflects the broad consensus discussed in the Guidelines on the importance of well-being, inclusion, and sustainability. Future outlook has been added to the framework’s central, overarching domain in a recent review of the framework.

Figure 5.5
Canada - Quality of Life Framework



5.33 **Well-being:** The framework’s 90 indicators are arranged into five domains (prosperity, health, environment, society, and good governance), each of which has several subdomains. A subset of 23 indicators are headline measures which function as a summary set. These include poverty, greenhouse gas emissions, perceived health, perceived mental health, sense of belonging to the local community, and confidence in institutions, among others. Headline indicators provide a high-level summary assessment of Canadian quality of life that can be communicated relatively simply. The indicators are mapped to and closely aligned with the SDGs and other key policy frameworks in Canada.

5.34 **Inclusion:** Canada’s Quality of Life Framework considers inclusion and sustainability across all domains. The fairness and inclusion lens focuses on distribution of outcomes among different sub-populations, often through the use of disaggregated data. In addition, some indicators are included that deal directly with equity considerations for particular groups, such as Indigenous self-determination, early learning and child care and representation in senior leadership.

5.35 **Sustainability:** The sustainability and resilience lens consider the trajectory of these indicators over time as well as risk and protective factors that could negatively or positively influence this trajectory. In addition to these cross-cutting elements, some indicators are included within the framework dashboard that deal more directly with longer term sustainability considerations such as emissions, debt-to-GDP ratio, and health-adjusted life expectancy.

5.36 The Canadian framework includes both objective and subjective measures, as well as a mix of determinants and outcomes. The framework was originally developed to serve as a tool for budgeting and policy development. It is meant to help policymakers consider the complex relationships between policy, determinants and outcomes, but does not currently attempt to explicitly explain those relationships in a systematic way, though this may be attempted in the future. It is used to monitor trends on these indicators for diagnostic purposes to set policy and budget priorities, for budget ‘tagging’ of the high-level expected outcomes of each budget initiative, and for departmental planning and reporting on outcomes achieved.

Figure 5.6

Canada - Quality of Life Framework dashboards



5.4.4 Japan

Figure 5.7

Case study – Overall Life Satisfaction and domain satisfaction indicators of Japan

Since 2019, the Cabinet Office of Japan has been conducting the "Survey on Satisfaction and Quality of Life" annually to comprehensively capture the structure of Japan's economy and society from the perspective of people's well-being. This survey asks approximately 10,000 individuals, aged 15 to 89, who are pre-registered on an online survey platform and consists of questions about overall life satisfaction, satisfaction in specific domains, and related topics.

The specific domains were chosen based on the 11 domains of the OECD Better Life Index (excluding Life Satisfaction), with three additional domains relevant to Japan: "ease of child-rearing," "ease of caregiving and receiving care," and "enjoyment and fun in life," making a total of 13 domains. Overall life satisfaction and the 13-domain satisfaction are all subjective indicators evaluated on a scale of 0 to 10. The survey also asks a wide range of questions such as respondents' income and assets, educational background, employment status, family composition, child-rearing environment, time usage, health status, and surrounding environment.

Overall Life Satisfaction and satisfaction in 13 domains



The Cabinet Office has selected three statistically related objective indicators for each domain, excluding Politics, administration and judiciary and Enjoyment and fun in life, for which it publishes their trends as the "Well-being Dashboard." The Cabinet Office's framework adopts a three-layer structure consisting of overall life satisfaction, domain satisfaction, and objective indicators, allowing for the analysis of the relationships between overall life satisfaction and domain satisfaction, as well as between subjective and objective indicators.

The Japanese government is also strengthening its efforts related to well-being by introducing target indicators pertaining to well-being in various government plans.

Chapter 6 Developing a national well-being measurement framework

6.1 This chapter gives operational guidance to countries on developing a national well-being measurement framework. Section 6.1 provides a brief reminder of key issues to consider when establishing a national well-being framework. Section 6.2 outlines a step-by-step approach for developing a national framework to ensure a thorough process, engagement of users and stakeholders and a successful outcome and delivery. Section 6.3 provides guidance on engaging users and stakeholders to ensure buy-in, support and sustainability of the national framework. Finally, Section 6.4 presents how New Zealand has developed a national well-being framework.

6.1 Common considerations for establishing a well-being framework

6.2 This section summarizes the approach to measuring well-being within a country context, based on the experiences of countries that have developed their own well-being frameworks.

6.3 There are notable differences among national frameworks due to specific domestic needs, cultural contexts and priorities of policymakers. The challenge of balancing international comparability with domestic user needs is common in many areas of statistical measurement, but may be particularly complex in this area due to the wide range of potential data types and topics that can be used to assess a country's well-being. Despite differences, national frameworks share many components. Hence, when establishing a national framework, the following common issues should be considered:

- **Selection of dimensions** – how to balance and trade-off between economic, environmental or social dimensions of well-being.
- **Objective and subjective indicators** – whether to include both types of indicators? For example, the level of household income in a country (objective) and households report on whether they are finding it difficult to get by financially (subjective).
- **Stock or flow measures** – whether to include the levels of specific measures at a point in time or how they change over time, with or without an end goal? For certain measures, one may need to consider how to account for depletion, depreciation and degradation.
- **Unit of interest** – the individual, the household, community, region or nation, or all? This is important both for the outcomes of interest (individual life satisfaction or community integration, for example) and if the data is to be disaggregated, for example, by communities or regions.
- **International comparison** – the desire for international comparison can determine what is included in the framework.
- **Distributions** – should the focus be on the headline metric or how that is distributed across the response scale, for example by geography, social class, income, sex or age?
- **Periodicity** – how frequently will the indicators be updated, e.g., annually?
- **Human centricity** – should humanity be at the heart of a well-being framework and its definition, or should it cover a wider canvas, including, e.g. nature and the environment, of which humanity one part? Different societies or groups within society may perceive the answer to this question in different ways.

- **Culture** – should the country's culture and norms be accounted for when defining well-being in a country or the framework's population of interest? Or through the development of several frameworks to represent different sections of society? Or through indicators of engagement with historical and cultural sites or language?
- **Outcome versus drivers** – whether to include outcome indicators only or also indicators of drivers of these outcomes? If only outcomes are presented, it is still essential to understand the drivers of these outcomes, and decision-makers may wish to consider the impact of their investment, policy and program levers.
- **Current and future well-being** – although the national framework and these guidelines may focus on current well-being it is helpful to consider relations or overlaps with sustainability and future well-being, as these are important considerations in many people's current well-being.

6.4 Chapter 3 highlights the recommended dimensions and indicators selected considering the above-listed issues. The Annex presents detailed information on each of the recommended indicators.

6.5 It is important to remember that culture is pervasive: each dimension of well-being 'here and now' exists in a particular cultural context. It is not merely something people do; it defines who people are and how they live.

6.6 Cultural differences find their way into the language used to measure well-being. For example, Western cultures tend to be individualistic, defining well-being in terms of personal achievements, control and self-expression, whereas African culture is more collectivistic, emphasizing social connectedness and positive relations with others (Mullings et al. 2024). A recent OECD report (OECD 2024a) compared well-being initiatives in Bhutan, the Philippines, Thailand, Malaysia, Korea, and Japan with the OECD Well-being Framework. Bhutan, the Philippines, and Malaysia explicitly include culture as a dimension (including religion in the Philippines), while the interpretation of the dimension of social connections (in the OECD framework) appears to emphasize family and community rather than the individual. In Māori, Aboriginal and Torres Strait Islanders cultures, spirituality and community are essential parts of well-being (Tse et al. 2005).¹⁸ In addition, many Indigenous populations are deeply connected to the nature and landscape in which they live (Sangha et al. 2018). Similar subjects are also considered important in Europe. For example, the Italian BES framework includes the theme 'landscape and cultural heritage' (paesaggio e patrimonio culturale).

6.2 Steps in establishing a national framework

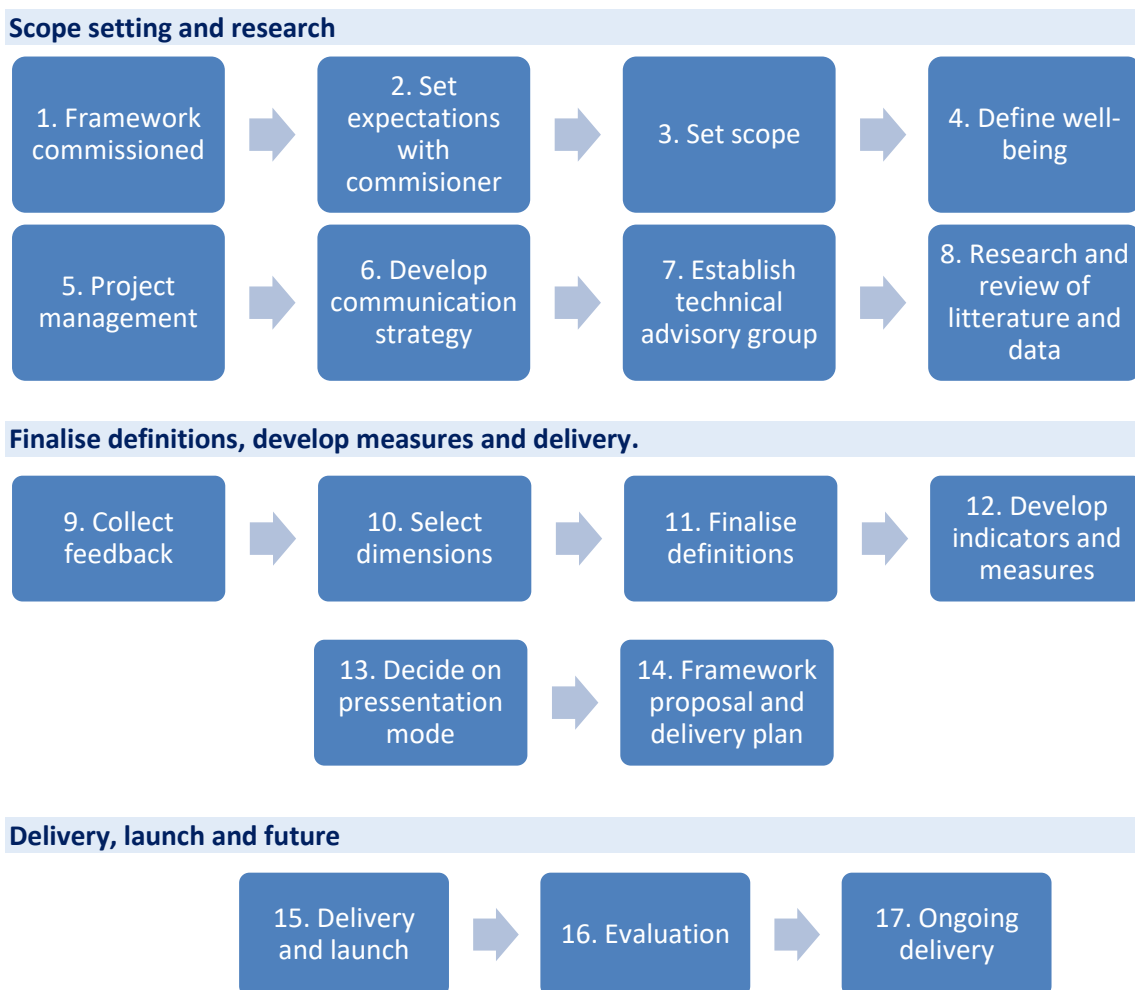
6.7 Having outlined the key considerations for the development of a national well-being framework, it is important to outline the common steps taken in its practical development. Throughout this process, the United Kingdom will be used as an example for illustrative purposes.

6.8 Chart 1 presents the steps in developing a national well-being framework. Details of these steps are provided in the following sections. While the flow chart suggests that the steps to develop a national well-being framework are independent, in practice, many can progress in parallel. When developing a national framework, countries should adapt the steps to the national context and available resources.

¹⁸ The strict distinction between current and future well-being and between an individual and his or her physical environment is not universal. In Māori culture, past, present and future are part of a continuum.

Chart 1

Common steps in the creation of a national well-being framework



6.2.1 Scope setting and research

1. Framework commissioned

6.9 A well-being framework may be commissioned by a prime minister, minister or other. It is essential to understand the scope of the assignment from the beginning. This includes key factors such as the delivery timeline, available funds, the intended audience or coverage of the framework, and a rough idea of the expected end product. Knowing how negotiable these aspects are will influence several parameters throughout the project.

2. Set expectations with the commissioner

6.10 Discussions should centre on:

- Number of indicators
 - Is the framework expected to include a smaller or larger set of indicators? Or should there be separate frameworks to provide comprehensive and summary indicator sets?
 - Is it expected to have a dashboard or a single index?

- Understanding if the commissioner has a specific idea in mind from the beginning helps to shape the work programme accordingly
- Purpose - who is the intended audience? Is the purpose of the framework to inform, to track change, to support decision makers throughout the policy cycle, or a combination of these?
- Inclusion of children
 - Children are an important consideration for a well-being framework, both from the perspective of current and future well-being.
 - Ideally, the national framework should represent all in society, including children, but a decision can be made whether this is in the main framework or the establishment of a separate targeted framework. The UK has a separate framework for both [children \(0 to 15 year olds\)](#) and [young people \(16 to 24 year olds\)](#).
 - When making these decisions, one should bear in mind the availability of data for subsets of the population. For example, data on children is often relatively sparse (see Box 3.5).
- Presentation: Is there a preference for a collection of indicators disseminated through a dashboard, composite indicators, or something else?
 - This understanding of preferences will help to set the scope of the literature review.
 - Having an idea of this from the beginning ensures that the right colleagues are consulted, for example, data visualisation colleagues for the establishment of a dashboard.
 - In the UK, from their inception in 2011, their well-being indicators have been presented as a suite. This format was initially presented as a static and interactive well-being wheel, but for digital inclusivity, has since developed into an [interactive dashboard](#).

3. Set scope

6.11 It is essential to know the time and funding available to develop the framework, carry out research and build the communication tools to be able to work within realistic constraints.

6.12 Knowledge of funding in advance enables the commissioning of research projects, the development of new dissemination tools, and the organization of engagement events, including the potential launch of consultations, findings, or dissemination tools. If there is a short time frame, there may not be sufficient time to conduct research, which would necessitate relying on lessons learned from other countries. If there is more time, it is recommended to explore what well-being means in your specific country setting. This can be done through a national debate or qualitative research.

6.13 In the UK, when originally establishing their framework, a national debate was held. This debate included face-to-face events, focus groups, and a survey, which cumulatively generated 34,000 responses. When [reviewing their existing measures in 2022 and 2023](#), the UK undertook a consultation survey, which included asking respondents, via an open question, what they consider important to national well-being. They also added questions to one of their social surveys, gathering over 2,000 responses to the question “What is important to your own, and your community's well-being?”. Lastly, this was complemented with focus groups with selected groups who generally report low personal well-being in the UK. This approach was taken to balance funds and population coverage against timeliness.

4. Definition of well-being

6.14 It is key to clearly define what well-being means within the specific context of the country from the very beginning. Consider whether to use an existing definition as a foundation for the framework, or if not, identify the research needed to develop an appropriate definition. This clarity of definition will help in structuring the framework and determining the necessary measures for the required research. An example definition from the UK: *‘How we are doing as individuals, as a community and as a nation and how sustainable that is for the future.’*

6.15 When preparing the well-being definition consider who/what is at the heart of the definition – is it humans, or is it the entire ecosystem where humans are only one part? Additionally, if it is humans, are all included? It might not be the case if the data sources only cover household populations or people aged over 15.

6.16 There is no one way to look at well-being. People view well-being differently depending on their values, beliefs, and social norms. In New Zealand, Māori have a distinctive view of well-being. It is informed by te ao Māori (a Māori world view) where, for example, whenua (land) is not seen just for its economic potential, but through familial and spiritual connections defined by cultural concepts such as whakapapa (genealogy) and kaitiakitanga (stewardship).

6.17 When developing the definition of well-being and the framework as a whole, it is important to consider:

- Public opinion – the process of engaging with the public to understand what aspects of their lives they consider important to their well-being. This can be considered a lived experience approach.
- User perceptions – the process of consulting users on the issues of most importance to them and which they wish to see included.
- Expert opinion – the process of relying on expert insights to structure an offering to users.

6.18 Gathering public opinion helps to identify the nuances of the well-being, drivers and cultural components in the specific country setting and variation across population groups. By gathering user feedback, one can develop a tool that effectively meets their needs. Additionally, expert opinion allows building a conceptually robust framework and fit-for-purpose indicators, with a clear understanding of the drivers and interconnections between suggested measures.

5. Project Management

6.19 Having gained information on key considerations and scope, it is helpful to establish project management by determining the responsible senior officer and drafting a chart with time and potential staff allocations. This can help determine the feasibility of the project’s goals based on the resources available.

6. Develop communication strategy

6.20 It is essential to develop a communication strategy outlining which stakeholders to engage with, what information to share, and how and when to engage with them throughout the framework’s development, launch and beyond (see Chapter 5). The communication team should be involved in establishing this strategy.

6.21 **Outline the stakeholders.** The key stakeholders, based on the [Strategic Communications Framework of Official Statistics \(UNECE 2021\)](#), include:

- Policy-makers
 - ministers, special advisors and senior civil servants (current or former)
 - mayors, local government cabinet members, political advisors, and senior officials

- OECD, European Union and United Nations leaders and senior officials
- International - it is helpful to learn from others' experiences. At a national level, a country generally only sets up a national framework once, therefore it's essential to look internationally for guidance, lessons learnt and insights
- Influencers
 - politicians
 - members of think-tanks and interest groups
 - academics (students and teachers)
 - commentators and senior journalists
 - business leaders
 - civil service leaders
 - leaders from non-profit organisations (the third sector). Note, it is especially important to engage with the third sector if it is not possible to carry out direct research with all sections of society, as they will provide advocacy and valuable insights
- Scrutinisers
 - parliamentary committees and scrutiny committees
 - other national statistical leaders
 - international bodies (e.g., Eurostat, international statistical organisations)
 - statistical and digital bloggers, journalists, commentators, and social media influencers
 - academics (students and teachers)
 - information commissioners
 - privacy commissioners and campaigners
 - open data campaigners
- Partners
 - funders
 - survey respondents
 - administrative data providers
 - syndicators and aggregators
 - academics and other innovators
- General public

6.22 Plan the engagement activities. There should be agreement about what the purpose of engaging with each stakeholder is. For example, promote the framework's development, engage in research, promote the findings, raise awareness and use of the framework.

6.23 Outline the communication channels available to utilise. Here, one can think outside of the norm by considering:

- Social media – for example, tweets, LinkedIn posts, eBulletins. This is a good way to promote the development of the framework, publications or events, and generate engagement, including consultation activities. In the UK, many social media platforms were utilised to promote their consultation launch, associated surveys and research, as well as their findings and subsequent new tools. They also utilised relevant stakeholder e-newsletters across a breadth of well-being topic areas, including health and the labour market.
- Formal consultation or national debate. For the National Statistical Institute, there may be legal requirements on how to engage when developing new outputs. The UK carried out an informal consultation to gather feedback on the current framework and tool.

- Public engagement and speaking events, whether conducted online or in person, are vital for effective communication. For instance, organising launch events to introduce a consultation process or a final product is important, as is participating in existing events hosted by others to connect with a diverse array of stakeholders and subject matter experts. Well-being dashboards encompass various disciplines and subjects; therefore, it is crucial to gather input and aim to involve everyone in the process.

6.24 Timing should be evaluated from both a resource and a strategic perspective. This includes considering when to launch and complete the consultation, as well as when to publish and promote the findings. It is important to identify any relevant events or theme days that could align with these timelines for promotion, which may help maximize resources. In addition, for each of these collaboration or connection opportunities, think about who to engage with and what messages to communicate to them.

7. Establish a technical advisory group

6.25 Given the breadth of topic areas and data sources necessary to compile a well-being framework, establishing a technical advisory group helps efficiently gather advice and feedback across many topic areas and organisations.

6.26 Below is a list of those to consider inviting to the technical advisory group. Within these groups, consideration should be given to include both policy-makers and data providers:

- Government departmental colleagues
- Topical experts in the NSO (e.g., national accounts, labour market, health)
- Third-sector or charity experts
- Academic experts
- International experts

8. Research and review of literature and data

6.27 Once the outline for the scope, definition, and objectives of the well-being framework is established, research can be planned and executed. It is important to determine whether there is enough time to conduct primary research or if the focus will be on existing research.

6.28 It is best practice to conduct primary research to understand what factors contribute to well-being within the specific context and culture of the country. This approach will help ensure that the framework is representative, recognize nuances among different population subsets, and fosters support and buy-in.

6.29 Here are examples from the UK, New Zealand and Canada of primary research that has been carried out previously:

- Focus groups - [Review of the UK Measures of National Well-being, October 2022 to March 2023 - Office for National Statistics \(ons.gov.uk\)](#)
- Adding questions to an existing survey - [Individual and community well-being, Great Britain - Office for National Statistics \(ons.gov.uk\)](#)
- Consultation survey - [Review of the Measures of National Well-being - Office for National Statistics - Citizen Space \(ons.gov.uk\)](#)
- National debate – Indicators Aotearoa New Zealand – Ngā Tūtohu Aotearoa: Key findings from consultation and engagement (Stats NZ, 2019)

- Focus groups and a new survey - [Qualitative and Quantitative Research on a National Quality of Life Framework](#) (Canada)

6.30 These Guidelines provide a sound foundation for developing a national framework, including common dimensions and recommended indicators. It is also recommended to explore national research and literature for adaptation to national context and needs, and to learn from peers in other countries when establishing a framework.

6.31 It is essential to understand what data is available. This will help in understanding whether:

- Is it necessary, and possible, to set up a new data collection?
- The framework has gaps and presents an aspirational framework?
- Is it possible to update data as frequently as the user requests, e.g., monthly or quarterly?

6.32 In addition, alongside evaluating how frequently each indicator is updated, this information will help in deciding how often to update the data in the framework. Will the updates be 'live,' occurring as new data becomes available, or is it better to opt for a quarterly update, based on data collected in the previous quarter and updating it at one time? It's important to note that a dashboard loses its usefulness as the data becomes outdated.

6.33 The development of a well-being framework may not necessarily imply that additional data collection must be made. In most cases, it is possible to populate a framework based on data that is already available in your country.

6.2.2 Finalise definitions, develop measures and delivery

6.34 When the scope setting and research are done there are two options:

- Build a new framework from scratch based on themes from your research, or
- Use an existing framework, such as the OECD's Better Life Index and use your research to adapt it.

6.35 In both cases, it is important to consider the common dimensions and indicators that are outlined in Chapter 3.

9. Collect feedback

6.36 Once the primary and secondary research is finalised, it is time to collect and summarise the emerging feedback and results that have begun to emerge. It is useful to hold an internal workshop to review the evidence and establish the dimensions and indicators of the framework.

6.37 There is often a demand for national and regional policy-relevant indicators that reference policy targets or legal norms and standards. Users can add additional indicators and, if necessary – subdimensions that are relevant to national policy goals or legal norms and standards. The inclusion criteria (section 3.3.1) can be used to select the right indicators. In general, timeliness will be a key criterion for policy-relevant statistical indicators.

6.38 Reference values can be country-specific, for example, where it concerns poverty thresholds or policy goals, or supranational (such as the goals of EU policy). Values may be laid down in law, such as environmental norms and standards. They may also be integral to national institutional arrangements. For example, differences between countries in participation in education may be caused by institutional differences in the structure of the educational system and the age of compulsory education.

10. Select dimensions

6.39 Dimensions must be selected and defined. It is recommended to ensure a balance of dimensions and indicators across the three pillars of economy, environment and society, if there is no pre-defined structure. Examples of well-being frameworks include:

- Canada – Prosperity, Health, Society, Environment and Good Governance
- UK – Personal well-being, Our relationships, Health, Where we live, What we do, Personal finance, Education and skills, Economy, Governance and Environment
- OECD Better Life Index – Housing, Income, Jobs, Community, Education, Environment, Civic engagement, Health, Life Satisfaction, Safety and Work-Life Balance

6.40 The Guidelines in Chapter 3 outline common dimensions as: subjective well-being, work and leisure, material living conditions, housing, health, knowledge and skills, physical safety, social connections, civic engagement and environmental quality.

11. Finalise definitions

6.41 If an established definition has been used, it is useful to evaluate its appropriateness and whether any adaptation is needed based on the research that was carried out. If a new definition were developed from scratch, it is useful to use the research to agree and finalise the definition based on what was outlined at the early stages of the project.

12. Develop indicators and measures

6.42 To establish your proposed indicators and measures, you should set your inclusion criteria. As outlined in Chapter 3, the selection criteria should consider:

- Statistical qualities:
 - Timeliness and frequency
 - Credibility and comparability
- Conceptual qualities
 - Validity
 - Relevance
 - Directional meaning (i.e., how should changes in indicators be interpreted in terms of their impact on well-being)
 - Universality
- Practical considerations
 - Measurability
 - Disaggregation
 - Understandability

6.43 Select dimensions and indicators, and how they should be measured. Chapter 3 outlines these concepts as follows:

- **Dimensions** selected to provide a comprehensive picture of the well-being framework.
- **Sub-dimensions** may be used to break down dimensions in suitable subgroups. For instance, a dimension on *work and leisure* may be broken down into two subdimensions, *work* and *leisure*, respectively.
- **Indicators** are statistical variables selected to provide a comprehensive picture of the dimensions of the framework.
- **Measure** is how the indicator is presented. For example percentage of people who report their life satisfaction as low.

6.44 Throughout the process of deciding on indicators and measures, the following considerations should be kept in mind:

- The scope of the well-being framework, and user needs and understanding.
- Data availability. Are data available or is there a need to set up a collection, including the ability to collect data over time.
- Whether the measure covers the required level of geography and population groups.
- Whether the framework will be presented as a composite indicator or in a dashboard, and how that impacts the number of measures and indicator definitions.
- The balance of metrics presenting inequality across different population groups (for example, gender pay gap or Gini coefficient), and the possibility to disaggregate other metrics to present inequalities and distribution across society (for example income by men and women, or life satisfaction by region).
- Counts versus representation measures. For example, is it helpful to count the number of people with a reported disability or to ensure disaggregation of other measures by whether the respondent has a disability? The second of this would allow users to understand whether someone with a disability has a lower income than those who do not, experience more relative poverty and are more or less satisfied with their lives. It may also be helpful to consider combining the count data into a contextual indicator set.
- The balance throughout the framework of subjective versus objective measures.
- Whether to present only the headline measure or provide more in data tables? For example, if the measure is those reporting high life satisfaction, is it also necessary to report the number of those with low life satisfaction in the associated tables? In addition, consider whether to include the time series for everything or just the headline measure.
- Will the measures be provided at the headline level only, or provide breakdowns by various characteristics such as age and sex? If so, how frequently should one update this information? Will this only be available in data tables, or can it be built into a data explorer or a dashboard?

6.45 Chapter 3 outlines common dimensions and recommended indicators that consider the above considerations. NSOs may wish to adapt dimensions and indicators to better reflect country-specific perspectives on well-being while retaining international comparability and the comprehensive nature of the framework. Specific indicators and subdimensions can be added to provide a place for the associated indicators. It is advisable to ensure that the indicator set has an overlap with the recommended indicators in section 3.3. Thus, measurement will remain internationally comparable, while supporting a narrative that is specific to the country, culture, region or population group whose well-being is measured. Adaptation should not be done for reasons (political or otherwise) that violate the conceptual integrity and consistency of statistical measurement.

13. Decide on presentation mode

6.46 Once the indicators have been established, the next steps is to decide how to present these measures. Options include:

- Visuals, for example, static or interactive charts
- Dashboards
- Written summaries
- Explorer tools

6.47 When making this decision, it is important to remember that data presentation must be practically usable and needs to be clear and accessible to users without oversimplification.

14. Framework proposal and delivery plan

6.48 Once research has been completed and reviewed, a framework proposal and delivery plan should be drafted. The proposal should include:

- definition of well-being
- agreed output, for example, dashboard or a composite indicator
- framework/s structure
- proposed indicators
- dissemination approach
- promotion and launch plans

6.49 When drafting the delivery plan, it is important to be realistic. For example, if it is agreed to publish updates quarterly, every six months, or annually, one should specify whether the initial focus will be on headline metrics for each measure, with plans to incorporate disaggregation and distributional analysis in future iterations. This iterative approach can enhance the sustainability and longevity of the research program by avoiding inflated budgets and adapting to changing user needs at each stage.

6.50 Once the framework proposal and delivery plan are established, it is important to review them with stakeholders. Examples of stakeholders to review the proposal include:

- Expert advisory panel/ technical advisory group
- Senior leaders, including directors. This should also include directors of other relevant topic areas.
- Depending on who the commissioner is, it may be pertinent to brief the Minister or their office to get first comments
- Communications and data visualisation colleagues
- Relevant data owners
- Production team

6.51 After collecting and considering all feedback on the first iteration, incorporate the comments and adjust the well-being framework as necessary.

6.52 Having finalised the proposal, follow the organisation's sign-off procedure.

6.2.3 Delivery, launch and future

15. Delivery and launch

6.53 The delivery and launch process can vary from organisation to organisation, but the following steps will usually exist.

- **Design, access and analyse**
 - Design questions and surveys as needed or gain access to required administrative data.
 - Request published data, at the required granularity, as needed.
 - Request access to micro data, as needed.
 - Analyse to your specifications.
- **Visualise** - work with the data visualisation colleagues to provide them with the data needed to populate the agreed visualisations.

- **Publish** - follow your organisation's procedures in publishing the framework and associated outputs. It may be useful to include references to international frameworks and guidelines that have been used in developing the national framework.
- **Promote** - outline how to promote the development and publication of the framework. This promotion may be through written publications or online or in-person events, and may include targeted communication to stakeholders and user groups.

16. Evaluation

6.54 Evaluation should be carried out and considered throughout the framework's development. As noted in the [United Kingdom's Magenta book on Evaluation](#), the evaluation could consider each element of the framework's development and publication, including the process that was followed, the impact it had and its value for money.

6.55 Alongside the formalised evaluation guidance, it can be useful to carry out a reflection exercise after initial delivery. This helps the researchers involved in its development to outline lessons learnt through the process.

6.56 It is also useful to carry out an additional exercise a year (or more) after the delivery to explore whether the framework is delivering what was originally outlined and whether there is a need to adapt to updated needs and requests. Examples of things to explore include,

- If there were no plans for an aspirational framework, was it possible to have data for every measure?
- Can the terminology used be improved based on received feedback? In the UK, for example, feedback was received within the first year on the terms used for the labelling of changes over time in the dashboard. As a result, terms were changed from 'Improvement' and 'Decline' to 'Positive change' and 'Negative change'.

17. Ongoing delivery

6.57 Once the framework is established, it is important to work through the delivery plan. The framework's credibility should be established at its launch. However, the framework should not be considered a fixed entity. Key to the framework's success will be the ability to adapt to changing user needs. However, changes should be made in a transparent way and following agreed-upon criteria. Continuous changes of the framework may inhibit its credibility and adversely affect policy makers ability to select appropriate measures to monitor long term outcome

6.58 It is also important to refresh the communication strategy to agree on how to continually gain stakeholder feedback and promote the framework on an ongoing basis.

6.3 Recommendations for a national process

6.59 Having outlined the conceptual considerations and common steps for establishing a national well-being framework, this section provides recommendations to support progress. The discussion in Chapter 6 so far has mostly covered technical aspects of building an indicator set for measuring national well-being. However, no matter how technically robust such an indicator set will be, it is vital also to build consensus during its development for it to have practical impact. In most countries, even where national well-being frameworks are well-established, it is much more common for public and policy debate to be driven by key economic indicators such as GDP, inflation and unemployment than by broader well-being indicators. If the long-term goal is to change this situation and promote 'well-being' as the overarching goal then this requires changing people's perspectives as well as technical excellence.

6.60 The process of building national consensus requires attention to the views, needs and preferences of a number of key stakeholder groups:

- The general public at large
- The media
- Policymakers and politicians at national, regional and local levels
- Civil society organizations
- Researchers and academic institutions

6.61 The successful establishment of a national well-being framework should involve all of these groups and provide sufficient time for different views to be aired and considered. It is important that this process is transparent and that it is seen to make a difference to the final shape and content of the indicator set. Chapter 5 provides more details on reaching out to user groups.

6.3.1 Who to involve in the process

6.62 Establishing and maintaining a well-being framework is at its core, also a stakeholder engagement exercise. Some of these stakeholders are obvious while others may not be.

6.63 **Policy teams and Ministers** should be included to ensure that the framework meets their needs; it should be easy to understand and use.

6.64 **Organisational directors and leaders.** Being multi-dimensional, it is important to bring additional directors and leaders from your organisation as they have the authority to help along the way with access to data or meeting the framework needs with surveys. An example of engagement may include a periodical update email during the establishment of the framework to share how it is progressing.

6.65 **Data providers and survey teams** - it is essential to have data in place to monitor the measures effectively. Populating the framework may require additional data collection or an increase in the frequency of existing data. These colleagues can assist in understanding what data is already being collected and what is feasible to obtain within specific timeframes.

6.66 **Community groups and NGOs** - when developing a national framework, it is crucial to ensure that it represents everyone in society. Collecting representative voices from minority groups can be challenging, so it is essential to seek support and collaboration from organizations that represent these groups. This approach helps ensure that their perspectives are adequately considered.

6.67 **Analysts in departments and cross-departmental sharing forums.** Analysts in departments not only need to provide the data their department holds for certain measures, but it is also important to get their buy-in on your approach to measuring well-being so they are your departmental advocates.

6.68 **Advisory groups** - It is essential to share the research with established advisory groups in the topic area and to form a new advisory group comprising both public and non-public sector organizations to provide guidance throughout the process.

6.69 **Data visualization.** Regardless of the end goal, be it a suite of measures, a dashboard or an index, it's important to bring the data visualisation team in early. When consulting users on what measures they want included also ask how they want it disseminated and how often. The data visualisation colleagues will be able to support in outlining the information needed to know how to best develop a tool for dissemination, be that static images and graphics, branding or interactive explorer tools.

6.70 **Communications team** is essential to support with reaching out to external organisations, utilising established mailing lists and channels of communication. For example, promoting the new framework on social media, or encouraging participation in an online consultation. Often communications team have established routine catch ups and advisory boards. These can be utilized to share information, gain buy-in and get input. It can assist in drafting a communication strategy that aligns with the needs of the framework once the scope and scale of engagements are determined.

6.71 **Media team** (if separate from the communications team). The media team will be able to advise both in publicising the product specifically to the media once it is developed, and also through the development process to make sure it is easy to understand and disseminate. The media team is great at translating the research for the general public, which is an important stakeholder for well-being frameworks.

6.72 **Sceptics** – it is important to recognize that there may be critics of the well-being framework. Engaging with these sceptics is essential, as their feedback can help identify issues that need to be addressed. By listening to their concerns and considering their perspectives, there is an opportunity to convert them into advocates for the research and the product.

6.3.2 Long-term maintenance

6.73 Building a national indicator set cannot be viewed as a one-off process that produces a fixed outcome. It is vital to establish an indicator set which is durable and to which there is a long-term commitment. On the other hand, it will be necessary for this indicator set to evolve organically over time.

6.74 One reason is that new issues will emerge. Fifty years ago, internet access would not have been regarded as an indicator to be included in a national well-being framework! However, in the current context, where the lack of connectivity can present major barriers to an individual's everyday life and therefore well-being, such an indicator should certainly be considered. Also, the impacts of climate change on everyday life may be considered important aspects of a well-being framework.

6.75 A second, and equally important, issue is data availability. Relying only on available data may introduce significant gaps and distortions to the overall picture. This carries substantial risks which may lead to sub-optimal or even negative impacts on the population and to the perpetuation of existing problems. For example, some countries may underinvest in mental health services compared to physical health services. Often, this goes hand in hand with much stronger data availability on the physical health of the population than on the mental health. If this imbalance is reflected in the national indicator set, it is possible that the attention of policymakers, the media and the public will be disproportionately focused on trends in physical health indicators, which may exacerbate the lack of attention to, and investment in, mental health services.

6.76 Another important aspect of over-reliance on what already exists is that such data may miss the issues faced by some sections of the population. Lack of data that can be disaggregated will prevent a full assessment of well-being and the identification of groups for which particular attention is needed to reduce inequalities. Attention needs to be paid to minority groups that may also be disadvantaged. It is important to ensure that data represents the well-being of these groups, and this may be achieved through booster samples and/or tailored additional data collection, such as survey work.

6.77 In addition, data may exclude particular groups, one example being the exclusion of specific age groups of the population. Many data that is gathered at the individual level has lower age limits, often 18 years old or 15 years old, and so excludes all or most children. Often,

the only rationale for this is historical practice. For example, children from a certain age are quite capable of expressing how safe they feel, and this is equally valid as when an adult does so. There may also be exclusions related to elderly people – for example some surveys are only of the working-age population.

6.78 To ensure and maintain the national well-being measurement framework over time, it is helpful to include the following issues in the long-term planning:

Maintain flexibility to adapt to changes

6.79 Being able to adapt is essential. Adaptation may be the addition or removal of indicators, provision of extra breakdowns of statistics or creation of a new explorer tool. Changes may be at the request of a policy maker or due to changes in definitions or data sources. If removing or adding indicators to the framework, make sure this is done based on established criteria, so this process is transparent to users. In the UK Measures of National Well-being, changes to measures are outlined each quarter in their data tables. They highlight both the change and the reason for the change.

Clear allocation of responsibilities

6.80 After the framework has been established it is helpful to ensure a clear allocation of responsibilities and tasks to ensure it is maintained, updated and published according to plan.

Shared ownership

6.81 It is helpful to create a sense of shared ownership as with multiple topics, gaps can easily happen. With measures across multiple sources, it is important to maintain effective engagement across all source owners and instil in them a shared ownership of the framework. Show them what they are contributing to and what impact it is having.

6.82 If an expert advisory panel for the establishment of the framework is set up, consider keeping it with less frequent meetings or with purely email updates. It is beneficial to continue to have their input and advice. This group will be able to act as advocates for the framework across departments and sectors.

Maintain comparability over time

6.83 Changes over time are an important element of well-being frameworks. To ensure changes are captured, indicators should be monitored and kept comparable over time.

Communication

6.84 Timely media presence will help to ensure the framework's existence is maintained in people's minds. It is advised to work with the media/communication teams to promote the framework and its findings at each data update. Things to consider include:

- Language needs to be clear, understandable and accessible.
- The well-being framework and its underlying dimensions must be clearly defined and understood by stakeholders and users.
- Consistent language and terms throughout are essential. Language consistency supports users' understanding and their ability to advocate the framework to others.
- Consider the needs of target audiences and tailor the statistical products to optimise the communications.

6.4 Country example of well-being framework development – New Zealand

6.85 Section 6.2 provides an overview of key steps to consider when developing a framework for measuring well-being. However, practices will vary. Some countries may merge or skip steps, e.g., if procedures are already in place, or the sequence of the steps may differ. Differences in data availability and the intended use of the framework will also have an impact on how the framework is developed. Each country brings a unique perspective to developing well-being frameworks. Below is an example from New Zealand of how complementary well-being frameworks have been established and are used in decision making.

6.4.1 Background of Well-being in New Zealand

6.86 Successive Aotearoa New Zealand Governments have applied elements of well-being approaches (New Zealand Productivity Commission, 2023).

6.87 The 1999 to 2009 Government introduced “whole of government” goals and outcomes, as part of its Reducing Inequalities policy, and the 2017 to 2023 Government embedded well-being into the Public Finance Act. This Act now requires governments to set well-being objectives to frame each Budget and requires the Treasury to prepare an independent report on well-being in New Zealand every four years. The government introduced its first Well-being Budget in 2019, where agencies were expected to identify the impacts of proposed budget initiatives using well-being frameworks.

6.88 Against this background, The Treasury has been iteratively developing its [Living Standards Framework \(LSF\) since 2011](#) and released the (LSF) Dashboard in 2018 to support strategic policy advice. Stats NZ - Tatauranga Aotearoa (New Zealand’s National Statistics Office) produced [Ngā Tūtohu Aotearoa](#) in 2019 to support the monitoring of well-being more generally. There was extensive collaboration between The Treasury and Stats NZ in the design of these complementary products.

6.89 Ngā Tūtohu Aotearoa is a national indicator framework for well-being that can be used as a base in developing customised well-being monitoring frameworks. It shows a wide range of well-being outcomes and, where possible, how they vary over time, between population groups, and across New Zealand. Establishing a comprehensive suite of indicators that show how New Zealand is progressing was needed for several reasons:

- To improve decision-making by providing a wider view of progress.
- To enable government investment to be more effectively directed towards improving the overall well-being of New Zealanders, alongside economic growth.
- To enable the public to monitor New Zealand’s well-being progress and sustainable development.
- To empower NGOs and community groups to make informed decisions and help them advocate for the well-being of specific groups and communities.
- To support New Zealand’s contribution to international reporting requirements, such as the UN Agenda 2030 for Sustainable Development and UN Human Rights Reporting.

6.90 Ngā Tūtohu Aotearoa is being used as a reference in the development of several bespoke well-being frameworks, including by the Ministry for Ethnic Communities (Te Tari Mātāwaka) and Whaikaha – Ministry of Disabled People. In addition, many people use Ngā Tūtohu Aotearoa as a one-stop shop to find well-being information across a wide range of topics.

6.4.2 Engagement throughout development

6.91 Stats NZ consulted with people in New Zealand on what well-being means to them and what aspects of well-being matter most. This included the views of children and older people, minority groups, Māori and iwi, and hard-to-reach and vulnerable populations. A range of different channels (for example, postcards, community meetings, online submissions, an online poll, emails, and public forums) were used to capture the diversity of views held. The consultation was important to ensure that Ngā Tūtohu Aotearoa reflects what is important to New Zealanders, and not just to the government. It is, and was at the time, also important to ensure that people will see themselves in the data.

6.92 Any comprehensive framework for well-being in Aotearoa, New Zealand, needs to consider both the well-being of Māori and Māori conceptions of well-being. The development of Ngā Tūtohu Aotearoa was co-designed with Māori. This reflects the status of Māori as the indigenous population of New Zealand and the principles of the [Treaty of Waitangi](#).

6.93 Partnership with Māori was recognised as crucial for Ngā Tūtohu Aotearoa, and initiatives included establishing a Māori Advisory Panel to advise on [te ao Māori values](#) for well-being and conducting an expert review to consider the framework and indicators from a te ao Māori (Māori worldview) perspective. During the development of Ngā Tūtohu Aotearoa, it was decided to produce a set of te ao Māori well-being indicators alongside Ngā Tūtohu Aotearoa. The analogy was of a twin-hulled waka (canoe) being paddled in the same direction.

6.94 After consideration, it was decided that The Treasury's work (O'Connell et al, 2018) on He Ara Waiora was the best way forward. The term 'waiora' speaks to a broad conception of human well-being, ground in wai (water) as the source of ora (life). [He Ara Waiora](#) presents a holistic, intergenerational approach to well-being and deepens The Treasury's understanding of living standards. Its principles are derived from mātauranga Māori (Māori understanding or knowledge) but many of its elements are relevant to lifting the intergenerational well-being of all New Zealanders. Consideration of te ao Māori perspectives of well-being was also incorporated throughout the development of the Ngā Tūtohu Aotearoa indicator framework.

6.95 Following the public consultation, Stats NZ held workshops and consultations to bring together subject-matter and technical experts to propose indicators. The indicators were selected in a collaborative process involving a wide range of stakeholders, including central and local government, NGOs, and experts, such as te ao Māori experts, academics, and technical advisory groups. The results were used to inform the rest of the indicator selection process.

6.96 Each indicator proposed at the technical workshops was evaluated against how well it related to the relevant topic definitions and if it met the indicator selection criteria. Preliminary findings from the public consultation were also presented and available for technical experts to use while evaluating indicators. This evaluation was presented at an indicator selection event in December 2018. The indicators agreed at this event were reviewed against findings from the public consultation and written submissions provided during and after the event.

6.97 A review of the indicators was conducted in three ways. Firstly, by local and international experts on well-being. Secondly, from the perspective of other nations with an indigenous population (for example, Canadian and Australian experts). Finally, a panel of te ao Māori subject matter experts reviewed the indicators from a te ao Māori perspective.

6.98 Ngā Tūtohu Aotearoa seeks to understand the most important aspects of well-being for New Zealanders, and where possible, indicators were chosen with distributional data about how different population groups (for example, by sex, ethnicity, and region) are faring. However, the selection of indicators was not driven by the availability of data. The initial set of indicators included gaps in data, ranging from a complete absence of data to limitations on the ability to break information down to useful and meaningful levels for different communities. Stats NZ is

working with stakeholders to prioritise understanding data gaps and how they can be addressed. This approach highlighted areas for future investment in data and statistics and was fed back to the Government for consideration through an all-of-government Data Investment Plan ([New Zealand Government, 2022](#)).

6.99 Ngā Tūtohu Aotearoa is a broad and deep source of well-being data, which supports a range of reporting requirements, including under the SDGs. The Treasury uses Ngā Tūtohu Aotearoa to help inform the Living Standards Framework Dashboard, and, as a key user, The Treasury's development of the LSF feeds into the development of the indicator suite.

6.4.3 Well-being in decision making

6.100 The Living Standards Framework is a high-level framework for measuring and analysing intergenerational well-being. The LSF Dashboard provides the indicators that The Treasury believes are most important to track to understand progress in well-being in New Zealand and to inform The Treasury's strategic policy advice on cross-government well-being priorities. The Dashboard does not aim to be a comprehensive database of well-being indicators and is not intended to provide the level of indicator granularity needed for agency or sector policy analysis. Agencies, local government and NGOs are encouraged to develop their own well-being datasets to suit their own needs. The Treasury used a wider range of indicators and research to inform its statutory [Well-being Report in 2022](#).

6.101 The LSF Dashboard draws from Ngā Tūtohu Aotearoa, and The Treasury seeks to align the two indicator suites where it can, but also uses other datasets that support its policy analysis. To support these policy needs, the Treasury has made the pragmatic choice to include the 'best data available', rather than to identify data gaps as Ngā Tūtohu Aotearoa has done.

6.102 The Treasury aims to use He Ara Waiora, the LSF and other complementary frameworks alongside each other to better understand the distinctive nature of well-being in different communities in New Zealand. This approach, combined with ongoing engagement with these communities, is likely to be more effective than trying to incorporate all perspectives into one generic framework where the distinctive aspects of Māori and Pacific well-being would inevitably be lost ([The Treasury, 2021](#)).

6.4.4 Summary

6.103 New Zealand has developed and implemented two significant and complementary well-being measurement frameworks:

- The Treasury's Living Standards Framework, complemented by He Ara Waiora, to support their strategic policy advice; and
- Stats NZ's Ngā Tūtohu Aotearoa in 2019 to support the monitoring of well-being more generally.

6.104 These measurement frameworks can be used to support more tailored well-being strategies or frameworks, such as:

- The [Child and Youth Well-being Strategy](#),
- [All-of-Government Pacific Well-being Strategy](#),
- Bespoke well-being frameworks by the Ministry for Ethnic Communities and Whaikaha – Ministry of Disabled People.

References

- ADEME (2024), Indicateurs de bien vivre et cobénéfices de la sobriété, Retrieved from <https://librairie.ademe.fr/societe-et-politiques-publiques/7660-indicateurs-de-bien-vivre-et-cobenefices-de-la-sobriete.html>
- Benjamin, D. J., Heffetz, O., Kimball, M. S., & Szembrot, N. (2014). Beyond happiness and satisfaction: Toward well-being indices based on stated preference. *American economic review*, 104(9), 2698-2735.
- Boarini, R., & d'Ercole, M. M. (2006). Measures of material deprivation in OECD countries. OECD Social, Employment and Migration Working Papers No. 37. OECD: Paris.
- Brundtland, G.H. (1987). Our Common Future: Report of the World Commission on Environment and Development. Geneva, UN-Dokument A/42/427. Retrieved from <http://www.un-documents.net/ocf-ov.htm>.
- Burger, J., en J. van Beuningen (2020). Measuring well-being dispersion on discrete rating scales. *Social Indicators Research*, 149, 749-773.
- CBS (2016), Well-being, Sustainability, and National Resilience Indicators. Retrieved from https://www.cbs.gov.il/en/Statistical/stat151_eng.pdf
- CBS (2024), Presentation Monitor of Well-being and the Sustainable Development Goals 2024. Retrieved from <https://www.cbs.nl/en-gb/video/f3147284a15c40df8e4b01fa4bcf6742?16by9=true>
- CSO (2023), Wellbeing Information Hub website. Retrieved from <https://www.cso.ie/en/releasesandpublications/hubs/p-wbhub/well-beinginformationhub/>
- Czúcz, B., et al. (2021). Selection criteria for ecosystem condition indicators. *Ecological Indicators*, 133, 108376.
- Decancq, K., & Schokkaert, E. (2016). Beyond GDP: Using equivalent incomes to measure well-being in Europe. *Social indicators research*, 126(1), 21-55.
- Department of Finance Canada (2021), Toward a Quality of Life Strategy for Canada, Retrieved from <https://www.canada.ca/en/department-finance/services/publications/measuring-what-matters-toward-quality-life-strategy-canada.h>
- Durand, M. (2015). The OECD better life initiative: How's life? and the measurement of well-being. *Review of Income and Wealth*, 61(1), 4-17.
- Dutta, I., Nogales, R., & Yalonetzky, G. (2021). Endogenous weights and multidimensional poverty: A cautionary tale. *Journal of Development Economics*, 151, 102649.
- Eurostat (2015), Quality of Life - Facts and Views, Eurostat, Luxembourg. Retrieved from <https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/web/products-statistical-books/-/KS-05-14-073>
- Eurostat (2017). Final report of the expert group on quality of life indicators.
- Exton, C. and L. Fleischer (2019), "The Future of the OECD Well-being Dashboard", OECD Statistics Working Papers, No. forthcoming, OECD Publishing, Paris. Retrieved from https://www.oecd.org/content/dam/oecd/en/topics/policy-sub-issues/measuring-well-being-and-progress/The-Future-of-the-OECD-Well-being-Dashboard_2019.pdf.
- Exton, C. and M. Shinwell (2018), "Policy use of well-being metrics: Describing countries' experiences", OECD Statistics Working Papers, No. 2018/07, OECD Publishing, Paris. Retrieved from <https://doi.org/10.1787/d98eb8ed-en>.

Ferrer-i-Carbonell, A., & Frijters, P. (2004). How important is methodology for the estimates of the determinants of happiness?. *The economic journal*, 114(497), 641-659.

Gaukroger, C., Ampofo, A., Kitt, F., Phillips, T., & Smith, W. (2022). *Redefining progress: Global lessons for an Australian approach to wellbeing*. Centre for Policy Development.
<https://cpd.org.au/wp-content/uploads/2022/08/CPD-Redefining-Progress-FINAL.pdf>

Gough, Ian (2023), "Sufficiency as a Value Standard: From Preferences to Needs", *Ethics, Policy & Environment*, DOI 10.1080/21550085.2023.2269055.

Greco, S., Ishizaka, A., Tasiou, M., & Torrisi, G. (2019). On the methodological framework of composite indices: A review of the issues of weighting, aggregation, and robustness. *Social indicators research*, 141, 61-94.

Hoekstra, R. (2019), *Replacing GDP by 2030: Towards a Common Language for the Well-Being and Sustainability Community*, Cambridge University Press, Cambridge. Retrieved from <https://www.cambridge.org/core/books/replacing-gdp-by-2030/1583BE07055EAD85CBFECE1FC5EF6442>

Hoekstra, R. (2019). *Replacing GDP by 2030: Towards a common language for the well-being and sustainability community*. Cambridge University Press.

Hofstede, Geert (2001). *Culture's Consequences: comparing values, behaviours, institutions, and organizations across nations* (2nd ed.). Thousand Oaks, CA: SAGE Publications.

Istat (2021), *BES 2020: equitable and sustainable well-being in Italy*,
<https://www.istat.it/en/archivio/261995>

Istat (2024). *Well-being and Inequalities in Italy*: <https://www.istat.it/wp-content/uploads/2024/11/Well-being-and-inequalities.pdf>

Italian Ministry of Economy and Finance (2023), *Relazione sugli Indicatori di Benessere Equo e Sostenibile [2023 Equitable and Sustainable Well-being Report to the Parliament]*, Retrieved from https://www.dt.mef.gov.it/export/sites/sitodt/modules/documenti_it/analisi_progammazione/documenti_programmatici/Relazione-BES-2023.pdf

Jansen, A., R. Hoekstra, R. Kaufmann, A. Gerer (2023). A synthesis of Beyond-GDP metrics for Wellbeing, Inclusion, and Sustainability including a deep-dive into EU metrics and their role in governance. Final version of WISE Horizons deliverable 1.1. Retrieved from <https://wisehorizons.world/a-synthesis-of-beyond-gdp-metrics-for-wellbeing-inclusion-and-sustainability/>

Jansen, Annegeke, Ranran Wang, Paul Behrens, Rutger Hoekstra, *Beyond GDP: a review and conceptual framework for measuring sustainable and inclusive wellbeing*, *The Lancet Planetary Health*, Volume 8, Issue 9, 2024, Retrieved from [https://doi.org/10.1016/S2542-5196\(24\)00147-5](https://doi.org/10.1016/S2542-5196(24)00147-5).

Kukutai, T.; Roskrige, M.; Sporle, A. (2017) *Subjective whānau wellbeing in Te Kupenga*.
<https://thehub.swa.govt.nz/assets/Uploads/Subjective-whanau-wellbeing-report.pdf>

Layard, R. (2011). *Happiness: Lessons From A New Science*. 2nd edition, Penguin UK.

Layard, R. and De Neve, J. E. (2023): *Wellbeing*. Cambridge University Press

Leising, D., & Borgstede, M. (2020). Hypothetical constructs. *Encyclopedia of Personality and Individual Differences*, 2119-2124.

Liberati, P., & Resce, G. (2022). Regional well-being and its inequality in the oecd member countries. *The Journal of Economic Inequality*, 20(3), 671-700.

MacFeely, S, van de Ven, P. and Peltola, A. (2024). To GDP and beyond: The past and future history of the world's most powerful indicator. Retrieved from <https://journals.sagepub.com/doi/full/10.3233/SJI-240003>

Mahoney, J. (2023), "Subjective well-being measurement: Current practice and new frontiers", OECD Papers on Well-being and Inequalities, No. 17, OECD Publishing, Paris. Retrieved from <https://doi.org/10.1787/4e180f51-en>.

Mazziotta, M., & Pareto, A. (2020). Composite indices construction: The performance interval approach. *Social indicators research*, 1-11.

McKay, B., & Walmsley, A. (2003). Maori time: notions of space, time and building form in the South Pacific. *idea journal*, 4(1), 85-95.

Mullings, J., Paul, T., Dunn, L., Meeks-Gardener, J., Williams, A., & Iyer-Raniga, U. (2024). *Well-Being Across the Globe: New Perspectives, Concepts, Correlates and Geography*. BoD—Books on Demand.

Myers, S. S. (2017). Planetary health: protecting human health on a rapidly changing planet. *The Lancet*, 390(10114), 2860-2868.

National Assembly of Wales (2015), *Well-being of Future Generations (Wales) Act 2015*. Retrieved from <https://www.futuregenerations.wales/wp-content/uploads/2017/01/WFGAct-English.pdf>

New Zealand Government (2022). *Government Data Investment Plan 2022*. <https://www.data.govt.nz/assets/Leadership/Government-Data-Investment-Plan-2022.pdf>

O'Connell, E, Moeke, T & Sacha McMeeking, S (2018). *He Ara Waiora/A Pathway Towards Wellbeing* (The NZ Treasury discussion paper 18/11). <https://www.treasury.govt.nz/sites/default/files/2018-09/dp18-11.pdf>

OECD (2008). *Handbook on constructing composite indicators: methodology and user guide*. OECD publishing: Paris. Retrieved from https://www.oecd.org/en/publications/handbook-on-constructing-composite-indicators-methodology-and-user-guide_9789264043466-en.html

OECD (2011). *How's Life? Measuring Well-being*. Paris: OECD Publishing.

OECD (2012). *Measuring Well-Being for Development and Policy Making*. <https://www.oecd.org/development/measuringwell-beingfordevelopmentandpolicymaking.htm>

OECD (2013), *OECD Guidelines on Measuring Subjective Well-being*, OECD Publishing, Paris. Retrieved from <https://doi.org/10.1787/9789264191655-en>.

OECD (2013a). *How's Life? Measuring Well-being*. Paris: OECD Publishing.

OECD (2013b) *Guidelines on Measuring Subjective Well-being*. Paris: OECD Publishing.

OECD (2015). *How's Life? Measuring Well-being*. Paris: OECD Publishing.

OECD (2017). *How's Life? 2017: Measuring Well-being*, OECD Publishing, Paris. Retrieved from https://doi.org/10.1787/how_life-2017-en.

OECD (2019). *The future of the OECD Well-being Dashboard: Discussion paper*. https://www.oecd.org/content/dam/oecd/en/topics/policy-sub-issues/measuring-well-being-and-progress/The-Future-of-the-OECD-Well-being-Dashboard_2019.pdf

OECD (2023), *Economic Policy Making to Pursue Economic Welfare: OECD Report for the G7 Finance Ministers and Central Bank Governors, May 2023, Japan, OECD, Paris*. Retrieved from https://www.oecd.org/economy/G7_Beyond_GDP_Economic_policy_making_to_pursue_economic_welfare_2023.pdf

OECD (2023), *Measuring Well-being and Progress: Well-being Research*, OECD, Paris. Retrieved from <https://www.oecd.org/wise/measuring-well-being-and-progress.htm>

OECD (2024), “Measuring social connectedness in OECD countries: A scoping review”, *OECD Papers on Well-being and Inequalities*, No. 28, OECD Publishing, Paris. Retrieved from <https://doi.org/10.1787/f758bd20-en>.

OECD (2024), *How’s Life? 2024: Well-being and Resilience in Times of Crisis*, OECD Publishing, Paris. Retrieved from <https://doi.org/10.1787/90ba854a-en>.

OECD (2024a). “Measuring well-being “beyond GDP” in Asia, South-East Asia and Korea”. *OECD Papers on Well-being and Inequalities*, No. 22. Paris: OECD Publishing.

OECD (2024b). *OECD How’s Life? Well-being Database: Definitions and Metadata*. Last update: June 2024.

OECD (2024c). *New Frontiers in Subjective Well-being Measurement*. Conference: 4 March 2024, Paris, France: <https://www.oecd.org/en/events/2024/03/new-frontiers-in-subjective-well-being-measurement.html>

ONS (2023). *Inclusive income: 2005 to 2019*. Available at <https://www.ons.gov.uk/economy/economicoutputandproductivity/output/articles/ukinclusiv eincome/2005to2019>

Raworth, K. (2017), “A Doughnut for the Anthropocene: humanity's compass in the 21st century”, *The Lancet Planetary Health*, Volume 1, Issue 2, [https://doi.org/10.1016/S2542-5196\(17\)30028-1](https://doi.org/10.1016/S2542-5196(17)30028-1).

Raworth, K. (2017). *Doughnut economics: seven ways to think like a 21st-century economist*. Chelsea Green Publishing.

Reid, C & Evans, P (2022b). *Trends in Māori wellbeing. The Treasury background paper to Te Tai Waiora: Wellbeing in Aotearoa New Zealand 2022*. <https://www.treasury.govt.nz/sites/default/files/2022-12/ap22-02.pdf>

Robeyns, I. (2005). Selecting capabilities for quality of life measurement. *Social indicators research*, 74, 191-215.

Robeyns, I. and M.F. Byskov (2023). “The Capability Approach”, in: Edward N. Zalta & Uri Nodelman (eds.). *The Stanford Encyclopedia of Philosophy* (Summer 2023 Edition). <https://plato.stanford.edu/archives/sum2023/entries/capability-approach/>.

Rockström, J., et al. (2023). Safe and just Earth system boundaries. *Nature*, 619(7968), 102-111. Retrieved from <https://doi.org/10.1038/s41586-023-06083-8>

Ryan, R. M., & Deci, E. L. (2001). On happiness and human potentials: A review of research on hedonic and eudaimonic well-being. *Annual review of psychology*, 52(1), 141-166.

Saisana, M., & Tarantola, S. (2002). *State-of-the-art report on current methodologies and practices for composite indicator development* (Vol. 214, pp. 4-15). Ispra, Italy: European Commission, Joint Research Centre, Institute for the Protection and the Security of the Citizen, Technological and Economic Risk Management Unit.

Sangha, K. K., Preece, L., Villarreal-Rosas, J., Kegamba, J. J., Paudyal, K., Warmenhoven, T., & RamaKrishnan, P. S. (2018). An ecosystem services framework to evaluate Indigenous and local peoples’ connections with nature. *Ecosystem Services*, 31(Part A), 111-125.

Sen, A. (1993). *Capability and well-being*. In: Nussbaum, M., & Sen, A. (Eds.). (1993). *The quality of life*. Oxford University Press.

Sen, A. (1999). *Development as Freedom*. New York: Oxford University Press.

Stats NZ (2019) (published 19 April 2019). Indicators Aotearoa New Zealand – Ngā Tūtohu Aotearoa: Key findings from consultation and engagement. Retrieved from <https://www.stats.govt.nz/reports/indicators-aotearoa-new-zealand-nga-tutohu-aotearoa-key-findings-from-consultation-and-engagement/>

Stefana, E., Marciano, F., Rossi, D., Cocca, P., & Tomasoni, G. (2021). Composite indicators to measure quality of working life in Europe: a systematic review. *Social Indicators Research*, 157(3), 1047-1078.

Stiglitz, J., A. Sen and J. Fitoussi (2009), Report by the Commission on the Measurement of Economic Performance and Social Progress. Retrieved from <http://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/documents/118025/118123/Fitoussi+Commission+report>

Stiglitz, J., J. Fitoussi and M. Durand (2018), *Beyond GDP: Measuring What Counts for Economic and Social Performance*, OECD Publishing, Paris. Retrieved from <https://dx.doi.org/10.1787/9789264307292-en>.

Stiglitz, Sen & Fitoussi (2009), Report by the Commission on the Measurement of Economic Performance and Social Progress.

The Treasury & New Zealand Productivity Commission (2023). A fair chance for all: breaking the cycle of persistent disadvantage. Retrieved from <https://www.treasury.govt.nz/publications/fair-chance-all-breaking-cycle-persistent-disadvantage-productivity-commission-inquiry-material-2021-2023>

The Treasury (2018), *The Relationship between the Sustainable Development Goals and the Living Standards Framework*. Retrieved from <https://www.treasury.govt.nz/information-and-services/state-sector-leadership/guidance/reporting-financial/applying-wellbeing-approach-agency-planning-and-performance-reporting>

The Treasury (2019), Information on applying a wellbeing approach to agency external planning and performance reporting. Retrieved from <https://www.treasury.govt.nz/publications/dp/dp-18-06#section-1-introduction>.

The Treasury (2021) *The Living Standards Framework 2021* <https://www.treasury.govt.nz/sites/default/files/2021-10/tp-living-standards-framework-2021.pdf>

The Treasury. (2022a). *Te Tai Waiora: Wellbeing in Aotearoa New Zealand 2022* www.treasury.govt.nz/publications/wellbeing-report/te-tai-waiora-2022

Tse, S., Lloyd, C., Petchkovsky, L., & Manaia, W. (2005). Exploration of Australian and New Zealand indigenous people's spirituality and mental health. *Australian Occupational Therapy Journal*, 52(3), 181-187.

UN Stats (2024), SNA 2025 update, Retrieved from <https://unstats.un.org/unsd/nationalaccount/SNAUpdate/2025/chapters.asp>.

UNECE (2013), *Conference of European Statisticians Recommendations on Measuring Sustainable Development*, United Nations, New York and Geneva. Retrieved from http://www.unece.org/fileadmin/DAM/stats/publications/2013/CES_SD_web.pdf.

UNECE (2014). *Conference of European Statisticians Recommendations on Measuring Sustainable Development*. New York/Genève: United Nations.

UNECE (2015). *Handbook on measuring quality of employment: a statistical framework/prepared by the Expert Group on Measuring Quality of Employment*. New York/Genève: United Nations.

UNECE (2019). Guidelines on producing leading, composite and sentiment indicators. United Nations: Geneva.

UNECE (2023), In-depth review of measurement of current well-being, Retrieved from <https://unece.org/sites/default/files/2023-05/CES%202023%207%20E.pdf>.

United Nations (2015), The Sustainable Development Goals, Retrieved from <https://sdgs.un.org/goals>.

United Nations (2015). Discussion paper on Principles of Using Quantification to Operationalize the SDGs and Criteria for Indicator Selection. Expert Group Meeting on the indicator framework for the post-2015 development agenda- New York - 25-26 February 2015.

United Nations (2022) Valuing What Counts, Retrieved from <https://unsceb.org/valuing-what-counts-united-nations-system-wide-contribution-beyond-gross-domestic-product-gdp>

United Nations (2022). Valuing What Counts – United Nations System-wide Contribution on Progress Beyond Gross Domestic Product (GDP).

United Nations (2024). Completing the Statistical Architecture: Developing the System of Population and Social Statistics and the Framework for Inclusive and Sustainable Wellbeing - A Roadmap. e United Nations Network of Economic Statisticians, February 2024: https://unstats.un.org/UNSDWebsite/statcom/session_55/documents/BG-3g-NetEcoStats-beyond_GDP-E.pdf

United Nations (2025). UN Secretary-General appoints High-Level Expert Group on Beyond GDP. <https://www.un.org/sustainabledevelopment/blog/2025/05/unsg-hl-expert-beyondgdp/>

United Nations Department of Economic and Social Affairs Statistics Division (2017), SDG Indicators: Global indicator framework for the Sustainable Development Goals and targets of the 2030 Agenda for Sustainable Development. Retrieved from <https://documents.un.org/doc/undoc/gen/n17/207/63/pdf/n1720763.pdf?token=OrUiXnhmo4R4Y1kR52&fe=true>

United Nations Development Programme (2023), Human Development Index. Retrieved from <https://hdr.undp.org/data-center/human-development-index#/indicies/HDI>

UNSC (2022), FoC, Retrieved from https://unstats.un.org/unsd/statcom/groups/FOCG_SDS/#:~:text=The%20Friends%20of%20the%20Chair,reflect%20society%20and%20its%20connections

Wellbeing Economy Alliance (2021), Wellbeing Economy Policy Design Guide, Wellbeing Economy Alliance. Retrieved from <https://weall.org/policyguide>.

World Commission on Environment and Development (1987). Our common future. New York, NY: Oxford University Press.

Yang, L. (2018). Measuring well-being: a multidimensional index integrating subjective well-being and preferences. *Journal of Human Development and Capabilities*, 19(4), 456-476.

Annex: Indicator documentation

Short name	Life satisfaction (1.1)
Long name	Average life satisfaction
Dimension	Subjective well-being
Definition	Life satisfaction is measured through survey questions about individuals' overall satisfaction with their lives. Respondents typically answer the question: "Overall, how satisfied are you with your life as a whole these days?" using a scale from 0 to 10, where 0 represents "not at all satisfied" and 10 represents "completely satisfied." Averages refer to mean scores of the 0-10 scale, whereas deprivations in life satisfaction typically refer to values of 4 or below. This definition follows the OECD Guidelines on Measuring Subjective Well-being.
Use	This indicator is used to assess overall satisfaction with life.
Type	Subjective
Unit of measurement	Mean values on an 11-point scale, with responses ranging from 0 (not at all satisfied) to 10 (fully satisfied)
Data sources	The recommended data sources are household and well-being surveys. Questions on life satisfaction can be included in ongoing or standalone surveys, leveraging existing national or international frameworks, e.g. of OECD and Eurostat.
Frameworks	OECD How's Life? Eurostat Quality of Life Framework
More metadata	OECD How's Life? - Guidelines on Measuring Subjective Well-being (published in 2013, to be updated in October 2025) https://www.oecd.org/en/publications/oecd-guidelines-on-measuring-subjective-well-being_9789264191655-en.html The OECD Well-being Database includes Eurostat data as well as additional life satisfaction estimates for non-European OECD member countries. https://www.oecd.org/wise/oecd-well-being-database-definitions.pdf? (refer to page 26-27). Access indicator data from OECD. Eurostat's Quality of life methodology within the EU context. Data is collected through the European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC) survey: https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/ilc_sieusilc.htm Access indicator data from Eurostat

Short name	People who feel their life has meaning and purpose (1.2)
Long name	Extent of feeling things one does in life are worthwhile with the mean average score on an 11-point scale, ranging from 0 to 10.
Dimension	Subjective well-being
Definition	The proportion of individuals who express a sense of meaning and purpose in life (eudaimonic well-being). This is typically measured through survey responses. Respondents typically answer the question: "to what extent do you feel the things you do in your life are worthwhile?" using a scale from 0 to 10, where 0 represents "not at all worthwhile" and 10 represents "completely worthwhile." Averages refer to mean scores of the 0-10 scale, whereas deprivations in eudaimonic well-being can refer to values of 4 or below. This definition follows the OECD Guidelines on Measuring Subjective Well-being.
Use	To evaluate individual perceptions on overall, to what extent do individuals feel that the things they do in their life are worthwhile.
Type	Subjective
Unit of measurement	Mean values on a 0-10 scale
Data sources	The recommended data sources are household and well-being surveys. Questions on sense of meaning of life and purpose can be included in ongoing or standalone surveys, leveraging existing frameworks, e.g.: OECD How's Life? Report 2015 compiles national data "Life Satisfaction and Feeling Life is Worthwhile" based on survey data from 2013, following the OECD Guidelines on Measuring Subjective Well-being. Respondents answer a standardized life purpose question on a scale (0-10). Eurostat EU-SILC (European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions)
Frameworks	OECD How's Life? ideal indicator set (not currently populated)
More metadata	OECD How's Life? - Guidelines on Measuring Subjective Well-being (published in 2013, to be updated in October 2025) OECD How's Lie? Measuring Wellbeing, 2015 Report (Refer page 97-98) The 2013 ad hoc module "Well-being" of the EU Statistics on Income and Living Conditions data collection included a measure of eudaimonia that was roughly equivalent to measures used outside of Europe (i.e. feeling that the things you do in life are worthwhile) and was featured in the 2015 edition of How's Life? (OECD, 2015[3]). However, these data have not been updated since, and no time series is available. Additional readings https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/ilc_sieusilc.htm

Short name	Negative affect balance (1.3)
Long name	Share of population reporting more negative than positive feelings and states in a typical day.
Dimension	Subjective well-being
Definition	Negative affect balance is assessed using a series of items where respondents answer “yes” or “no” to experiencing each emotion or state extensively on the previous day. The indicator represents the percentage of respondents reporting more negative than positive feelings or states on the previous day and it follows the OECD Guidelines on Measuring Subjective Well-being. The types of positive and negative affect that are included in the OECD Guidelines on Measuring Subjective Well-being as ideal set include feeling pain, happy, worried, calm, sad, angry, joyful, tired and stressed yesterday, collected on a 0-10 scale where zero means not experiencing the feeling at all and 10 means experiencing the feeling all the time.
Use	To monitor and compare the affective component of subjective well-being, referring to feelings and emotional states across nations and population groups and capturing distinct aspects of subjective well-being that are not reflected in evaluative measures such as life satisfaction.
Type	Subjective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of the population
Data sources	The recommended data sources are household and well-being surveys. Questions on negative affect balance can be included in ongoing or standalone surveys, leveraging existing frameworks, e.g. of OECD and the Gallup World Poll. OECD sources data from the Gallup World Poll. Until measures of affect are consistently integrated into official household surveys, data from the Gallup World Poll referring to the emotions of anger, sadness, worry, enjoyment, feeling well-rested and laughing/smiling yesterday, measured on a binary response scale, are used by the OECD for international comparisons. International comparability will depend on the survey questions.
Frameworks	OECD How's Life?
More metadata	OECD How's Life? - Guidelines on Measuring Subjective Well-being (published in 2013, to be updated in October 2025) https://www.oecd.org/en/publications/oecd-guidelines-on-measuring-subjective-well-being_9789264191655-en.html Access indicator data from OECD

Short name	Household adjusted disposable income (2.1)
Long name	The 2008 SNA uses the term 'Household adjusted disposable income'. In the 2025 SNA, it is termed 'Household disposable income adjusted for social transfers in kind'.
Dimension	Material living conditions
Definition	Household adjusted disposable income is all income received by the household in the form of employment earnings, self-employment, capital income and current transfers in cash and in kind (such as education and health care services by government) less all current transfers paid by the household to other sectors (such as taxes on income and wealth). Household adjusted disposable income is a measure of the maximum value of actual final consumption that a household can afford in the current period without having to reduce its cash, dispose of other assets or increase its liabilities. Like other national accounts aggregates, household adjusted disposable income can be recorded gross or net of depreciation and depletion of capital assets. 'Household adjusted disposable income' (2008 SNA) is termed 'Household disposable income adjusted for social transfers in kind' in 2025 SNA. The two are identical. For ease of reference, the shorter 2008 SNA term is used for the indicator.
Use	The SNA emphasizes the importance of indicators like disposable income adjusted for social transfers in kind to better assess material well-being. By incorporating social transfers in kind, this indicator provides a more accurate measure of the economic resources accessible to households, thereby offering deeper insights into living standards and economic welfare
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	The unit of measurement is the national currency. Depending on the use of the indicator, it can be expressed in per capita values, purchasing power parity (PPP), percentage of GDP, inflation-adjusted constant prices, and equivalized household income.
Data sources	National accounts, household income statistics. National data are harmonized by OECD and Eurostat for cross-country comparability.
Frameworks	OECD How's Life? Eurostat Quality of Life Framework
More metadata	https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/statistics-explained/index.php?title=Glossary%3AAdjusted_household_disposable_income https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/de/sdg_10_20_esmsip2.htm? Access indicator data from OECD Access indicator data from Eurostat

Short name	Relative income poverty (2.2)
Long name	At-risk-of-poverty rate: Share of individuals with household disposable income below the relative income poverty line
Dimension	Material living conditions
Definition	The at-risk-of-poverty rate is the share of people with an equivalised disposable income (after social transfer) below the at-risk-of-poverty threshold, which is set, depending on the source, between 50-60% % of the national median equivalised disposable income after social transfers. This indicator does not measure wealth or poverty, but low income in comparison to other residents in that country, which does not necessarily imply a low standard of living.
Use	To measure the proportion of individuals experiencing income poverty, assess economic inequality, and guide policies aimed at reducing poverty and improving income distribution.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of individuals
Data sources	Household income statistics based on survey and/or administrative data, and national accounts. International sources include: EU Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC) is a cross-sectional and longitudinal survey conducted annually across EU member states, providing harmonized microdata on income, social inclusion, and living conditions. OECD Income Distribution Database (IDD), based on household surveys and tax records, collected from national statistical offices across OECD member countries. The database follows the Canberra Handbook (2011) and applies wherever possible adjustments like setting negative income values to zero. The IDD sets the relative income poverty line at 50% of the national median income.
Frameworks	OECD How's Life? Eurostat Quality of Life Framework
More metadata	OECD's data source: OECD Income Distribution Database. Access the indicator data from OECD Eurostat's data is collected through the European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC) survey: https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/ilc_sieusilc.htm Access indicator data Eurostat

Short name	Difficulty making ends meet (2.3)
Long name	Share of individuals who declare to have difficulty or great difficulty to make ends meet.
Dimension	Material living conditions
Definition	Difficulty in making ends meet refers to the percentage of people who report having difficulty or great difficulty in making ends meet. The question is asked to the household reference person, and the information is available at household level only.
Use	To assess financial strain within the population and complement objective indicators with perception-based estimates, monitor economic insecurity, and inform policies aimed at reducing financial hardship and improving household economic stability.
Type	Subjective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of individuals
Data sources	The recommend data source are household income statistics based on administrative data and/or surveys. International sources include: European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC) survey
Frameworks	Eurostat Quality of Life Framework OECD How's Life?
More metadata	Eurostat's data is collected through the European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC) survey: EU statistics on income and living conditions (EU-SILC) methodology - economic strain Refer article on Ability to make ends meet becoming harder Access indicator data from Eurostat The OECD Well-being Database includes Eurostat data as well as additional data on difficulty making ends meet for non-European OECD member countries. Access indicator data from OECD

Short name	Financial insecurity (2.4)
Long name	Share of individuals with equivalised liquid financial assets below 3 months of the annual national relative income poverty line.
Dimension	Material living conditions
Definition	Financial insecurity, a measure of wealth deprivation, refers to the percentage of people who are not currently income-poor, but who have liquid financial wealth below three months of the annual national relative income poverty line. Liquid financial wealth includes cash, quoted shares, mutual funds and bonds net of liabilities. These people are considered as “financially insecure” as, in the event of a shock, their liquid financial wealth would be insufficient to support them at the level of the income poverty line for more than three months.
Use	To measure financial vulnerability by assessing the population's liquid financial reserves, monitor economic security, and inform policies aimed at enhancing financial stability and reducing economic inequalities.
Type	Objective or subjective based on self-assessments.
Unit of measurement	Percentage of Individuals
Data sources	The recommend data source are household income statistics based on administrative data and/or surveys. International sources include: OECD Guidelines for Micro Statistics on Household Wealth. The income concept used to compute this indicator follows as much as possible that used for reporting income poverty, i.e. household disposable income. However, for most countries, information on household disposable income is not available in the data sources used for the computation of wealth statistics; for this reason, the choice made here has been to rely on the concept of gross income (i.e. the total sum of wages and salaries, self-employment income, property income and current transfers received, all recorded before payment of taxes) when information on disposable income was not available.
Frameworks	OECD How's Life?
More metadata	OECD's data source: OECD Wealth Distribution Database . Reference document for further reading - OECD PROJECT ON THE DISTRIBUTION OF HOUSEHOLD WEALTH Access indicator data from OECD

Short name	Labour force participation rate (3.1)
Long name	Share of the working-age population that is either employed or actively seeking employment.
Dimension	Work and leisure
Definition	Labour force participation rate is the ratio between the total labour force divided by the total working-age population. The working age population refers to people aged 15 to 64. This indicator is measured as a percentage of each age group.
Use	The labour force participation rate indicator plays a central role in the study of the factors that determine the size and composition of a country's human resources and in making projections of the future supply of labour. The information is also used to formulate employment policies, to determine training needs and to calculate the expected working lives of the male and female populations and the rates of accession to, and retirement from, economic activity – crucial information for the financial planning of social security systems. The indicator is also useful for understanding the labour market behaviour of different segments of the population. The level and pattern of labour force participation depends on employment opportunities and the demand for income, which may differ from one category of persons to another.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Percentage (%)
Data sources	The Labour Force Participation Rate (LFPR) is usually measured through labour force surveys (LFSs) and population censuses, ensuring nationally representative data without geographic limitations. The Labour Force Survey (LFS) is the most widely used method, conducted periodically by national governments to collect data on employment status, unemployment, and economic activity. Additionally, population censuses provide comprehensive workforce estimates, though less frequently. International sources include ILO's ILOSTAT database and OECD's employment indicators.
Frameworks	ILOSTAT Labour Force Statistics framework OECD How's Life? (the OECD Well-being Database considers the employment rate of the adult population aged 25-64)
More metadata	https://ilostat ilo org/methods/concepts-and-definitions/description-labour-force-statistics/ Handbook on measuring quality of employment. A statistical framework Access indicator data from OECD Access indicator data from Eurostat

Short name	Unemployment (3.2)
Long name	Unemployment Rate: Share of the labour force that is jobless and actively seeking employment
Dimension	Work and leisure
Definition	Unemployment refers to the percentage of the labour force that is jobless and actively seeking employment. This includes individuals who are without work, available for work, and actively looking for a job during the reference period. It is a key indicator used to gauge labour market conditions and economic health. The OECD How's Life? framework uses long-term unemployment which is measured as the percentage of the labour force that has been unemployed for one year or more.
Use	To monitor the labour market, identify economic downturns, and guide employment policies.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of the labour force
Data sources	The primary source is the Labour Force Survey. Most LFSs follow ILO standards, defining unemployed individuals as those without work, actively seeking employment and available for work. OECD's How's Life? Framework focuses on long-term unemployment, while Eurostat's EU-LFS collects harmonized unemployment data across EU member states through household surveys. ILO compiles global data through ILOSTAT, ensuring a standardized approach to tracking labour market trends and employment policy effectiveness.
Frameworks	OECD How's Life? Eurostat Quality of Life Framework ILOSTAT Labour Force Statistics framework
More metadata	Eurostat's data is collected through the European Union Labour Force Survey (EU-LFS): https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/lfsa_esms.htm Handbook on measuring quality of employment. A statistical framework Access indicator data from Eurostat Access indicator data from OECD

Short name	Perceived job security (3.3)
Long name	Share of employed persons who state that they might lose their job in the following 6 months.
Dimension	Work and leisure
Definition	The proportion of employed individuals who report expecting a possible loss of their job within the next six months, based on self-reported survey responses.
Use	The indicator intends to capture the job security as perceived by the respondent. The information should be used to complement other indicators on security of employment, like job tenure or the percentage of employed persons with fixed-term contracts. Job security as perceived by the workers may not be closely related to the formal stability of their jobs. Only a combination of both types of indicators will provide a comprehensive picture regarding employment security
Type	Subjective
Unit of measurement	Percentage
Data sources	The Labour force survey is the recommended data source. Data on employed persons who indicate they might lose their job in the next six months shall be collected in household or population surveys. Since the respondent's own perception should be captured, establishment surveys or administrative data are not suitable to collect the information required for the indicator. In Europe, the European Working Conditions Survey 2010 (EWCS) provides data on self-perceived job security. The EWCS provides harmonised data for 34 European Countries. It should be noted that the sample size limits the possibilities for detailed analyses at the national level.
Frameworks	UNECE Measuring Quality of Employment
More metadata	Data on the source, reference period, population coverage and geographic coverage, the definition and operational definitions (item of questionnaire) of perceived job security. Handbook on measuring quality of employment. A statistical framework (refer page 200-202) Access indicator data from Eurostat

Short name	Job satisfaction (3.4)
Long name	Average satisfaction with the job on a scale from 0 (not at all satisfied) to 10 (completely satisfied)
Dimension	Work and leisure
Definition	Average job satisfaction refers to the mean score of individuals' self-reported satisfaction with their job, measured on a scale from 0 to 10, where 0 indicates "not at all satisfied" and 10 indicates "completely satisfied." This indicator reflects the overall contentment of workers with their job, encompassing various factors such as work environment, job responsibilities, relationships with colleagues, and compensation.
Use	To evaluate job satisfaction levels among workers, monitor workforce well-being, and inform policies aimed at improving workplace conditions and employee engagement.
Type	Subjective
Unit of measurement	Average rating on a scale of 0-10
Data sources	Labour force survey or working condition surveys are recommended. International sources include: Eurostat's European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC) survey, which collects self-reported job satisfaction with different aspects of their jobs such as work content, working conditions, work-life balance, pay and benefits, job security and relationships with colleagues and superiors across EU member states. Eurostat Quality of Life Framework and aligns with the Handbook on Measuring Quality of Employment to ensure statistical accuracy and comparability. Data is disaggregated by demographic and socio-economic factors to provide insights into workforce well-being.
Frameworks	Eurostat Quality of Life Framework OECD How's Life?
More metadata	Eurostat's data is collected through the European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC) survey: https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/ilc_sieusilc.htm Handbook on measuring quality of employment. A statistical framework Access indicator data from Eurostat

Short name	Long working hours (3.5)
Long name	Share of employed persons usually working 49 hours or more per week
Dimension	Work and leisure
Definition	Percentage of employees aged 15+ usually working 49 hours or more per week
Use	The indicator on long working hours provides information about the share of persons in employment whose hours usually worked exceed 48 hours per week. It is an indicator of exposure to overwork, i.e., persons having a working time that exceeds the threshold beyond which can have negative effects on workers not only on workers' health, but also on their safety (for instance increasing injury hazard rates) and on work-life balance. It is recommended to use at least a 48-hour threshold to construct the indicator to enhance international data comparability. The principle of the 8-hour day or the 48-hour week threshold was first adopted in ILO Convention No. 1 (Hours of Work (Industry) Convention, 1919) and later in Convention No. 30 (Hours of Work (Commerce and Offices) Convention, 1930). This threshold was referenced in 2008 in the Resolution concerning the measurement of working time. National thresholds used to define long working hours might complement the information provided for the indicator.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Percentage
Data sources	The LFS is the recommended data source, as it provides estimates of employed persons and allows disaggregation by, e.g., economic activity, age, and gender. The indicator follows the 48-hour workweek threshold, first established in ILO Conventions No. 1 (1919) and No. 30 (1930), and reaffirmed in the 2008 Resolution on measuring working time, to ensure international comparability. If an LFS is unavailable, other household surveys with employment modules may be used. The data aligns with the OECD "How's Life?" framework and is further detailed in Handbook on Measuring Quality of Employment (page 144). Comprehensive metadata includes information on data periodicity, series breaks, coverage, and thresholds.
Frameworks	UNECE Measuring Quality of Employment OECD How's Life? (the OECD Well-being Database considers a threshold of 50 hours a week)
More metadata	Handbook on measuring quality of employment. A statistical framework (Refer page 144-146) As a minimum, data on the source (periodicity, breaks in series, etc.), reference period, population coverage, job coverage (main job or all jobs), definition of hours threshold and geographic coverage should be provided. Access indicator data from OECD Access indicator data from Eurostat

Short name	Work injuries (3.6)
Long name	Share of employed population covered in the event of work injury.
Dimension	Work and leisure
Definition	The percentage of employed individuals who are covered by work injury insurance or equivalent social protection schemes that provide financial or medical support in the event of a workplace injury. Coverage typically includes compensation for lost income, medical expenses, and rehabilitation.
Use	To measure the extent of social protection coverage for workplace injuries, assess gender disparities in access to work injury benefits, and inform policies aimed at improving occupational safety and social security systems for workers.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Percentage
Data sources	The recommended sources are the LFS and administrative records. Social security agencies and workers' compensation institutions report official data on coverage, while some national labour force surveys capture self-reported work injury insurance status. Some countries include work injury coverage questions in household or labour force surveys to supplement administrative data. The ILO Social Protection Database and the UN SDG Database (Indicator 1.3.1). provides data and classification and definitions of fatal and non-fatal occupational injuries to facilitate international comparability.
Frameworks	Sustainable Development Goals
More metadata	Link to more metadata in SDG Database: https://unstats.un.org/sdgs/dataportal/SDMXMetadataPage?1.3.1-SI_COV_WKINJRY Handbook on measuring quality of employment. A statistical framework refers to “fatal and nonfatal occupational injuries” (page 59- 67) Access indicator data from SDG Database – SDG 1.3.1 UNSDG

Short name	Leisure time (3.7)
Long name	Time allocated to leisure and personal care, hours per day, people in full-time employment.
Dimension	Work and leisure
Definition	Time off is measured in hours per day for people in full-time employment. It includes personal care time (e.g., sleeping, eating, drinking, other personal care activities, and associated travel) and leisure time (e.g., sports, socializing, attending events, watching TV, listening to music, other leisure activities, and associated travel). Only main activities are recorded, which may underestimate leisure time, as it often overlaps with other tasks (e.g., talking on the phone while cooking). Data is collected through Time Use Surveys (TUS), where participants record their activities and durations over a 24-hour period.
Use	To assess work-life balance and the allocation of time for leisure and personal care among individuals in full-time employment, monitor disparities in time use, and inform policies aimed at promoting well-being and reducing work-related stress.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Hours per day
Data sources	The time allocated to leisure and personal care for people in full-time employment is measured using Time Use Surveys (TUS), which track how individuals allocate their daily hours. The main data sources include national statistical offices, OECD's "How's Life?" report, and CES (Conference of European Statisticians) recommendations on time-use data collection.
Frameworks	OECD How's Life? CES Recommendations (Guideline for Harmonizing Time-Use Surveys)
More metadata	OECD calculations based on public-use time use survey microdata when available; Eurostat's Harmonised European Time Use Surveys (database), https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/web/time-use-surveys; and estimates provided by NSOs. Access indicator data from OECD Handbook on measuring quality of employment. A statistical framework refer indicator "Weekend work (3b3) – page 164-165) Eurostat's data is collected through the European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC) survey: https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/ilc_sieusilc.htm Access indicator data from Eurostat

Short name	Satisfaction with leisure time (3.8)
Long name	Mean average satisfaction with time use on a 0-10 scale, with responses ranging from 0 (not at all satisfied) to 10 (completely satisfied)
Dimension	Work and leisure
Definition	The percentage of individuals reporting satisfaction with their time use refers to the proportion of people who express their satisfaction with how they allocate and manage their time. This is typically measured through a survey question where individuals rate their satisfaction on a scale such as "very satisfied," "satisfied," and "dissatisfied." The indicator reflects how well individuals believe they manage their time across various activities, including work, leisure, and personal commitments.
Use	To evaluate perceptions of time use, particularly leisure time, monitor well-being and work-life balance, and guide policies aimed at enhancing time management and access to leisure activities.
Type	Subjective
Unit of measurement	Country average rating on a scale of 0-10
Data sources	Recommended sources are household and social well-being surveys and Time Use Surveys. Data can be collected through structured interviews (face-to-face, telephone, or online). Respondents rate their satisfaction with time use on a Likert-scale (0-10) or categories such as very satisfied, satisfied, dissatisfied. International sources include OECD's How's Life? report, Eurostat's EU-SILC survey, global well-being studies such as the Gallup World Poll.
Frameworks	OECD How's Life? Eurostat Quality of Life Framework
More metadata	Eurostat's data is collected through the European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC) survey: The OECD Well-being Database includes Eurostat data as well as additional time use satisfaction estimates for non-European OECD member countries. Access indicator data from OECD Access indicator data from Eurostat

Short name	Informal care and household work (3.9)
Long name	Share of time spent on unpaid domestic chores and care work.
Dimension	Work and leisure
Definition	This indicator measures the proportion of time spent in a day on unpaid domestic and care work by men and women. Unpaid domestic and care work encompasses activities related to providing services for the personal use of household members or family members residing in other households. These activities are categorized under the major divisions "3. Unpaid domestic services for household and family members" and "4. Unpaid caregiving services for household and family members" in the International Classification of Activities for Time-Use Statistics 2016 (ICATUS 2016).
Use	To measure gender disparities in unpaid domestic and care work, monitor progress toward gender equality, and inform policies aimed at reducing the burden of unpaid work and promoting shared responsibility within households.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of time in a day
Data sources	Recommended sources are household surveys, LFS, social well-being surveys and Time Use Surveys. Data can be collected using time-use diaries and recall surveys, where respondents report daily activities based on ICATUS 2016 classifications for unpaid domestic and caregiving work. International sources include the OECD time use database, Eurostat Quality of Life Framework, and the SDG Database (Indicator 5.4.1).
Frameworks	OECD Time Use Database Eurostat Quality of Life Framework
More metadata	Link to more metadata in SDG Database: https://unstats.un.org/sdgs/dataportal/SDMXMetadataPage?5.4.1-SL_DOM_TSPD The indicator used in the Eurostat QoL Framework contains data on “Time spent in total work (paid and unpaid work as main or secondary activity) by sex and by form of work”, not distinguishing the type of activity. Access indicator data: Query for SDG 5.4.1. SDG Database Access indicator data from OECD

Short name	Satisfaction with housing (4.1)
Long name	Share of the population reporting satisfaction with their dwelling, categorized by levels of satisfaction.
Dimension	Housing
Definition	The percentage of the population reporting satisfaction with their dwelling, categorized by levels of satisfaction. It measures individuals' self-reported assessment of their housing conditions, considering factors such as space, comfort, amenities, and overall living environment. Responses are typically categorized into various levels of satisfaction, ranging from very dissatisfied to very satisfied.
Use	To assess public satisfaction with housing quality, monitor living standards, and inform policies aimed at improving housing conditions and accessibility.
Type	Subjective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of population (16 years and over)
Data sources	The recommend data sources are household surveys or targeted well-being surveys by including questions on respondents' satisfaction with their current dwelling. International sources include: The European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC) survey is assessing the percentage of the population reporting satisfaction with their dwelling across EU Member States and associated countries.
Frameworks	Eurostat Quality of Life Framework
More metadata	Eurostat's data is collected through the European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC) survey: https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/ilc_sieusilc.htm Access indicator data from Eurostat

Short name	Population living in a dwelling with major deficiencies (4.2)
Long name	Share of the total population living in dwellings with major deficiencies
Dimension	Housing
Definition	This indicator refers to the percentage of the population living in dwellings that have major deficiencies, such as a leaking roof, damp walls, floors or foundation, or rot in window frames or floors. These conditions reflect significant issues related to the quality and habitability of housing, potentially affecting residents' health and well-being. Data is typically collected through household surveys or housing quality assessments.
Use	To evaluate housing quality, identify populations living in substandard conditions, and inform policies aimed at improving housing standards and addressing deficiencies.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of population
Data sources	The recommend data sources are household surveys and administrative registers. International sources include: The European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC) survey is measuring the percentage of the total population living in dwellings with major deficiencies.
Frameworks	Eurostat Quality of Life Framework CES Recommendations for the Census of population and Housing
More metadata	Eurostat's data is collected through the European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC) survey: https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/ilc_sieusilc.htm Access indicator data from Eurostat

Short name	Overcrowding (4.3)
Long name	Share of households living in overcrowded conditions
Dimension	Housing
Definition	The overcrowding rate (the percentage of households living in overcrowded conditions) follows the EU-agreed definition, which considers the space requirements based on the age and gender composition of the household. A household is considered overcrowded if there is less than one room available per person, according to the following criteria: one room for each couple, each single person aged 18 or older, each pair of people of the same gender aged 12 to 17, each single person aged 12 to 17 not included in the previous category, and each pair of children under age 12.
Use	To assess housing adequacy, monitor living conditions, and inform policies aimed at improving housing conditions.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of households
Data sources	The recommend data source is household survey and administrative registers, leveraging international frameworks as outlined below: OECD Affordable Housing Database: provides data on housing conditions, including overcrowding rates. This database offers information from national household surveys and censuses across OECD member countries. The data are harmonized to ensure comparability and are used to monitor access to quality housing and support policy evaluations. European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC): data on overcrowding are collected through the EU-SILC survey. The survey employs a standardized methodology to ensure data comparability between countries. Multiple Indicator Cluster Surveys (MICS): Implemented by UNICEF and NSO, MICS collects data on various health and population metrics, including housing conditions. These surveys often gather information on the number of household members and the number of rooms used for sleeping, allowing for the calculation of overcrowding indicators.
Frameworks	OECD How's Life? Eurostat Quality of Life Framework
More metadata	Access indicator data from OECD Eurostat's data is collected through the European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC) survey: https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/ilc_sieusilc.htm Access indicator data from links below: Eurostat

Short name	Housing affordability (4.4)
Long name	Share of housing cost in household adjusted disposable income.
Dimension	Housing
Definition	Housing affordability refers to the percentage of household adjusted disposable income required to cover housing costs. Housing costs include rent (including imputed rentals for housing held by owner-occupiers) and maintenance (expenditure on the repair of the dwelling, including miscellaneous services, water supply, electricity, gas and other fuels, as well as expenditure on furniture, furnishings, household equipment and goods and services for routine home maintenance).
Use	To evaluating housing affordability and understanding the financial well-being of households,
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Percentage
Data sources	Household income statistics, household surveys and national accounts. Data on housing affordability are available from the OECD National Accounts database.
Frameworks	OECD How's Life? CES Recommendations for the 2020 Censuses of Population and Housing
More metadata	Access indicator data from OECD and Eurostat

Short name	Housing cost overburden (4.5)
Long name	Share of households in the bottom 40% of the income distribution spending more than 40% of their disposable income on housing costs
Dimension	Housing
Definition	Housing cost overburden refers to the percentage of households in the bottom 40% of the income distribution that spend more than 40% of their disposable income on housing costs. This threshold is based on the methodology used by Eurostat for EU member countries. Housing costs include actual rents and mortgage payments (both principal repayment and interest), but exclude imputed rents for owner-occupied homes, unlike the housing affordability measure sourced from National Accounts.
Use	To measure housing cost overburden among low-income households, monitor affordability challenges, and guide policies aimed at improving housing accessibility and reducing financial strain on vulnerable populations.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of households in the bottom 40% of the income distribution.
Data sources	Recommend data sources are household surveys, administrative registers and national accounts. International sources include: OECD Affordable Housing Database (AHD): The AHD compiles cross-national information to assist countries in monitoring access to quality affordable housing and to strengthen the knowledge base for policy evaluation. It aggregates data from various national household surveys and administrative records, providing insights into housing affordability, conditions, and public policies across OECD member countries. European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC): The survey serves as a primary source for assessing housing cost overburden among low-income households in Europe.
Frameworks	OECD How's Life? EU Quality of Life Framework
More metadata	Access indicator data from OECD Eurostat's data is collected through the European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC) survey: https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/ilc_sieusilc.htm Access indicator data from Eurostat

Short name	Satisfaction with own neighbourhood (4.6)
Long name	Share of the population reporting satisfaction with their neighbourhood, categorized by levels of satisfaction
Dimension	Housing
Definition	The percentage of the population reporting satisfaction with their neighbourhood, categorized by levels of satisfaction. This indicator reflects individuals' subjective assessment of their living environment, including factors such as safety, access to amenities, social cohesion, and the overall quality of life in their neighbourhood. Responses are typically categorized into various satisfaction levels, ranging from very dissatisfied to very satisfied.
Use	To assess public perceptions of their local environment, monitor quality of life and urban planning outcomes, and inform policies aimed at improving neighbourhood conditions and community well-being.
Type	Subjective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of population (16 years and over)
Data sources	The recommend data source is household surveys or similar. International sources include Eurostat Urban Audit Perception Survey. This survey gathers subjective assessments from residents across European cities.
Frameworks	N/A
More metadata	Link to more metadata from Eurostat: https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/urb_esms.htm Access indicator data from Eurostat

Short name	Energy poverty (4.7)
Long name	Share of households reporting they cannot afford to keep their dwelling adequately warm.
Dimension	Housing
Definition	Energy poverty refers to the percentage of households reporting an inability to afford keeping their home adequately warm. The question is typically asked to the household reference person, and the data is available at the household level only.
Use	To measure the prevalence of energy poverty, monitor social and economic inequalities, and inform policies aimed at improving energy affordability and access for vulnerable populations.
Type	Subjective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of households
Data sources	Recommended data sources are household surveys. International sources include the European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC) survey.
Frameworks	OECD How's Life?
More metadata	Link to more metadata from Eurostat: https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/sdg_07_60_esmsip2.htm Access indicator data from Eurostat

Short name	Life expectancy (5.1)
Long name	Average number of years a person is expected to live from birth, assuming current age-specific mortality rates
Dimension	Health
Definition	Life expectancy at birth is a summary measure of mortality rates, representing the number of years a newborn is expected to live based on the current age-specific death rates. It provides an estimate of the average lifespan for a given cohort, recognizing that the actual age-specific death rates for that cohort cannot be determined in advance.
Use	To measure overall population health and longevity, monitor trends in mortality, and inform policies aimed at improving healthcare systems and addressing health inequalities.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Years (calculated as a mean average of country)
Data sources	The recommend data source is household survey and administrative records, leveraging international frameworks as outlined below: EU-SILC survey OECD Life expectancy database.
Frameworks	OECD How's Life? Eurostat Quality of Life Framework
More metadata	Link to more metadata from Eurostat: https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/demo_mor_esms.htm Access indicator data from Eurostat Access indicator data from OECD

Short name	Perceived health (5.2)
Long name	Share of the population 16 years or over reporting “good” or “very good” health
Dimension	Health
Definition	Perceived health reflects individuals' self-assessed overall health status. It is commonly expressed as the percentage of adults reporting "good" or "very good" health. The data are collected through general household surveys or detailed health interviews, typically using questions like: "How is your health in general?" with responses often categorized as "very good," "good," "fair," or "poor." Some countries outside Europe (e.g., Australia, Canada, Chile, Israel, New Zealand, the United States) use different response scales, which may cause upward bias in estimates. In the OECD Health Status database, responses are standardized into three categories: "good/very good" (positive responses), "fair" (neutral), and "bad/very bad" (negative). Respondents are generally aged 16 or older, though the specific age range varies between countries.
Use	To measure overall population health and longevity, monitor trends in mortality, and inform policies aimed at improving healthcare systems and addressing health inequalities.
Type	Subjective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of the population (16 years and over)
Data sources	The recommend data sources are household surveys or targeted health surveys. In some countries, the Ministry of Health may be able to provide data. International sources include the EU-SILC survey.
Frameworks	OECD How's Life? Eurostat Quality of Life Framework
More metadata	Eurostat's data is collected through the European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC) survey: https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/hlth_silc_01_esms.htm Access indicator data from Eurostat The OECD Well-being Database includes Eurostat data and additional data on perceived health for non-European OECD member countries. Access indicator data from OECD

Short name	Overweight population (5.3)
Long name	Share of the population classified as overweight (BMI equal to or greater than 25)
Dimension	Health
Definition	The percentage of the population classified as overweight, based on a Body Mass Index (BMI) of 25 or greater, which includes both pre-obese and obese categories. This indicator reflects the proportion of individuals with a BMI that exceeds the threshold for a healthy weight, and it is commonly used to assess the prevalence of overweight and obesity in a population. Data is typically collected through health surveys “self-reported” or in some countries, data also collected through measurements.
Use	To monitor the prevalence of overweight individuals, evaluate public health risks associated with excess weight, and inform policies aimed at promoting healthy lifestyles and reducing obesity-related health issues.
Type	Objective - Standardized measurement (though data is self-reported)
Unit of measurement	Percentage of the population
Data sources	The recommend data sources are household surveys or targeted health surveys. In some countries, the Ministry of Health may be able to provide data. The “European Health Interview Survey (EHIS)” measures population aged 15 years and over. The last survey (wave) conducted was in 2019. In the European Health Interview Survey (page 81), participants are asked to self-report their height and weight using the following questions: 1. Height Without Shoes: "How tall are you without shoes?" 2. Weight Without Clothes and Shoes: "How much do you weigh without clothes and shoes?" These self-reported measurements are used to calculate the Body Mass Index (BMI) for each participant.
Frameworks	OECD How’s Life? (the OECD Well-being Database considers obesity prevalence, which is defined as a BMI of 30 and above) Eurostat Quality of Life Framework
More metadata	Eurostat’s data is collected through the European Health Interview Survey (EHIS): https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/hlth_det_esms.htm Access indicator data from Eurostat European Health Interview Survey (page 81)

Short name	Population with severe long-standing limitations due to health problems (5.4)
Long name	Share of the population reporting severe long-standing limitations in usual activities due to health problems
Dimension	Health
Definition	The percentage of the population reporting severe long-standing limitations in their usual daily activities due to health problems. This indicator reflects self-reported limitations that are both significant in intensity and persist over an extended period, providing insight into the prevalence of severe functional impairments and long-term health challenges within the population.
Use	To measure the prevalence of severe health-related limitations, monitor trends in disability, and inform policies to improve healthcare access and social inclusion.
Type	Subjective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of population
Data sources	The recommend data sources are household surveys or targeted health surveys. In some countries, the Ministry of Health may be able to provide data. International sources include the European Health Interview Survey and the EU SILC.
Frameworks	Eurostat Quality of Life Framework
More metadata	Eurostat's data is collected through the European Health Interview Survey (EHIS): Access indicator data from Eurostat

Short name	Deaths from suicide, alcohol abuse and drug overdose (5.5)
Long name	Combined deaths from suicide, alcohol abuse and drug overdose per 100,000 population (age-standardised based on the 2015 OECD population structure)
Dimension	Health
Definition	Suicide, alcohol- and drug-related deaths measure severe mental illness and addiction, reported as combined deaths from suicides, alcohol, and drug abuse per 100,000 population (standardized to a given year). Data are derived from official death registries via the WHO Mortality Database and OECD population statistics. The indicator is calculated using ICD-10 codes covering intentional self-harm, substance abuse disorders, and alcohol-related diseases (for a list of the ICD-10 codes see https://www.oecd.org/content/dam/oecd/en/topics/policy-sub-issues/measuring-well-being-and-progress/oecd-well-being-database-definitions.pdf)
Use	To monitor mortality rates associated with preventable and socially driven causes, assess the effectiveness of mental health and substance abuse interventions, and inform policies aimed at reducing deaths from suicide, alcohol abuse, and drug overdose.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Rate per 100,000 population
Data sources	The recommend data sources are household surveys or targeted health surveys. In some countries, the Ministry of Health may be able to provide data. International sources include the OECD How's Life? Well-being Database
Frameworks	OECD How's Life?
More metadata	Access indicator data from OECD

Short name	People who experience symptoms of anxiety or depression (5.6)
Long name	Share of the population aged 15 years and over reporting depressive symptoms or symptoms of generalized anxiety in the past two weeks.
Dimension	Health
Definition	The percentage of the population aged 15 years and over who self-report experiencing depressive symptoms or symptoms of generalized anxiety, two of the most common mental health disorders. In line with the Diagnostic and Statistical Manual of Mental Disorders (DSM-IV), depressive symptoms relate to little interest or pleasure in doing things; feeling down, depressed or hopeless; trouble falling or staying asleep, or sleeping too much; feeling tired or having little energy; poor appetite or overeating; feeling bad about yourself or that you are a failure or have let yourself or your family down; trouble concentrating on things, such as reading the newspaper or watching television; moving or speaking so slowly that other people could have noticed, or being restless; and symptoms of generalised anxiety related to excessive worry, restlessness and irritability over the past two weeks.. These indicators are typically derived from self-reported data collected through EHIS - reflects the prevalence of mental health conditions within the population (EHIS_2020 - Page 52.). The recommended validated instruments are the Patient Health Questionnaire (PHQ-4 or 8) and the Generalised Anxiety Disorder (G2 or G7) instrument.
Use	Helps monitor mental health trends, inform public health strategies, and guide resource allocation for mental health services and interventions.
Type	Subjective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of population (15 years and over)
Data sources	The recommend data sources are household surveys or targeted health surveys. In some countries, the Ministry of Health may be able to provide data. International sources include:: - European Health Interview Survey (EHIS) (database) - National Statistical Offices.
Frameworks	OECD How's Life? Eurostat Quality of Life Framework
More metadata	OECD Measuring Population Mental Health Eurostat's data for depressive symptoms is collected through the European Health Interview Survey (EHIS): https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/hlth_det_esms.htm Access indicator data (depressive symptoms available now, symptoms of generalised anxiety will be added to the next EHIS eave) from Eurostat European health_interview_survey_2020 (Page 52) ?

Short name	Avoidable (or premature) mortality (5.7)
Long name	Potential years of life lost (PYLL) due to medical conditions and fatal accidents, per 100,000 population (age-standardized).
Dimension	Health
Definition	Premature mortality, measured as years of potential life lost (PYLL) due to various medical conditions and fatal accidents per 100,000 population, refers to deaths occurring before the age of 75. The indicator is calculated by subtracting 75 (the selected age threshold for premature mortality in OECD calculations) from the actual age of death for each individual, multiplying this by the number of deaths at each age, and summing these values across all age groups. This approach assigns greater weight to deaths at younger ages; for example, an infant dying at age 1 contributes 74 PYLL (75 – 1), while a person dying at age 74 contributes 1 PYLL (75 – 74). The indicator is age-standardized to account for differences in population age structures across OECD countries, ensuring that countries with the same age-specific death rates but a younger population structure are not unfairly reported with higher scores.
Use	To measure premature mortality by quantifying the years of potential life lost due to specific causes of death, evaluate public health outcomes, and inform policies aimed at reducing preventable deaths and improving life expectancy.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Country average (years per 100,000 persons)
Data sources	The recommend data source is administrative records, leveraging existing frameworks, e.g.,: OECD Health Statistics. This repository provides detailed information on health status, including mortality rates and Potential Years of Life Lost (PYLL). The data is collected from national statistical agencies and health ministries of OECD member countries.
Frameworks	OECD How's Life?
More metadata	Access the indicator data from OECD

Short name	Secondary educational attainment (6.1)
Long name	Share of the population aged 25-34 who have completed at least upper secondary education.
Dimension	Knowledge and skills
Definition	Educational attainment among young adults is defined as the percentage of individuals aged 25 to 34 who have completed at least upper secondary education. Upper secondary education is classified according to the International Standard Classification of Education (ISCED) as level 3 or higher. This encompasses both general programs designed to prepare students for higher education and vocational education and training (VET) programs.
Use	To assess educational attainment levels within the population, monitor progress in formal education, and guide policies aimed at improving access to and completion of secondary education.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of individuals in the target age group (25-34 years)
Data sources	The recommend data sources are household surveys and administrative records, leveraging existing framework as outlined below: OECD Educational Attainment and Labour Force Database: Data are gathered from national statistical agencies and other relevant authorities within each country. The database is part of the OECD's Indicators of Education Systems (INES) program. European Union Labour Force Survey (EU-LFS): The survey collects information through interviews with individuals in private households, covering topics such as employment status, occupation, working hours, and educational attainment. The EU-LFS follows standardized definitions and classifications to ensure comparability across countries and over time.
Frameworks	OECD How's Life?) Eurostat Quality of Life Framework
More metadata	Access indicator data from OECD. Eurostat's data is collected through the European Union Labour Force Survey (EU-LFS): https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/trng_lfs_4w_esms.htm Access indicator data from Eurostat

Short name	Youth not in employment, education or training (6.2)
Long name	Share of youth (aged 15-24) not in employment, education or training (NEET).
Dimension	Knowledge and skills
Definition	Youth not in employment, education or training (NEET) refers to the number of youth (i.e. people aged 15-24) who are not in employment, education or training, as a percentage of the population of the same age. This indicator identifies young people who are disengaged from both the labour market and educational opportunities, reflecting potential challenges in transitioning to employment or further education. It is typically calculated as the share of the total youth population within this age group.
Use	To measure the proportion of young people disengaged from both the labour market and education systems, identify vulnerable groups, and inform policies aimed at promoting youth employment, education, and skills development.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of youth (15-24 years)
Data sources	The recommend data sources are household surveys and administrative registers. International sources include the Database compiled by OECD Labour Market and Social Outcomes of Learning Network through an annual questionnaire that draw on National LFSs.
Frameworks	OECD How's Life? Eurostat Quality of Life s framework
More metadata	Link to ILO's Labour Force Statistics descriptions: https://ilostat ilo.org/methods/concepts-and-definitions/description-labour-force-statistics/ Eurostat's data is collected through the European Union Labour Force Survey (EU-LFS): https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/trng_lfs_4w_esms.htm Access indicator data from OECD Access indicator data from ILOSTAT Access indicator data from Eurostat

Short name	Lifelong learning (6.3)
Long name	Share of individuals participating in formal or non-formal education and training within the last 4 weeks
Dimension	Knowledge and skills
Definition	The proportion of individuals who have participated in formal or non-formal education and training activities within the last four weeks. Formal education refers to structured learning programs provided by schools, universities, or other accredited institutions, leading to recognized qualifications. Non-formal education includes organized learning activities outside the formal education system, such as workshops, courses, or vocational training, which may not lead to formal certification. This indicator is typically measured through self-reported survey data.
Use	To monitor participation in lifelong learning, evaluate access to education and training opportunities, and inform policies aimed at improving skills development and workforce adaptability.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of individuals in the target population (18-64 years)
Data sources	The recommended data sources are household surveys and administrative registers, leveraging the existing framework as outlined below: EU Labour Force Survey (EU-LFS), which utilizes to measure participation in formal and non-formal education and training. The EU-LFS collects data on individuals aged 25 to 64 who have engaged in such educational activities within the last 4 weeks. CES recommendations - Adhere to the Classifications of Learning Activities (CLA) and ISCED frameworks, CES aims to standardize the measurement of educational participation, facilitating the analysis and comparison of lifelong learning trends across Europe.
Frameworks	Eurostat Quality of Life Framework CES Recommendations (Classification of learning Activities)
More metadata	Eurostat's data is collected through the European Union Labour Force Survey (EU-LFS): https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/trng_lfs_4w_esms.htm Access indicator data from Eurostat

Short name	Skills in reading (6.4)
Long name	Mean performance on the PISA reading scale for 15-year-old students
Dimension	Knowledge and skills
Definition	The mean performance on the PISA (Programme for International Student Assessment) reading scale for 15-year-old students measures their ability to comprehend, interpret, and use written texts to achieve goals, develop knowledge, and participate in society. PISA assessments are conducted every three years and focus on one of three subjects—reading, mathematics, or science—on a rotating basis. The scores are standardized, with an initial OECD average of 500 points and a standard deviation of 100 points, though the OECD average may vary in subsequent years. Since PISA assessments are school-based, they reflect the cognitive abilities of 15-year-olds currently enrolled in school, excluding those who have dropped out or are home-schooled.
Use	To assess students' reading comprehension and literacy skills, evaluate the quality of education systems, and inform policies aimed at enhancing language proficiency and critical reading abilities.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Mean score (country)
Data sources	The recommend data source is household/facility surveys, administrative registers, as well as national and international competency tests, leveraging existing framework as outlined below: International comparability: Programme for international student assessment (PISA), conducted by OECD every three years, with the focal subject cycling between mathematics, reading and science. National focus: National Standardized Assessments: Many countries conduct their own large-scale standardized tests to assess student learning at different education levels. These assessments vary in structure, frequency, and subjects covered but are crucial for evaluating national education policies and student achievement. Examples include <i>National Assessment of Educational Progress (NAEP) of United States</i>, <i>Key Stage Assessments (SATs)</i>.
Frameworks	OECD How's Life?
More metadata	Access indicator data from OECD

Short name	Skills in mathematics (6.5)
Long name	Mean performance on the PISA mathematics scale for 15-year-old students
Dimension	Knowledge and skills
Definition	The mean performance on the PISA (Programme for International Student Assessment) mathematics scale for 15-year-old students measures their ability to understand and apply mathematical concepts, skills, and reasoning to solve real-world problems. PISA assessments are conducted every three years and focus on one of three subjects—mathematics, science, or reading—on a rotating basis. The scores are standardized, with an initial OECD average of 500 points and a standard deviation of 100 points, though the OECD average may vary in subsequent years. Since PISA assessments are school-based, they reflect the cognitive abilities of 15-year-olds currently enrolled in school, excluding those who have dropped out or are home-schooled.
Use	To assess students' mathematical literacy and problem-solving abilities, evaluate the quality of education systems, and guide policies to improve mathematics education and quantitative reasoning skills.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Mean score (country)
Data sources	Recommend data source are household/facility surveys, administrative records, as well as national and international competency tests, leveraging existing framework as outlined below: International comparability: Programme for international student assessment (PISA), conducted by OECD every three years, with the focal subject cycling between mathematics, reading and science. National focus: National Standardized Assessments: Many countries conduct their own large-scale standardized tests to assess student learning at different education levels. These assessments vary in structure, frequency, and subjects covered but are crucial for evaluating national education policies and student achievement. Examples include <i>National Assessment of Educational Progress (NAEP) of United States</i>, <i>Key Stage Assessments (SATs)</i>.
Frameworks	OECD How's Life?
More metadata	Access indicator data from OECD

Short name	Skills in science (6.6)
Long name	Mean performance on the PISA science scale for 15-year-old students
Dimension	Knowledge and skills
Definition	The mean performance on the PISA (Programme for International Student Assessment) science scale for 15-year-old students measures their ability to apply scientific knowledge and skills to solve real-world problems and interpret scientific phenomena. PISA assessments are conducted every three years and focus on one of three subjects—science, mathematics, or reading—on a rotating basis. The scores are standardized, with an initial OECD average of 500 points and a standard deviation of 100 points, though the OECD average may vary in subsequent years. Since PISA assessments are school-based, they capture the cognitive abilities of 15-year-olds currently enrolled in school, excluding those who have dropped out or are home-schooled.
Use	To assess students' scientific literacy and problem-solving abilities, evaluate the quality of education systems, and inform policies to enhance science education and foster innovation skills.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Mean score (country)
Data sources	The recommend data source is household/facility surveys, administrative registers, as well as national and international competency tests, leveraging existing framework as outlined below: International comparability: Programme for international student assessment (PISA), conducted by OECD every three years, with the focal subject cycling between mathematics, reading and science. National focus: National Standardized Assessments: Many countries conduct their own large-scale standardized tests to assess student learning at different education levels. These assessments vary in structure, frequency, and subjects covered but are crucial for evaluating national education policies and student achievement. Examples include <i>National Assessment of Educational Progress (NAEP) of United States</i>, <i>Key Stage Assessments (SATs)</i>.
Frameworks	OECD How's Life?
More metadata	Access indicator data from OECD

Short name	Digital skills (6.7)
Long name	Share of young and adults with information and communication technology skills including digital competency for performing specific tasks
Dimension	Knowledge and skills
Definition	As per the SDG definition, the proportion of youth and adults with Information and Communications Technology (ICT) skills, categorized by type of skill, is defined as the percentage of individuals who have engaged in specific ICT-related activities within the past three months. From 2023, the percentage of individuals with basic or above-basic ICT skills, broken down by skill area, can also be measured. Eurostat breaks down digital skills according to competency levels, rather than focusing solely on specific ICT-related activities, offering detailed insights into overall digital competency.
Use	To assess the population's digital competencies, monitor progress in digital inclusion and guide ICT policies.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of individuals, categorized by level of digital skills
Data sources	Recommend data source are household surveys and administrative registers, leveraging existing framework as outlined below: The EU Survey on use of ICT in households and by individuals evaluates digital competencies, including information management, communication, problem-solving, and content creation. Respondents are grouped into different levels of digital skills based on their proficiency in these areas. SDG database: The UNESCO Institute for Statistics (UIS) and the International Telecommunication Union (ITU) are responsible for compiling data for SDG Indicator 4.4.1, which aligns with this digital skills indicator.
Frameworks	Eurostat Quality of Life Framework Sustainable Development Goals
More metadata	Link to more metadata in SDG Database: https://unstats.un.org/sdgs/dataportal/SDMXMetadataPage?4.4.1-SE_ADT_ACTS Link to metadata from Eurostat: https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/isoc_sk_dskl_i21_esm sip2.htm ITU's ICT indicators framework tracks how ICT contributes to the SDGs. Focus areas include ICT access, use, affordability, skills and gender equality. Data is collected annually from member states to inform progress on SDGs and guide policy. Additional information from International Telecommunication Union (ITU). Access indicator from these links: • Eurostat and SDG Database (SDG 4.4.1)

Short name	Crime rate (7.1)
Long name	Number of police-recorded offences by offence category per 100,000 inhabitants
Dimension	Physical Safety
Definition	The number of criminal offences recorded by the police, categorized by type of offence (e.g., theft, assault, drug-related offences), calculated as a rate per 100,000 inhabitants, within a specific geographic area and time period, typically a calendar year.
Use	To monitor trends in criminal activity, evaluate law enforcement effectiveness, and inform policy development and resource allocation for crime prevention and public safety.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Rate per 100,000 inhabitants
Data sources	Recommended source are administrative registers Eurostat and the United Nations Office on Drugs and Crime (UNODC) compiles crime statistics using International Classification of Crime for Statistical Purposes (ICCS) from national administrative sources across EU Member States, EFTA countries, and EU candidate countries. The data are derived from various stages of the criminal justice system, including: • Police: Data on recorded offences, victims, and suspects. • Prosecution Services: Information on prosecuted individuals. • Courts: Records of convicted and acquitted persons, as well as the number of legal cases processed. • Prison Departments: Statistics on prisoners and prison capacity. • All Departments: Data on personnel involved in the criminal justice system.
Frameworks	International Classification of Crime for Statistical Purposes (ICCS)
More metadata	Link to more metadata from Eurostat: https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/crim_sims.htm Access indicator data from Eurostat

Short name	Victimization rate (7.2)
Long name	Share of households reporting crime, violence, or vandalism in the area
Dimension	Physical Safety
Definition	The percentage of households that report experiencing or perceiving issues related to crime, violence, or vandalism in their local area, based on self-reported survey responses.
Use	To assess community perceptions of safety, monitor the social impact of crime and vandalism, and guide policies aimed at improving neighbourhood security and quality of life.
Type	Subjective
Unit of measurement	Percentage
Data sources	The recommended data source is household survey. The EU-SILC survey includes a specific variable (HS190) that captures respondents' perceptions of crime, violence, or vandalism in their area. Respondents indicate whether these issues are considered a problem in their local environment.
Frameworks	Eurostat Quality of Life Framework
More metadata	Eurostat's data is collected through the European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC) survey: https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/ilc_sieusilc.htm Access indicator data from Eurostat

Short name	Homicide rate (7.3)
Long name	Number of intentional homicides per 100,000 population
Dimension	Physical Safety
Definition	Homicides are defined as deaths resulting from assault, measured as a rate per 100,000 population.
Use	To monitor levels of violent crime, assess the effectiveness of public safety and justice systems, and guide policies aimed at reducing violence and ensuring public safety.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Rate per 100,000 population (country)
Data sources	Administrative registers, where deaths are medically certified and classified according to causes. These data are compiled by national authorities and subsequently aggregated by international organizations to facilitate global comparisons. Two organizations who collect data are: World Health Organization (WHO): collects mortality data from member states' civil registration systems, focusing on medically certified causes of death. This information is used to compile global health statistics, including homicide rates. United Nations Office on Drugs and Crime (UNODC): compiles homicide statistics from criminal justice data sources, providing insights into global and regional homicide trends.
Frameworks	OECD How's Life? Eurostat Quality of Life Framework Sustainable Development Goals
More metadata	Link to more metadata in SDG Database: https://unstats.un.org/sdgs/dataportal/SDMXMetadataPage?16.1.1-VC_IHR_PSRC Access indicator data from • Eurostat • SDG Database (SDG 16.1.1)OECD

Short name	Sexual violence (7.4)
Long name	Share of population subjected to sexual violence in the previous 12 months.
Dimension	Physical Safety
Definition	The percentage of the population who have experienced sexual violence within the previous 12 months. As defined by the International Classification of Crime for Statistical Purposes (ICCS), sexual violence encompasses unwanted sexual acts or attempts to obtain a sexual act without valid consent or with consent obtained through intimidation, force, fraud, coercion, threat, deception, use of drugs or alcohol, or abuse of power or vulnerability. This includes rape and other forms of sexual assault but excludes non-physical sexual assault (e.g., sexual harassment). Such acts may be committed by casual partners, acquaintances, strangers, or within formalized intimate partnerships, including marriages.
Use	To measure the prevalence of sexual violence, monitor trends over time, and inform policies and programs aimed at prevention, victim support, and justice for survivors.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of population
Data sources	National Crime Victimization surveys that inquire about respondents' experiences with different types of violence, including sexual violence, over the past 12 months. The surveys should adhere to definitions provided by the International Classification of Crime for Statistical Purposes (ICCS) ensuring consistency in what constitutes sexual violence across different contexts.
Frameworks	Sustainable Development Goals
More metadata	Link to more metadata in SDG Database: https://unstats.un.org/sdgs/dataportal/SDMXMetadataPage?16.1.3-VC_VOV_SEXL Access indicator data from SDG Database (SDG 16.1.3)

Short name	Feeling safe in the area where they live (7.5)
Long name	Share of people declaring that they feel safe when walking alone at night in the city or area where they live.
Dimension	Physical Safety
Definition	Feelings safe at night is measured by the percentage of people answering "yes" to a (yes/no) question: "Do you feel safe walking alone at night in the city or area where you live?".
Use	To assess perceptions of personal safety, monitor community well-being, and guide policies aimed at improving security and reducing fear of crime in residential areas.
Type	Subjective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of population (country average)
Data sources	Household surveys or targeted surveys. International sources include: Gallup World Poll, SDG Global Database (16.1.4) and OECD's "How's Life?" reports and accompanying databases. For this indicator, the OECD sources data from Gallup World Poll: https://gallup.com/analytics/232838/world-poll.aspx .
Frameworks	OECD How's Life? Sustainable Development Goals
More metadata	Link to more metadata in SDG Database: https://unstats.un.org/sdgs/dataportal/SDMXMetadataPage?16.1.4-VC_SNS_WALN_DRK Access indicator data from links below: • SDG Database (SDG 16.1.4) • OECD

Short name	Road fatalities (7.6)
Long name	Road deaths, rate per 100,000 population
Dimension	Physical Safety
Definition	Road deaths (rate per 100 000 population) refer to persons killed immediately or dying within 30 days because of a road accident, excluding suicides.
Use	To monitor road safety, evaluate the effectiveness of traffic safety measures, and inform policies aimed at reducing road traffic fatalities and improving transportation systems.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Rate per 100,000 population
Data sources	Administrative registers. International sources include: European Commission - Directorate-General for Mobility and Transport (MOVE): This body supplies data to Eurostat, offering insights into road traffic deaths across European countries. Sustainable Development Goals (SDGs), particularly SDG 3.6.1, which focuses on reducing road traffic injuries and deaths. Further metadata and country-specific data can be accessed through the SDG Global Database.
Frameworks	OECD How's Life? Sustainable Development Goals
More metadata	Eurostat's data source: European Commission - Directorate-General for Mobility and Transport (MOVE). Link to more metadata in SDG Database: https://unstats.un.org/sdgs/dataportal/SDMXMetadataPage?3.6.1-SH_STA_TRAF Access indicator data from links below: • Eurostat • SDG Database (SDG 3.6.1) • OECD

Short name	Frequency of social contacts (8.1)
Long name	Share of the population having contact with family (relatives) or friends, by frequency of contact
Dimension	Social connections
Definition	The percentage of the population who report having contact with family and friends, categorized by the frequency of contact (e.g., daily, weekly, monthly, or less often).
Use	To monitor the frequency of social interactions, evaluate social connectedness, and inform policies aimed at reducing social isolation and fostering stronger community ties.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of population
Data sources	Household surveys or Time Use Surveys. Administrative registers may collect information about social support services, which may indicate levels of contact with family or friends. International sources include EU-SILC and the European Social Survey (ESS).
Frameworks	CES Recommendations – guidelines on producing leading, composite and sentiment indicators Eurostat Quality of Life Framework OECD How's Life? (the OECD Well-being Database considers the time spent interacting with friends and family as primary activity, hours per week which is drawn from time use surveys)
More metadata	Eurostat's data is collected through the European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC) survey: https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/ilc_sieusilc.htm Access indicator data on self-reported frequency of contacts from Eurostat Access indicator data on time spent in social interactions in hours from OECD

Short name	Having someone to rely on (8.2)
Long name	Share of people who report having friends or relatives whom they can count in time of trouble (social support)
Dimension	Social connections
Definition	Social support is measured by the percentage of people answering "yes" to a (yes/no) question: "If you were in trouble, do you have relatives or friends you can count on to help you whenever you need them, or not?".
Use	To measure social support networks, assess community resilience, and inform policies aimed at strengthening social cohesion and individual well-being.
Type	Subjective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of population aged 15 year or over
Data sources	Household surveys or social surveys. International sources include the Gallup World Poll , the OECD (which draws on the Gallup World Poll) and the upcoming OECD measurement guidance on social connectedness.
Frameworks	OECD How's Life? Eurostat Quality of Life Framework
More metadata	Access indicator data from OECD Eurostat's data is collected through the European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC) survey: https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/ilc_sieusilc.htm Access data from Eurostat

Short name	Satisfaction with personal relationships (8.3)
Long name	Mean average satisfaction with personal relationships on a scale from 0 (not at all satisfied) to 10 (completely satisfied).
Dimension	Social connections
Definition	Satisfaction with personal relationships is measured as the mean score of survey respondents rating their satisfaction with personal relationships on an 11-point scale, ranging from 0 (not at all satisfied) to 10 (completely satisfied). This indicator reflects the respondent's subjective assessment of their overall satisfaction with personal relationships, including those with relatives, friends, and colleagues. Respondents are asked to provide a broad, reflective evaluation of their relationships at a specific point in time (e.g., "these days").
Use	To assess the quality of personal relationships, monitor social well-being, and inform policies aimed at enhancing interpersonal connections and support networks.
Type	Subjective
Unit of measurement	Mean average satisfaction on a scale from 0 to 10.
Data sources	Household surveys or targeted social surveys International sources includes the EU-SILC survey.
Frameworks	OECD How's Life? Eurostat Quality of Life Framework
More metadata	The OECD Well-being Database includes Eurostat data as well as additional data on satisfaction with personal relationships for non-European OECD member countries. Access indicator data from OECD Eurostat's data is collected through the European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC) survey: https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/ilc_sieusilc.htm Access indicator data from Eurostat

Short name	Experience of discrimination (8.4)
Long name	Share of the population reporting feelings of discrimination or unfair treatment based on personal characteristics, such as race, gender, religion, or socioeconomic status.
Dimension	Social connections
Definition	This indicator represents the proportion of adults who self-report experiencing discrimination or harassment within the past 12 months based on grounds prohibited by international human rights law (IHRL). IHRL encompasses the body of international legal instruments designed to promote and protect human rights, including the Universal Declaration of Human Rights (UDHR) and subsequent treaties adopted by the United Nations (UN).
Use	To monitor experiences of discrimination, evaluate social equity and inclusion, and guide policies aimed at reducing prejudice and promoting equal treatment across all societal groups.
Type	Subjective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of the population
Data sources	Social surveys. For reference, household surveys, such as Multiple Indicator Cluster Surveys (MICS), victimisation surveys and other social surveys are the main data sources for this indicator. Data are available in SDG Database (SDG 10.3.1)
Frameworks	Sustainable Development Goals Eurostat Quality of Life Framework
More metadata	Access SDG metadata (indicator 10.3.1) https://unstats.un.org/sdgs/dataportal/SDMXMetadataPage?10.3.1-VC_VOV_GDSD

Short name	Loneliness (8.5)
Long name	Share of population aged 16+ feeling lonely most or all of the time in the past four weeks
Dimension	Social connections
Definition	Loneliness refers to the percentage of people who report feeling lonely “all of the time” and “most of the time” in the past four weeks. The following question is asked to the household reference person: ““How much of the time over the past four weeks have you been feeling lonely?”, with response categories: “all of the time”, “most of the time”, “some of the time”, “a little of the time”, and “none of the time”.
Use	To assess social isolation, monitor mental well-being trends, and guide interventions aimed at reducing loneliness and fostering social connectedness.
Type	Subjective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of population aged 16+
Data sources	Household surveys or social surveys. International sources include the EU-SILC.
Frameworks	OECD How’s Life?
More metadata	Eurostat’s data is collected through the European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC) survey: https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/ilc_sieusilc.htm The OECD Well-being Database includes Eurostat data as well as additional data on loneliness for non-European OECD member countries. Access indicator data from OECD

Short name	Trust in other people (8.6)
Long name	Mean average, on a scale from 0 (you do not trust any other person) to 10 (most people can be trusted)
Dimension	Social connections
Definition	Trust in others is based on the survey question: “In general, how much do you trust most people?” Respondents answer using an 11-point scale, ranging from 0 (“Not at all”) to 10 (“Completely”). This follows the OECD Guidelines on Measuring Trust.
Use	To measure social cohesion, evaluate the level of interpersonal trust within a society, and inform policies aimed at fostering community resilience and social capital.
Type	Subjective
Unit of measurement	Mean average, on a scale from 0 to 10
Data sources	Household surveys or social services. International sources include: EU-SILC (survey) and OECD's How's Life? Database (future well-being dataflow).
Frameworks	OECD How's Life? Eurostat Quality of Life Framework CES Recommendations on measuring sustainable development in 2014.
More metadata	OECD Guidelines on Measuring Trust https://www.oecd.org/en/publications/oecd-guidelines-on-measuring-trust_9789264278219-en.html The OECD Well-being Database includes Eurostat data as well as additional data on trust in other people for non-European OECD member countries. Access indicator data from OECD Access indicator data from Eurostat Eurostat's data is collected through the European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC) survey: https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/ilc_sieusilc.htm

Short name	Participation in cultural activities (8.7)
Long name	Share of population not participating in cultural or sport activities in the last 12 months
Dimension	Social connections
Definition	The percentage of individuals who did not engage in any cultural or sports activities over the past 12 months. Cultural activities include attending events such as concerts, theatre performances, or museum visits, while sports activities refer to participation in physical exercises or organized sports. This is typically measured through self-reported survey data.
Use	To assess barriers to cultural engagement, monitor trends in cultural participation, and inform policies aimed at promoting access to and inclusion in cultural activities.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of the population
Data sources	Recommended sources are household or social surveys and Time Use Surveys. International sources include EU-SILC Survey and OECE guidelines.
Frameworks	Eurostat Quality of Life Framework
More metadata	Eurostat's data is collected through the European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC) survey: https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/ilc_sieusilc.htm

Short name	Volunteering (8.8)
Long name	Percentage of the population who declared having volunteered through an organisation in the past month
Dimension	Social connections
Definition	Volunteering through organizations is defined as the percentage of the population who report having volunteered their time with an organization in response to a binary question like: “In the past month, have you volunteered your time at an organization?” This measure captures formal volunteer activity within structured groups or institutions.
Use	To measure civic engagement, assess the role of organized volunteerism in social cohesion, and guide policies promoting community involvement and active citizenship.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of the population
Data sources	Recommended sources are household or social surveys, or Time Use Surveys. International sources include OECD (data are collected through Gallup World Poll , which the OECD Well-being Database draws on at the moment) and EU-SILC Survey .
Frameworks	OECD How’s Life? CES Recommendations Eurostat Quality of Life Framework
More metadata	oecd-well-being-database-definitions.pdf Eurostat’s data is collected through the European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC) survey: https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/ilc_sieusilc.htm Access the indicator data from Eurostat

Short name	People who feel they have a say in what the government does (9.1)
Long name	Share of respondents with a score equal to 6 or above, on a scale of 0 (not at all) to 10 (a great deal) when asked “How much would you say the political system in your country allows people like you to have a say in what the government does?”
Dimension	Civic engagement
Definition	Having a say in what the government does is measured through a question which asks respondents to rate on a 0-10 point scale, where 0 stands for “not at all” and 10 for “a great deal”, what extent they agree with the statement, “How much would you say the political system in [COUNTRY] allows people like you to have a say in what the government does?”.. Having a say in government refers to the percentage of respondents who gave a score of at least 6.
Use	To assess public perceptions of political efficacy, evaluate the inclusiveness of governance, and guide policies to enhance citizen engagement and trust in government decision-making.
Type	Subjective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of respondents (country average)
Data sources	Household surveys or targeted surveys. Leverage data and methodology from the OECD Survey on the Drivers of Trust in Public Institutions, which measures public perceptions of political influence and governance inclusiveness.
Frameworks	OECD How’s Life?
More metadata	OECD sources data from: OECD Trust Survey, https://www.oecd.org/governance/trust-in-government/ Access indicator data from OECD

Short name	Active citizenship (9.2)
Long name	Share of population who participate in civic and political activities
Dimension	Civil engagement
Definition	The proportion of the population actively engaging in civic and political activities, including actions such as voting, attending public meetings, joining protests, signing petitions, or participating in political parties, organizations, or community groups. This is typically measured through self-reported survey data.
Use	To measure civic engagement, promote democratic participation, and inform policies aimed at fostering active involvement in societal and political processes.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of population (16 years and over)
Data sources	Household surveys or target surveys. Leverage data and methodology from EU-SILC survey ; However, European Social Survey (ESS) also provides cross-national data on various dimensions of political engagement and civil participation.
Frameworks	Eurostat Quality of Life Framework
More metadata	Eurostat's data is collected through the European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC) survey: https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/ilc_sieusilc.htm Access indicator data from Eurostat

Short name	Voter turnout (9.3)
Long name	Share of votes cast among the population registered to vote
Dimension	Civic engagement
Definition	Voter turnout is calculated as the number of votes cast as a percentage of the population registered to vote, based on the electoral register. Data is collected from National Statistical Offices and electoral management bodies, compiled by the International Institute for Democracy and Electoral Assistance, and pertains to major national elections. National elections include presidential elections in countries such as Chile, Colombia, France, Korea, Lithuania, Mexico, Poland, the Russian Federation, Türkiye, and the United States, and parliamentary elections in other nations. In Australia, Belgium, Brazil, Luxembourg, and Türkiye, voting is compulsory. Distribution estimates of voter turnout by population group are derived from post-election self-reported survey data collected by the Comparative Study of Electoral Systems, using responses to a yes/no question: “Did the respondent cast a ballot in the current election?”
Use	To measure civic engagement, assess the strength of democratic participation, and inform policies aimed at increasing political inclusion and voter accessibility.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of population registered to vote
Data sources	Administrative records . Leverage data and methodology for country average data: Institute for Democracy and Electoral Assistance (IDEA) (database), and for horizontal inequality data: Comparative Study of Electoral Systems (database), https://cses.org/ ; and estimates provided by National Statistical Offices.
Frameworks	OECD How’s Life? Eurostat Quality of Life Framework CES Recommendations – Report on measuring sustainable development (2012)
More metadata	OECD data sources: for country average data: Institute for Democracy and Electoral Assistance (IDEA) (database), www.idea.int/ ; and for horizontal inequality data: Comparative Study of Electoral Systems (database), www.cses.org ; and estimates provided by NSOs. Access indicator data from OECD

Short name	Trust in institutions (9.4)
Long name	Average score in trust in different institutions on a scale from 0 to 10
Dimension	Civic engagement
Definition	The average trust score in various institutions, reported on a scale from 0 (no trust) to 10 (complete trust), based on survey responses. Institutions may include, e.g., parliament, civil service, the legal system, police.
Use	To measure public confidence in governance and service delivery, assess societal cohesion, and inform policies to strengthen institutional effectiveness and accountability.
Type	Subjective
Unit of measurement	Mean score on a scale from 0 (no trust at all) to 10 (complete trust)
Data sources	Household surveys or targeted surveys. Leverage data and methodology from three databases used to access data (1) OECD How's Life? Database (future well-being dataflow) , (2) EU-SILC survey and (3) Gallup survey .
Frameworks	OECD How's Life? Eurostat Quality of Life Framework
More metadata	OECD Guidelines on Measuring Trust https://www.oecd.org/en/publications/oecd-guidelines-on-measuring-trust_9789264278219-en.html OECD Trust Survey, https://www.oecd.org/governance/trust-in-government/ Until sufficient waves of the OECD Trust Survey have been conducted to guarantee time series, the OECD Well-being Database draws on a binary indicator on trust in the national government from the Gallup World Poll. Access indicator data from OECD Eurostat collected data for 'trust in the police', 'trust in legal system' and 'trust in political system' as a one off in 2013 through the European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC) survey: https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/ilc_sieusilc.htm

Short name	Air quality (10.1)
Long name	Share of population exposed to outdoor air pollution
Dimension	Environmental conditions
Definition	Exposure to outdoor air pollution is defined as the percentage of the population living in areas where annual concentrations of fine particulate matter (PM2.5), particles less than 2.5 microns in diameter, exceed the 2021 WHO Air Quality Guideline limit of 5 micrograms per cubic meter.
Use	To assess air quality, monitor population exposure to harmful particulate matter, and guide policies to reduce air pollution and its health impacts.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of population
Data sources	National administrative records including official data collected by government agencies, such as air pollution monitoring stations, which applies to WHO data, are recommended. Countries could also source by combining satellite observation, ground monitoring and modelling to estimate air pollution exposure levels globally. Leverage data and methodology from linking Global Burden of Disease air pollutant data with Global Human Settlement Layer population data, as done in the OECD's Exposure to air pollution database.
Frameworks	OECD How's Life? CES Recommendations on measuring sustainable development UNECE's Convention on long-range Transboundary Air Pollution.
More metadata	Access indicator data from OECD

Short name	Noise pollution (10.2)
Long name	Share of population reporting noise from neighbours or from the street
Dimension	Environmental conditions
Definition	The proportion of the population who report being regularly disturbed by noise from neighbours or street activities, as assessed through survey responses. This includes noise from traffic, construction, industrial activities, or other sources in their living environment.
Use	To monitor environmental noise pollution, assess its impact on quality of life, and guide policies aimed at reducing noise exposure in residential areas.
Type	Subjective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of population
Data sources	Household survey is recommended. Leverage data and methodology from EU-SILC Survey .
Frameworks	Eurostat Quality of Life Framework
More metadata	Data is collected through the European Union Statistics on Income and Living Conditions (EU-SILC) survey: https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/cache/metadata/en/ilc_sieusilc.htm Access indicator data from Eurostat

Short name	Access to green space (10.3)
Long name	Share of urban population with access to green space within a 5 minutes' walk
Dimension	Environmental conditions
Definition	Access to recreational green space in urban areas is defined as the proportion of the urban population with access to recreational green spaces within a 5-minute walking distance (approximately 400 meters). These green spaces include public areas primarily used for recreation, such as gardens, playgrounds, zoos, parks, castle parks, and cemeteries, as well as suburban natural areas managed as urban parks. Forests or green spaces extending into urban areas are also included when bordered by urban structures on at least two sides and showing signs of recreational use. The method involves mapping areas within a 5-minute walking distance (400 meters, based on an average walking speed of 5 km/h) from inhabited polygons defined in the European Urban Atlas.
Use	To evaluate urban liability, promote equitable access to green spaces, and inform urban planning and public health initiatives.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of urban population
Data sources	Household surveys and administrative registers, including, geospatial data, are recommended. Leverage data and methodology from OECD's How's Life? Database .
Frameworks	OECD How's Life?
More metadata	OECD's calculations are based on Poelman (2018), "A walk to the park? Assessing access to green areas in Europe's cities, update using completed Copernicus urban atlas data", European Commission, Regional and urban policy, https://ec.europa.eu/regional_policy/en/information/publications/working-papers/2018/a-walk-to-the-park-assessing-access-to-green-areas-in-europe-s-cities ; and estimates provided by NSOs. Access indicator data from OECD .

Short name	Exposure to extreme temperatures (heat stress) (10.4)
Long name	Share of population exposed to hot days for at least two weeks a year
Dimension	Environmental conditions
Definition	Percentage of the population exposed to hot days (maximum temperature > 35°C) for a minimum of two weeks per year. Exposure to extreme heat has well-documented effects on health and overall well-being and is expected to rise due to climate change.
Use	To assess population vulnerability to extreme heat, monitor climate change impacts, and inform policies for climate adaptation and public health protection.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of population
Data sources	Administrative registers, including geospatial data. Leverage data and methodology from OECD Exposure to extreme temperature (database) which draws on Copernicus Climate Data Store temperature data (ERA5) and Global Human Settlement Layer population grid data.
Frameworks	OECD How's Life? Sustainable Development Goals (13.1)
More metadata	Access indicator data from OECD .

Short name	Clean drinking water (10.5)
Long name	Share of population using safely managed drinking water services (SDG 6.1.1)
Dimension	Environmental conditions
Definition	The proportion of the population using safely managed drinking water services is defined as the proportion of population using an improved drinking water source which is accessible on premises, available when needed and free from faecal and priority chemical contamination. 'Improved' drinking water sources include piped supplies, boreholes and tubewells, protected dug wells, protected springs, rainwater, water kiosks, and packaged and delivered water.
Use	To track progress toward universal access to safe drinking water, identify disparities, and guide policies to improve water infrastructure and public health.
Type	Objective
Unit of measurement	Percentage of the population
Data sources	Household surveys and administrative registers. Several international organisations produce data on the indicator, including WHO/UNICEF Joint Monitoring Programme (JMP), World Bank's World Development Indicators (WDI) and MICS Surveys .
Frameworks	Sustainable Development Goals
More metadata	Data collected by WHO/UNICEF Joint Monitoring Programme for Water Supply, Sanitation and Hygiene (JMP) through household surveys such as MICS and DHS. More information available at https://washdata.org/ Link to more metadata in SDG Database: https://unstats.un.org/sdgs/dataportal/SDMXMetadataPage?6.1.1-SH_H2O_SAFE